

Space–Time Algebra

A compact development of paravectors and their physical applications

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Abstract

A complex scalar and three-vector form a paravector algebra combining dot and cross products. It expresses quaternions, rotations, Lorentz boosts, projections, spectral functions, spacetime geometry, relativistic dynamics, electromagnetism, gauge coupling, Klein–Gordon and Dirac equations, Schrödinger and Pauli limits, and spin amplitudes and probabilities. Shared definitions connect these results through short derivations: spacetime determinants give proper time, four-momentum, and the mass shell; energy and momentum operators yield Klein–Gordon, whose first-order factorization gives Dirac. Spin one-half emerges naturally from the rotation structure of paravector spinors. The same products and projectors give its magnetic coupling and measurement probabilities.

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1 Algebra and paravectors

1.1 Notation and physical conventions

We use natural units $\hbar = c = 1$, rationalized electromagnetic units, and signature $(+, -, -, -)$. Passages reverting to SI units are marked explicitly. Their equations are boxed with a subscript SI on the box; the quantities inside retain their usual symbols. Bold symbols denote vectors, ordered generator triples, or, where specified, matrices.

Latin paravectors and paravector operators use bold calligraphic capitals. Greek paravector symbols retain their usual glyphs, with paravector-valued $\boldsymbol{\psi}$, $\boldsymbol{\phi}$, and $\boldsymbol{\varphi}$ in bold. The unsubscripted paravector derivative $\boldsymbol{\partial}$ is also bold; derivatives such as ∂_t and ∂_r use an unbolded partial symbol and bold vector subscripts. Scalar quantities and coefficient components remain unadorned. Vectors and matrices remain bold. These styles distinguish, for example, a boost $\boldsymbol{\mathcal{L}}$ from a scalar Lagrangian L , and the paravector momentum $\boldsymbol{\mathcal{P}}$ from its vector part $\boldsymbol{P}$.

We use the algebra of physical space (APS), $\text{Cl}_{3,0}$, isomorphic to the even subalgebra of spacetime algebra, $\text{Cl}_{1,3}^+$ [1, pp. 1–2].

We identify $c + \boldsymbol{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with its coefficient pair $(c, \boldsymbol{Z}) \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Real paravectors lie in $\mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$; mixed sums specify the two coefficient spaces separately. The direct sum describes values, while the sigma rules define multiplication. The generators σ_k are algebra elements; $\boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is their ordered triple, not a numerical vector in $\mathbb{R}^3$.

Domains persist within a section unless a specialization is stated. Primes and subscripts inherit the declared type unless explicitly redefined. For fields, membership states the value at each real spacetime point; function notation specifies the independent variables. All differentiations assume the required regularity.

1.2 Sigma generators and ordered multiplication

The generators σ_n , $n = 1, 2, 3$, obey ordered multiplication rules. Their products generally do not commute. The panel gives their defining relations and the general complex element [1, pp. 4–5]:

$\begin{aligned}\sigma_n^2 &= 1, \\ \mathbf{i} &= \sigma_1 \sigma_2 \sigma_3, \\ \boldsymbol{\sigma} &= \{\sigma_1, \sigma_2, \sigma_3\}, \\ \boldsymbol{\mathcal{Z}} &= (a + b\mathbf{i}) + (\boldsymbol{X} + \boldsymbol{Y}\mathbf{i}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma},\end{aligned}$	$\begin{aligned}\sigma_n \sigma_m &= -\sigma_m \sigma_n \quad (n \neq m), \\ \mathbf{i}^2 &= -1, \\ \mathbf{i} \boldsymbol{\sigma} &= \{\sigma_2 \sigma_3, \sigma_3 \sigma_1, \sigma_1 \sigma_2\}, \\ a, b \in \mathbb{R}, \quad \boldsymbol{X}, \boldsymbol{Y} &\in \mathbb{R}^3.\end{aligned}$
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Ordinary three-vector operations use

$$\begin{aligned}\boldsymbol{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{Y} &= X_1 Y_1 + X_2 Y_2 + X_3 Y_3, \\ \boldsymbol{X} \times \boldsymbol{Y} &= \{X_2 Y_3 - X_3 Y_2, X_3 Y_1 - X_1 Y_3, X_1 Y_2 - X_2 Y_1\}, \\ \boldsymbol{X}^2 &:= \boldsymbol{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{X}.\end{aligned}$$

Thus the square of a vector always denotes its self dot product. For complex vectors, dot and cross products use the same formulas, without conjugating either factor. The elementary Cartesian

vectors used below are the real vectors

$$\mathbf{e}_1 = \{1, 0, 0\}, \quad \mathbf{e}_2 = \{0, 1, 0\}, \quad \mathbf{e}_3 = \{0, 0, 1\}.$$

Thus $\mathbf{e}_k \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \sigma_k$; the scalar basis element is 1. Unindexed e denotes only Euler's number.

These eight elements form a complete basis, displayed by type as

$$\underbrace{1}_{\text{scalar}} \quad \underbrace{\sigma_1, \sigma_2, \sigma_3}_{\text{vectors}} \quad \underbrace{\mathrm{i}\sigma_1, \mathrm{i}\sigma_2, \mathrm{i}\sigma_3}_{\text{bivectors}} \quad \underbrace{\mathrm{i}}_{\text{pseudoscalar}}.$$

Anticommutation gives $\mathrm{i}^2 = -\sigma_1^2 \sigma_2^2 \sigma_3^2 = -1$. The pseudoscalar is central: moving σ_n through the other two generators produces two sign changes, so

$$\mathrm{i}\sigma_n = \sigma_n \mathrm{i}.$$

Thus its order of multiplication does not matter.

For $\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, the commutator is

$$\begin{aligned} [\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}] &:= \mathcal{X}\mathcal{Y} - \mathcal{Y}\mathcal{X}, \\ [\mathcal{Y}, \mathcal{X}] &= -[\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}]. \end{aligned}$$

Thus $[\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}] = 0$ exactly when $\mathcal{X}$ and $\mathcal{Y}$ commute. For $n, m, k = 1, 2, 3$, define the Kronecker delta by

$$\delta_{nm} := \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } n = m, \\ 0 & \text{if } n \neq m, \end{cases}$$

and the Levi-Civita symbol by

$$\epsilon_{nmk} := \begin{cases} +1 & \text{if } (n, m, k) \text{ is an even permutation of } (1, 2, 3), \\ -1 & \text{if } (n, m, k) \text{ is an odd permutation of } (1, 2, 3), \\ 0 & \text{if two or more indices are equal.} \end{cases}$$

For $n, m = 1, 2, 3$, the ordered multiplication rule and commutator are [1, Eq. (3)] [1, Eq. (10)]

$$\begin{aligned} \sigma_n \sigma_m &= \delta_{nm} + \sum_{k=1}^3 \epsilon_{nmk} \mathrm{i}\sigma_k, \\ [\sigma_n, \sigma_m] &= 2 \sum_{k=1}^3 \epsilon_{nmk} \mathrm{i}\sigma_k. \end{aligned} \tag{1.1}$$

1.3 Hermitian and sigma conjugation

Define *Hermitian conjugation* (reversion in APS) by (1.2) and *sigma conjugation* (grade involution) by (1.3) [2, Eq. (3)]:

$$(\cdot)^{\mathrm{H}} := \text{reverse the order of every product of sigma generators}, \tag{1.2}$$

$$(\cdot)^* := \text{replace every } \sigma_n \text{ by } -\sigma_n \text{ without changing product order}. \tag{1.3}$$

Thus, for two generators,

$$\begin{aligned}(\sigma_m \sigma_n)^H &= \sigma_n \sigma_m, \\ (\sigma_m \sigma_n)^* &= (-\sigma_m)(-\sigma_n).\end{aligned}$$

Both operations act term by term on sums and leave real coefficients fixed. Since $i = \sigma_1 \sigma_2 \sigma_3$, sigma conjugation preserves product order and reverses each generator:

$$i^* = (-\sigma_1)(-\sigma_2)(-\sigma_3) = -\sigma_1 \sigma_2 \sigma_3 = -i.$$

It therefore complex conjugates the scalar coefficients while reversing the sign of σ . Their actions on the four basis types are

type representative	scalar 1	vector σ_n	bivector $i\sigma_n$	pseudoscalar i
$(\cdot)^*$	+	−	+	−
$(\cdot)^H$	+	+	−	−
$(\cdot)^{*H}$	+	−	−	+

For example, on a bivector the signs follow directly:

$$\begin{aligned}(i\sigma_n)^* &= i^* \sigma_n^* = i\sigma_n, \\ (i\sigma_n)^H &= \sigma_n^H i^H = -i\sigma_n.\end{aligned}$$

For $\mathcal{Z}, \mathcal{Z}' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, the definitions give the product laws [1, p. 4] [2, p. 2]

$$(\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Z}')^H = \mathcal{Z}'^H \mathcal{Z}^H, \tag{1.4}$$

$$(\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Z}')^* = \mathcal{Z}^* \mathcal{Z}'^*. \tag{1.5}$$

The operations commute with each other: $\mathcal{Z}^{*H} = \mathcal{Z}^{H*}$. Appendix A gives both operations in the Pauli-matrix representation, where H is the usual matrix Hermitian conjugation.

1.4 Complex paravectors and their components

Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. The two real paravectors $\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ combine into the general complex paravector $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{X} &:= a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathcal{Y} &:= b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathcal{Z} &= \mathcal{X} + i\mathcal{Y} \\ &= (a + bi) + (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \\ &= c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.\end{aligned}$$

Here $c = a + bi \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{C}^3$ are its complex scalar and vector coefficients.

Thus $\text{sc}, \det, \text{tr}$ take values in $\mathbb{C}$, vec in $\mathbb{C}^3$, and re, im in $\mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. Conjugates, adjugates, and existing inverses take values in $\mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Define the complex scalar and vector extractions by

$$\begin{aligned}\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}) &:= c = a + ib, \\ \text{vec}(\mathcal{Z}) &:= \mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}.\end{aligned}$$

The complex scalar part combines scalar and pseudoscalar grades; the complex vector term combines vector and bivector grades. This notation applies throughout the algebra unless a real specialization is stated.

1.5 Conjugates, determinant, and inverse

On the coefficients, both conjugations give $c^* = c^H = a - bi$ and $\mathbf{Z}^* = \mathbf{Z}^H = \mathbf{X} - i\mathbf{Y}$; on the paravector, the two conjugations differ in the vector sign [2, Eq. (45)]:

$$\mathbf{Z}^* = c^* - \mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = (a - bi) + (-\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (1.6)$$

$$\mathbf{Z}^H = c^* + \mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = (a - bi) + (\mathbf{X} - i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (1.7)$$

Their composition defines the adjugate [2, Eq. (39)]

$$\text{adj } \mathbf{Z} := \mathbf{Z}^{*H} = c - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (1.8)$$

The trace is twice the scalar part:

$$\text{tr}(\mathbf{Z}) := \mathbf{Z} + \text{adj } \mathbf{Z} = 2 \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}) = 2c. \quad (1.9)$$

The determinant is the complex scalar [3, p. 104]

$$\det \mathbf{Z} := \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}) \mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{Z} \text{adj } \mathbf{Z} = c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2. \quad (1.10)$$

For $\mathbf{Z}' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, adjugation reverses product order, giving determinant multiplicativity:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}') &= \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}') \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}), \\ \det(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}') &= \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}') (\text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}) \mathbf{Z}) \mathbf{Z}' = \det(\mathbf{Z}) \det(\mathbf{Z}'). \end{aligned}$$

Since the determinants are scalars, the determinant of any product is unchanged by reordering its factors. For a scalar $z \in \mathbb{C}$,

$$\begin{aligned} \text{adj}(z\mathbf{Z}) &= z \text{adj}(\mathbf{Z}), \\ \det(z\mathbf{Z}) &= z^2 \det(\mathbf{Z}). \end{aligned} \quad (1.11)$$

When $\det(\mathbf{Z}) \neq 0$, the inverse is [2, Eq. (47)]

$$\mathbf{Z}^{-1} = \frac{\text{adj}(\mathbf{Z})}{\det(\mathbf{Z})} = \frac{c - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2}. \quad (1.12)$$

For $\mathbf{Z}' = c' + \mathbf{Z}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c' \in \mathbb{C}$, $\mathbf{Z}' \in \mathbb{C}^3$, division is order-sensitive. An unambiguous quotient exists when $\mathbf{Z}$ is invertible and the factors commute:

$$\frac{\mathbf{Z}'}{\mathbf{Z}} := \mathbf{Z}' \mathbf{Z}^{-1} = \mathbf{Z}^{-1} \mathbf{Z}' \quad \text{if } \mathbf{Z} \times \mathbf{Z}' = 0.$$

Differentiating $\mathbf{Z}^{-1} \mathbf{Z} = 1$ gives the inverse rule

$$d(\mathbf{Z}^{-1}) = -\mathbf{Z}^{-1} (d\mathbf{Z}) \mathbf{Z}^{-1}.$$

For $\mathbf{Z}, \mathbf{Z}', \mathbf{Z}'' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, scalar part obeys the cyclic laws

$$\begin{aligned} \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}') &= \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{Z}), \\ \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{Z}'') &= \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}'\mathbf{Z}''\mathbf{Z}) = \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}''\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'). \end{aligned} \quad (1.13)$$

Multiplying these identities by 2 gives trace cyclicity. Their similarity invariants are derived in Section 5.

1.6 Real and imaginary extractions

The real and imaginary extractions use Hermitian conjugation [1, Eq. (9)]:

$$\text{re}(\mathcal{Z}) := \frac{1}{2}(\mathcal{Z} + \mathcal{Z}^H) = \mathcal{X}, \quad (1.14)$$

$$\text{im}(\mathcal{Z}) := \frac{\mathcal{Z} - \mathcal{Z}^H}{2i} = \mathcal{Y}. \quad (1.15)$$

Adjugation evaluates the scalar and vector extractions explicitly [1, Eq. (14)]:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}) &= \frac{1}{2}(\mathcal{Z} + \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})) = c, \\ (\text{vec}(\mathcal{Z})) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} &= \frac{1}{2}(\mathcal{Z} - \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})) = \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

The functions re and im also act on complex coefficients. Composing extractions recovers all four real parts:

$$\begin{aligned} a &= \text{re}(c) = \text{sc}(\text{re}(\mathcal{Z})), \\ b &= \text{im}(c) = \text{sc}(\text{im}(\mathcal{Z})), \\ \mathbf{X} &= \text{re}(\mathbf{Z}) = \text{vec}(\text{re}(\mathcal{Z})), \\ \mathbf{Y} &= \text{im}(\mathbf{Z}) = \text{vec}(\text{im}(\mathcal{Z})). \end{aligned}$$

Appendix A reproduces these intrinsic operations with Pauli matrices.

2 Products and normalizations

2.1 Invertibility and normalization

Recall $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$. For $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$, distinguish the bilinear square from the squared norm:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{Z}^2 &:= \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}, \\ \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2 &:= \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}^*. \end{aligned}$$

For $c \in \mathbb{C}$, set $\|c\|^2 := cc^*$. The squared paravector norm is [2, Eq. (46)]

$$\|\mathcal{Z}\|^2 := \|c\|^2 + \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2 = cc^* + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}^*. \quad (2.1)$$

All norms take values in $\mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ and denote nonnegative real square roots. Here $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{C}^3$ and $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Each name below specifies a condition; a letter alone implies none.

- **Vector of square one.** $\mathbf{u}$ satisfies

$$\mathbf{u}^2 = \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u} = 1. \quad (2.2)$$

For $\mathbf{Z}^2 \neq 0$, take $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}/\sqrt{\mathbf{Z}^2}$ with either square root. Its norm need not be one. A nonzero vector with $\mathbf{Z}^2 = 0$ cannot be normalized this way.

- **Vector of unit norm.** $\mathbf{u}$ satisfies

$$\|\mathbf{u}\|^2 = \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}^* = 1.$$

For any $\mathbf{Z} \neq 0$, take $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}/\|\mathbf{Z}\|$; then $\mathbf{u}^2 = \mathbf{Z}^2/\|\mathbf{Z}\|^2$ need not be one. For real vectors the two conditions coincide: a *real unit vector* has $\mathbf{u}^2 = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 = 1$. For complex vectors, specify which holds.

- **Invertible paravector.** $\mathcal{Z}$ has an inverse on both sides:

$$\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Z}^{-1} = \mathcal{Z}^{-1}\mathcal{Z} = 1. \quad (2.3)$$

Equivalently, $\det(\mathcal{Z}) \neq 0$. In algebra, an invertible element is also called an *algebraic unit*. This terminology does not impose unit norm or determinant one; we use *invertible* here to avoid confusion with those normalization conditions.

- **Unitary paravector.** Its Hermitian conjugate is its inverse:

$$\mathcal{Z}^H \mathcal{Z} = 1. \quad (2.4)$$

Then $\mathcal{Z}^H = \mathcal{Z}^{-1}$ and $\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Z}^H = 1$.

- **Paravector of determinant one.** $\mathcal{Z}$ satisfies

$$\det \mathcal{Z} = 1. \quad (2.5)$$

It is invertible with $\mathcal{Z}^{-1} = \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})$; it need not be unitary. For real $\mathcal{Z}$, $\text{adj} \mathcal{Z} = \mathcal{Z}^*$, so this condition is also $\mathcal{Z}^* \mathcal{Z} = 1$. This equivalence need not hold for complex $\mathcal{Z}$.

- **Paravector of unit norm.** $\mathcal{Z}$ satisfies

$$\|\mathcal{Z}\|^2 = 1. \quad (2.6)$$

For $\mathcal{Z} \neq 0$, $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{Z}/\|\mathcal{Z}\|$ has unit norm. It need not have an inverse: $(1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/\sqrt{2}$ has norm one and determinant zero for any real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$. Unitarity implies unit norm by (2.14).

- **Self-inverse paravector.** $\mathcal{Z}$ is its own inverse:

$$\mathcal{Z}^2 = 1. \quad (2.7)$$

Then $\mathcal{Z}^{-1} = \mathcal{Z}$; it is unitary exactly when $\mathcal{Z}^H = \mathcal{Z}$. Its parts obey $c^2 + \mathbf{Z}^2 = 1$ and $2c\mathbf{Z} = 0$: thus $\mathcal{Z} = \pm 1$ or $\mathcal{Z} = \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$.

Two complex vectors illustrate why the normalizations differ:

$\mathcal{Z}$	$\mathcal{Z}^2$	$\ \mathcal{Z}\ ^2$
$\{\sqrt{2}, i, 0\}$	1	3
$\{1, i, 0\}$	0	2

Their vectors of unit norm have squares 1/3 and 0, respectively. The physical roles of the paravector conditions are compared in Section 5.

2.2 Products and quadratic forms

For $\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{C}^3$, multiplication combines the dot and cross products; both products are complex bilinear, with no conjugation. The sigma rule (1.1) gives the dot-cross identity [2, Eq. (38)]

$$\begin{aligned}
(\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= \sum_{n=1}^3 \sum_{m=1}^3 X_n Y_m \sigma_n \sigma_m \\
&= \sum_{n=1}^3 \sum_{m=1}^3 X_n Y_m \delta_{nm} + \sum_{n=1}^3 \sum_{m=1}^3 \sum_{k=1}^3 X_n Y_m \epsilon_{nmk} i \sigma_k \\
&= \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y} + i(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.
\end{aligned} \quad (2.8)$$

For real $\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y}$, the product lies in $\mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$. Adding the product with $\mathbf{X}$ and $\mathbf{Y}$ interchanged gives

$$2(\mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}) = (\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) + (\mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

Consequently, for every nonnegative integer n ,

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 &= \mathbf{X}^2, \\ (\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^{2n} &= (\mathbf{X}^2)^n, \\ (\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^{2n+1} &= (\mathbf{X}^2)^n \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Also,

$$(\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\boldsymbol{\sigma} = \mathbf{X} - i\mathbf{X} \times \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Subtracting the two orders gives

$$[\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] = 2i(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Hence

$$\begin{aligned} [\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \boldsymbol{\sigma}] &= -2i\mathbf{X} \times \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ [\mathbf{X} \cdot i\boldsymbol{\sigma}, \boldsymbol{\sigma}] &= 2\mathbf{X} \times \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ [\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \boldsymbol{\sigma}] \cdot \mathbf{Y} &= 2i(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

2.3 Real products

For real $\mathbf{x} = a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $\mathbf{y} = b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, (2.8) gives

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{x}\mathbf{y} &= (ab + \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}) + (a\mathbf{Y} + b\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ [\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}] &= 2i(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathbf{x}^2 &= (a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2) + 2a\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Thus $\mathbf{x}\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, $[\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}] \in \{0\} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathbf{x}^2 \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. Real paravectors are not closed under multiplication. The real quadratic identity is (3.1) with $c = a$. If $\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y} = 0$, then $\mathbf{x}\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{y}\mathbf{x}$; when $\det(\mathbf{x}) \neq 0$, also $\mathbf{x}^{-1}\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{y}\mathbf{x}^{-1}$.

2.4 Complex products

Let $\mathbf{z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $\mathbf{z}' = c' + \mathbf{Z}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, where $c, c' \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z}, \mathbf{Z}' \in \mathbb{C}^3$. Complex bilinearity extends (2.8) to the general product

$$\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}' = (cc' + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}') + (c\mathbf{Z}' + c'\mathbf{Z} + i\mathbf{Z} \times \mathbf{Z}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (2.9)$$

The result $\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ has a complex scalar and complex vector part. Thus

$$\begin{aligned} \text{sc}(\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}') &= cc' + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}', \\ \text{vec}(\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}') &= c\mathbf{Z}' + c'\mathbf{Z} + i\mathbf{Z} \times \mathbf{Z}'. \end{aligned}$$

Equivalently, write $\mathbf{z} = \mathbf{x} + i\mathbf{y}$ and $\mathbf{z}' = \mathbf{x}' + i\mathbf{y}'$ with all four factors real. Their products need not be real, but distributivity gives

$$\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}' = (\mathbf{x}\mathbf{x}' - \mathbf{y}\mathbf{y}') + i(\mathbf{x}\mathbf{y}' + \mathbf{y}\mathbf{x}').$$

Write $\mathbf{Z} = (a + bi) + (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with real $a, b, \mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y}$, and use primes for the second paravector's real parts. The real and imaginary scalar and vector parts of $\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}'$ are

$$\begin{aligned} \text{real scalar: } & aa' - bb' + \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{X}' - \mathbf{Y} \cdot \mathbf{Y}', \\ \text{imaginary scalar: } & ab' + ba' + \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}' + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \mathbf{X}', \\ \text{real vector: } & a\mathbf{X}' - b\mathbf{Y}' + a'\mathbf{X} - b'\mathbf{Y} - \mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}' - \mathbf{Y} \times \mathbf{X}', \\ \text{imaginary vector: } & a\mathbf{Y}' + b\mathbf{X}' + a'\mathbf{Y} + b'\mathbf{X} + \mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{X}' - \mathbf{Y} \times \mathbf{Y}'. \end{aligned}$$

Specializing (2.9) gives the quadratic products:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{Z}^2 &= (a^2 - b^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2) + 2i(ab + \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}) \\ &\quad + 2(a\mathbf{X} - b\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + 2i(a\mathbf{Y} + b\mathbf{X}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \end{aligned}$$

$$\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^* = (a^2 + b^2 - \mathbf{X}^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2) - 2(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + 2i(a\mathbf{Y} - b\mathbf{X}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (2.10)$$

$$\mathbf{Z}^*\mathbf{Z} = (a^2 + b^2 - \mathbf{X}^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2) + 2(\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + 2i(a\mathbf{Y} - b\mathbf{X}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (2.11)$$

$$\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^H = a^2 + b^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2 + 2(a\mathbf{X} + b\mathbf{Y} + \mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (2.12)$$

$$\mathbf{Z}^H\mathbf{Z} = a^2 + b^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2 + 2(a\mathbf{X} + b\mathbf{Y} - \mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (2.13)$$

$$\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^{*H} = \det \mathbf{Z} = a^2 - b^2 - \mathbf{X}^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2 + 2i(ab - \mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}).$$

Equations (2.10) and (2.11) have values in $\mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ and show $\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^* = \mathbf{Z}^*\mathbf{Z}$ exactly when $\mathbf{X} \times \mathbf{Y} = 0$. Equations (2.12) and (2.13) take values in $\mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ and give the same condition for $\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^H = \mathbf{Z}^H\mathbf{Z}$.

2.5 Norm and determinant

For the complex coefficients $c = a + bi$ and $\mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}$, the squared norms defined above are

$$\begin{aligned} \|c\|^2 &= a^2 + b^2, \\ \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2 &= \mathbf{X}^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2. \end{aligned}$$

For the squared norm (2.1), the quadratic products and cyclicity give the Hermitian form [2, Eq. (46)]

$$\begin{aligned} \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2 &= \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}^H\mathbf{Z}) = \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(\mathbf{Z}^H\mathbf{Z}) = \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}^H) \\ &= \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}^*\mathbf{Z}^{*H}) = \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}^{*H}\mathbf{Z}^*). \end{aligned} \quad (2.14)$$

For complex coefficients, c^2 and $\mathbf{Z}^2$ generally differ from these squared norms. Also $\det(\mathbf{Z})$ may be complex. For a complex scalar $z = re^{i\theta}$, with real $r \geq 0$ and θ , scalar scaling gives

$$\begin{aligned} \det(z\mathbf{Z}) &= r^2 e^{2i\theta} \det(\mathbf{Z}), \\ \|z\mathbf{Z}\|^2 &= \|z\|^2 \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2 = r^2 \|\mathbf{Z}\|^2. \end{aligned} \quad (2.15)$$

The determinant retains the scalar phase by (1.11); the norm loses it by (2.15).

3 Projectors and spectral functions

3.1 Quadratic identity and eigenvalues

Recall $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$. Since $\mathcal{Z} - c = \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $(\mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = \mathbf{Z}^2$,

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathcal{Z} - c)^2 &= \mathbf{Z}^2, \\ \mathcal{Z}^2 - 2c\mathcal{Z} + (c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2) &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

Using $\text{tr}(\mathcal{Z}) = 2c$ and $\det \mathcal{Z} = c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2$ gives the trace–determinant identity

$$\mathcal{Z}^2 - \text{tr}(\mathcal{Z})\mathcal{Z} + \det \mathcal{Z} = 0. \quad (3.1)$$

An eigenvalue is a scalar $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$ for which $\mathcal{Z} - \lambda$ has no inverse. Thus $\det(\mathcal{Z} - \lambda) = \lambda^2 - 2c\lambda + \det \mathcal{Z} = 0$, the scalar quadratic corresponding to (3.1). Its roots are

$$\lambda_{\pm} = \frac{\text{tr}(\mathcal{Z}) \pm \sqrt{\text{tr}(\mathcal{Z})^2 - 4 \det(\mathcal{Z})}}{2} = c \pm \sqrt{\mathbf{Z}^2}.$$

Because $\mathbf{Z}$ is generally complex, $\mathbf{Z}^2 = \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}$ and its square root may also be complex. The quadratic identity therefore factors as

$$(\mathcal{Z} - \lambda_-)(\mathcal{Z} - \lambda_+) = 0.$$

3.2 Projection operators

For a [real unit vector](#) $\mathbf{u}$, the paravector $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ is Hermitian and [self-inverse](#). Define its two orthogonal projectors [\[3, p. 121\]](#)

$$\Pi_{\pm} := \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (3.2)$$

Here $\Pi_{\pm} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ with scalar part $1/2$. Since $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = 1$,

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi_{\pm}^2 &= \Pi_{\pm}, \\ \Pi_+ \Pi_- &= 0, \\ \Pi_+ + \Pi_- &= 1, \\ \Pi_{\pm}^{\text{H}} &= \Pi_{\pm}, \\ \Pi_{\pm}^* &= \Pi_{\mp}, \\ (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \Pi_{\pm} &= \pm \Pi_{\pm}. \end{aligned}$$

Thus $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \Pi_+ - \Pi_-$. For a second [real unit vector](#) $\mathbf{u}'$,

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}' + \text{i}(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ [\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] &= 2\text{i}(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= (2(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}')\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Define $\mathbf{u}'_{\parallel} = (\mathbf{u}' \cdot \mathbf{u})\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{u}'_{\perp} = \mathbf{u}' - \mathbf{u}'_{\parallel}$, both in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi_{\pm}(\mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi_{\pm} &= \pm(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}')\Pi_{\pm}, \\ \Pi_{\pm}(\mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi_{\mp} &= \frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{u}'_{\perp} \pm \text{i}(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{u}')) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

For $\Pi'_{\pm} = (1 \pm \mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2 \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, all four products lie in $\mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$:

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi_{\pm}\Pi'_{\pm} &= \frac{1}{4}(1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}') + \frac{1}{4}(\pm\mathbf{u} \pm \mathbf{u}' + \text{i}\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \Pi_{\pm}\Pi'_{\mp} &= \frac{1}{4}(1 - \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}') + \frac{1}{4}(\pm\mathbf{u} \mp \mathbf{u}' - \text{i}\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

3.3 Spectral rule

Let $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c \in \mathbb{C}$, $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$, and $\mathbf{Z}^2 \neq 0$. Define the complex scalars $w, \lambda_{\pm}$, complex vector $\mathbf{u}$, and projectors $\Pi_{\pm} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ by

$$\begin{aligned} w &:= +\sqrt{\mathbf{Z}^2}, & z &:= w, \\ \mathbf{u} &:= \mathbf{Z}/w, & \mathcal{Z} &= c + z\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \lambda_{\pm} &:= c \pm z, & \Pi_{\pm} &:= \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \end{aligned}$$

The root is the principal scalar root. Thus $\mathbf{u}$ is a **vector of square one**; $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is **self-inverse**. Its square gives

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi_{\pm}^2 &= \frac{1}{4}(1 \pm 2\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + 1) = \Pi_{\pm}, \\ \Pi_+ \Pi_- &= \frac{1}{4}(1 - (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2) = 0, \\ \Pi_+ + \Pi_- &= 1, \\ \mathcal{Z} &= c(\Pi_+ + \Pi_-) + w(\Pi_+ - \Pi_-) = \lambda_+ \Pi_+ + \lambda_- \Pi_-. \end{aligned}$$

Here $w, \lambda_{\pm} \in \mathbb{C}$, $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{C}^3$, and $\mathcal{Z}, f(\mathcal{Z}) \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ for the analytic functions below. These projectors are Hermitian when $\mathbf{u}$ is real; in general they need not be. The same formulas apply directly to any given $\mathcal{Z} = c + z\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c, z \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$. If $z = 0$, $\mathcal{Z} = c$ is scalar and $f(\mathcal{Z}) = f(c)$. The complementary-projector identities give, for every nonnegative integer n ,

$$\mathcal{Z}^n = \lambda_+^n \Pi_+ + \lambda_-^n \Pi_- = \frac{1}{2}(\lambda_+^n + \lambda_-^n) + \frac{1}{2}(\lambda_+^n - \lambda_-^n)\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

For a scalar power series $f(z) = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} c_n z^n$ converging at both eigenvalues, with $c_n \in \mathbb{C}$, inserting these powers into $f(\mathcal{Z}) = \sum_n c_n \mathcal{Z}^n$ gives the spectral rule [4, p. 3]

$$f(\mathcal{Z}) = f(\lambda_+) \Pi_+ + f(\lambda_-) \Pi_-. \quad (3.3)$$

The same rule defines chosen analytic branches at the two eigenvalues. Its proof uses only complementary idempotents and therefore applies to any decomposition with these projector identities.

Adjugation exchanges the eigenvalues, so

$$\begin{aligned} \text{adj } \mathcal{Z} &= \lambda_- \Pi_+ + \lambda_+ \Pi_-, \\ \det \mathcal{Z} &= \lambda_+ \lambda_-, \\ \mathcal{Z}^{-1} &= \frac{\text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})}{\det(\mathcal{Z})} = \lambda_+^{-1} \Pi_+ + \lambda_-^{-1} \Pi_-. \end{aligned}$$

The inverse requires both eigenvalues to be nonzero. Independently choosing the signs of their principal square roots gives

$$\sqrt{\mathcal{Z}} = \pm \sqrt{\lambda_+} \Pi_+ \pm \sqrt{\lambda_-} \Pi_-.$$

There are four distinct roots when both eigenvalues are nonzero, and two when one vanishes. Changing w to $-w$ exchanges the eigenvalue–projector pairs and leaves the function unchanged when its branch choices are exchanged with them.

3.4 Square roots and repeated eigenvalues

3.4.1 Real paravectors and direct square roots

For real $\mathcal{X} = a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $a \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathbf{X} \neq 0$, the spectral quantities above reduce to

$$w = \|\mathbf{X}\|, \quad \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{X}/\|\mathbf{X}\|, \quad \lambda_{\pm} = a \pm \|\mathbf{X}\|.$$

Here $\mathcal{X}, \Pi_{\pm} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, $w, \lambda_{\pm} \in \mathbb{R}$, and $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. The projectors are now Hermitian; complex-valued functions or square roots may still give $f(\mathcal{X}) \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. In particular, for a [real unit vector](#) $\mathbf{u}$,

$$\begin{aligned} f(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= f(1)\Pi_+ + f(-1)\Pi_- \\ &= \frac{1}{2}(f(1) + f(-1)) + \frac{1}{2}(f(1) - f(-1))\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \sqrt{\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}} &= \pm\Pi_+ \pm i\Pi_-. \end{aligned}$$

The two root signs are independent. For a fixed analytic branch, $f(\mathcal{X}) \rightarrow f(a)$ as $\mathbf{X} \rightarrow 0$; independent root choices require the scalar case below.

A direct component derivation also determines all *real* roots. Let $\mathcal{Y} = b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ be real, with $b \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and seek real $\mathcal{X} = a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ such that $\mathcal{X}^2 = \mathcal{Y}$. Equating parts gives

$$\begin{aligned} a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 &= b, \\ 2a\mathbf{X} &= \mathbf{Y}. \end{aligned}$$

If $\mathbf{Y} \neq 0$, then $a \neq 0$ and $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{Y}/(2a)$. Substitution gives

$$\begin{aligned} a^4 - ba^2 + \frac{1}{4}\mathbf{Y}^2 &= 0, \\ a^2 &= \frac{1}{2}\left(b \pm \sqrt{b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2}\right). \end{aligned} \tag{3.4}$$

For each nonnegative a^2 in (3.4), take both scalar roots a and set $\mathbf{X} = \mathbf{Y}/(2a)$; then $\mathbf{X}^2 = b - a^2$. There are four real roots when $b > \|\mathbf{Y}\|$, two when $b = \|\mathbf{Y}\| > 0$, and none when $b < \|\mathbf{Y}\|$.

If $\mathbf{Y} = 0$, the equations instead give the scalar roots $\mathcal{X} = \pm\sqrt{b}$ and the pure-vector roots $\mathcal{X} = \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $\mathbf{X}^2 = b$ for $b > 0$. For $b = 0$ only $\mathcal{X} = 0$ is real; for $b < 0$ there is no real root.

3.4.2 Coalescing eigenvalues

For complex $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $\mathbf{Z}^2 = 0$, define $\mathcal{N} = \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, so $\mathcal{N}^2 = 0$. A scalar function analytic at c has the terminating Taylor expansion [4, p. 4]

$$f(\mathcal{Z}) = f(c) + f'(c)\mathcal{N}. \tag{3.5}$$

For $c \neq 0$, the chosen square root and logarithm are

$$\begin{aligned} \sqrt{\mathcal{Z}} &= r + \frac{\mathcal{N}}{2r}, \\ \log \mathcal{Z} &= \log c + \frac{\mathcal{N}}{c}. \end{aligned}$$

Here $r \in \mathbb{C}$ is a chosen scalar root of c ($r^2 = c$); use a consistent logarithm branch. A nonzero $\mathcal{N}$ with $c = 0$ has no square root: such a root would have only zero eigenvalues, and its quadratic identity would force its square to vanish. It has no logarithm because it is not invertible. If $\mathcal{N} = 0$, a fixed analytic branch gives $f(c)$; non-scalar square roots of a scalar must instead be found from the component equations $a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 = c$, $2a\mathbf{X} = 0$, now allowing $a \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{C}^3$. Independent branch choices need not remain finite as distinct eigenvalues coalesce.

4 Exponentials and elementary functions

The spectral rule gives explicit functions and the factors used for rotations and boosts. Their composition and logarithms complete the link between algebraic functions and geometric transformations.

4.1 Exponential: projection and series derivations

For complex $\mathbf{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $\mathbf{Z}^2 \neq 0$, recall $w = +\sqrt{\mathbf{Z}^2}$, the [vector of square one](#) $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}/w$, and $\lambda_{\pm} = c \pm w$. The spectral rule (3.3) gives

$$\begin{aligned} \exp(\mathbf{Z}) &= \frac{1}{2}e^{c+w}(1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) + \frac{1}{2}e^{c-w}(1 - \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \\ &= e^c \left(\frac{e^w + e^{-w}}{2} + \frac{e^w - e^{-w}}{2} \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right). \end{aligned}$$

Independently, c commutes with the vector part and $(w\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^{2n} = w^{2n}$, $(w\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^{2n+1} = w^{2n+1}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. Separating the defining series therefore gives

$$\begin{aligned} \exp(\mathbf{Z}) &= e^c \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{(w\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^n}{n!} \\ &= e^c \left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w^{2n}}{(2n)!} + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!} \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right). \end{aligned}$$

Both derivations give [2, Eq. (52)]

$$\exp(\mathbf{Z}) = e^c (\cosh w + \sinh w \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (4.1)$$

This is independent of the choice w or $-w$: $\cosh$ is even, while both $\sinh w$ and $\mathbf{u}$ change sign. When $\mathbf{Z}^2 = 0$, (3.5) instead gives

$$\exp(c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = e^c (1 + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

The defining series also gives

$$\begin{aligned} \exp(\mathbf{Z}^*) &= \exp(\mathbf{Z})^*, \\ \exp(\mathbf{Z}^H) &= \exp(\mathbf{Z})^H. \end{aligned}$$

For the real components $a, b, \mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y}$ of $\mathbf{Z} = (a + bi) + (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, write

$$w = +\sqrt{\mathbf{X}^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2 + 2i\mathbf{X} \cdot \mathbf{Y}}.$$

Substituting $\mathbf{u} = (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y})/w$ into (4.1) gives the component form

$$\exp(\mathbf{Z}) = e^a (\cos b + i \sin b) \left(\cosh w + \frac{\sinh w}{w} (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right).$$

Its real and imaginary specializations are

$$\exp(a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = e^a \left(\cosh \|\mathbf{X}\| + \frac{\sinh \|\mathbf{X}\|}{\|\mathbf{X}\|} \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right), \quad (4.2)$$

$$\exp(i(b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})) = (\cos b + i \sin b) \left(\cos \|\mathbf{Y}\| + i \frac{\sin \|\mathbf{Y}\|}{\|\mathbf{Y}\|} \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right). \quad (4.3)$$

Setting $a = 0$ in (4.2) or $b = 0$ in (4.3) gives the pure-vector exponentials. Every quotient uses its analytic limit at a zero argument.

4.2 Rotation and boost factors

For a general real exponent $a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, where $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, (4.2) gives

$$\det(\exp(a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})) = e^{2a}. \quad (4.4)$$

Thus a real exponential has determinant one exactly when its scalar exponent is zero. Its value still has a nonzero scalar part, supplied by the hyperbolic cosine.

Let $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$ and let $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ be a **real unit vector**, $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$. The two special exponentials just derived define the complex rotation factor $\mathcal{R} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$ and the real boost factor $\mathcal{L} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ [1, Eq. (6)] [5, p. 23]:

$$\mathcal{R}(\theta, \mathbf{u}) := \exp\left(-i\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}\right) = \cos\frac{\theta}{2} - i\sin\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (4.5)$$

$$\mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u}) := \exp\left(-\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}\right) = \cosh\frac{\theta}{2} - \sinh\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (4.6)$$

In (4.5) and (4.6), the parameter is a rotation angle for $\mathcal{R}$ and a rapidity for $\mathcal{L}$; both are real dimensionless numbers. Here these names specify algebraic objects. Their actions on a general paravector are derived in Section 5; their physical applications follow in Sections 7 and 15.

Because $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = 1$, reversing the parameter gives the inverses

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{R}^{-1} &= \mathcal{R}(-\theta, \mathbf{u}) = \cos\frac{\theta}{2} + i\sin\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathcal{L}^{-1} &= \mathcal{L}(-\theta, \mathbf{u}) = \cosh\frac{\theta}{2} + \sinh\frac{\theta}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned} \quad (4.7)$$

Sigma conjugation changes both i and $\boldsymbol{\sigma}$ in sign; Hermitian conjugation changes i but fixes a real vector. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{R}^* &= \mathcal{R}, \\ \mathcal{R}^H &= \mathcal{R}^{-1}, \end{aligned} \quad (4.8)$$

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{L}^* &= \mathcal{L}^{-1}, \\ \mathcal{L}^H &= \mathcal{L}. \end{aligned} \quad (4.9)$$

Equation (4.8) makes $\mathcal{R}$ **unitary**; (4.9) makes $\mathcal{L}$ Hermitian, so $\mathcal{L}^H \mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}^2$. Their determinants and squared norms follow from the circular and hyperbolic identities:

$$\det \mathcal{R} = \cos^2(\theta/2) + \sin^2(\theta/2) = 1, \quad (4.10)$$

$$\det \mathcal{L} = \cosh^2(\theta/2) - \sinh^2(\theta/2) = 1, \quad (4.11)$$

$$\|\mathcal{R}\|^2 = 1, \quad (4.12)$$

$$\|\mathcal{L}\|^2 = \cosh \theta. \quad (4.13)$$

Equations (4.10) and (4.11) make both **paravectors of determinant one**, so their adjugates equal their inverses. Equations (4.12) and (4.13) distinguish their squared norms; only $\mathcal{R}$ is unitary for nonzero θ . The half-angle gives the sign and period:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{R}(\theta + 2\pi, \mathbf{u}) &= -\mathcal{R}(\theta, \mathbf{u}), \\ \mathcal{R}(\theta + 4\pi, \mathbf{u}) &= +\mathcal{R}(\theta, \mathbf{u}). \end{aligned} \quad (4.14)$$

Gamma form. Recall $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ from (4.6). Define its real velocity parameter and Lorentz factor by

$$\begin{aligned}\beta &:= \tanh \theta, \\ \gamma &:= \cosh \theta = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - \beta^2}}.\end{aligned}$$

Here $-1 < \beta < 1$, $\gamma \geq 1$, and $\gamma\beta = \sinh \theta$. The half-angle identities give

$$\begin{aligned}\cosh \frac{\theta}{2} &= \sqrt{\frac{\gamma + 1}{2}}, \\ \sinh \frac{\theta}{2} &= \frac{\gamma\beta}{\sqrt{2(\gamma + 1)}}.\end{aligned}$$

Hence the boost factor itself is

$$\mathcal{L} = \sqrt{\frac{\gamma + 1}{2}} \left(1 - \frac{\gamma\beta}{\gamma + 1} \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right). \quad (4.15)$$

Squaring doubles the exponent, so the full-rapidity paravector is

$$\mathcal{L}^2 = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \gamma(1 - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (4.16)$$

Equation (4.16) has prefactor γ ; $\mathcal{L}$ has the half-angle prefactor in (4.15). Equivalently, for any real vector $\mathbf{X} \neq 0$, put $\mathbf{v} = \tanh \|\mathbf{X}\| \mathbf{X}/\|\mathbf{X}\|$ and $\gamma = \cosh \|\mathbf{X}\|$. Then

$$\exp(\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \gamma(1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

The zero-vector case follows by continuity. This last real paravector has [determinant one](#) and represents four-velocity in Section 6.

4.3 Cayley transform

Let $\mathcal{Y} = b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ be real, with $b \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $0 < \|\mathbf{Y}\| < b$. Set the [real unit vector](#) $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Y}/\|\mathbf{Y}\|$ and recall $\Pi_{\pm} = (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$. Its sigma conjugate $\mathcal{Y}^* = b - \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \text{adj}(\mathcal{Y})$ commutes with $\mathcal{Y}$, so

$$\frac{\mathcal{Y}}{\mathcal{Y}^*} = \frac{\mathcal{Y}^2}{\det(\mathcal{Y})} = \frac{b^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2 + 2b\mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2}.$$

Define the real parameter $\theta = 2 \tanh^{-1}(\|\mathbf{Y}\|/b)$. The double-angle identities give

$$\begin{aligned}\cosh \theta &= \frac{b^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2}{b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2}, \\ \sinh \theta &= \frac{2b\|\mathbf{Y}\|}{b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2}.\end{aligned}$$

Thus the quotient is the full-rapidity exponential

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{b - \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}} &= \cosh \theta + \sinh \theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \\ &= \exp(\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = e^{\theta} \Pi_+ + e^{-\theta} \Pi_-.\end{aligned} \quad (4.17)$$

Equation (4.17) is $\mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u})^{-2}$ from (4.16). Its real generator vector is $\mathbf{X} = \theta \mathbf{u}$, while the Cayley vector obeys

$$\mathbf{Y} = b \tanh\left(\frac{\|\mathbf{X}\|}{2}\right) \frac{\mathbf{X}}{\|\mathbf{X}\|}.$$

Thus $\|\mathbf{Y}\|/b = \tanh(\theta/2)$, the half-rapidity parameter. The corresponding real Lorentz factor and velocity vector are

$$\begin{aligned}\gamma &= \frac{b^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2}{b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2}, \\ \mathbf{v} &= \frac{2b\mathbf{Y}}{b^2 + \mathbf{Y}^2}.\end{aligned}$$

They give the equivalent forms

$$\exp(\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \gamma(1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \frac{b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{b - \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}} = \frac{\mathcal{Y}}{\mathcal{Y}^*}.$$

Choosing $b = 1$ normalizes the scalar part of $\mathcal{Y}$ to one; $\mathbf{Y} = 0$ follows by continuity.

4.4 Composing the factors

Recall $\mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u}) = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ and $\mathcal{R}(\theta, \mathbf{u}) = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ from (4.6) and (4.5). For a fixed [real unit direction](#) $\mathbf{u}$ and real parameters θ, θ' , the generators commute, so their parameters add:

$$\mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u})\mathcal{L}(\theta', \mathbf{u}) = \mathcal{L}(\theta + \theta', \mathbf{u}), \quad (4.18)$$

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{R}(\theta, \mathbf{u})\mathcal{R}(\theta', \mathbf{u}) &= \mathcal{R}(\theta + \theta', \mathbf{u}), \\ \mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u})\mathcal{R}(\theta', \mathbf{u}) &= \mathcal{R}(\theta', \mathbf{u})\mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u}).\end{aligned}$$

For the aligned real and imaginary generator, put $w = -(\theta + i\theta')/2 \in \mathbb{C}$. Its exponential is

$$\exp(w \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \mathcal{L}(\theta, \mathbf{u})\mathcal{R}(\theta', \mathbf{u}) = \cosh w + \sinh w \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Expanding the complex scalar coefficients gives

$$\begin{aligned}\cosh w &= +\cosh \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta'}{2} + i \sinh \frac{\theta}{2} \sin \frac{\theta'}{2}, \\ \sinh w &= -\sinh \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta'}{2} - i \cosh \frac{\theta}{2} \sin \frac{\theta'}{2}.\end{aligned}$$

This aligned factorization requires parallel real and imaginary generator vectors. For different [real unit directions](#) $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}$, the vector product instead gives

$$\left[-\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, -\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}\right] = \frac{i}{2}(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (4.19)$$

This commutator is a rotation generator: boosts along nonparallel directions do not commute.

4.5 Logarithm

For complex $\mathbf{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $\mathbf{Z}^2 \neq 0$, recall $w = +\sqrt{\mathbf{Z}^2}$, the [vector of square one](#) $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}/w$, $\lambda_{\pm} = c \pm w$, and $\Pi_{\pm} = (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$. Assume both eigenvalues are nonzero. For a nonzero complex scalar λ and any integer n , the scalar branches are

$$\log \lambda = \log \|\lambda\| + i(\arg \lambda + 2n\pi).$$

Choose one branch for each eigenvalue. The spectral rule gives

$$\begin{aligned} \log \mathbf{Z} &= \log(\lambda_+) \Pi_+ + \log(\lambda_-) \Pi_- \\ &= \frac{1}{2}(\log \lambda_+ + \log \lambda_-) + \frac{1}{2}(\log \lambda_+ - \log \lambda_-) \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned} \quad (4.20)$$

Exchanging w and $-w$ exchanges both eigenvalue–projector pairs and preserves the same chosen logarithm. Independent scalar branches give the different logarithms.

For a [real unit vector](#) $\mathbf{u}$, (4.20) uses eigenvalues 1 and -1 , giving, for integers n, m ,

$$\log(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = 2n\pi i \Pi_+ + (2m+1)\pi i \Pi_-.$$

For real $\mathbf{Y} = b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $b \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $b > \|\mathbf{Y}\|$, both eigenvalues are positive. Combining their real logarithms yields

$$\log \mathbf{Y} = \frac{1}{2} \log(b^2 - \mathbf{Y}^2) + \tanh^{-1} \left(\frac{\|\mathbf{Y}\|}{b} \right) \frac{\mathbf{Y}}{\|\mathbf{Y}\|} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

The vector term vanishes at $\mathbf{Y} = 0$; the general coalescing case was treated above.

5 Transformations and invariants

Here $\mathbf{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is a complex paravector: $c \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$, hence $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Transformation factors $\mathcal{T}, \mathcal{T}' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ are constant. Distinguish the scalar part $\text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}) = c = \frac{1}{2} \text{tr} \mathbf{Z}$ from (1.9), the complex determinant $c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2$ from (1.10), and the squared norm $\text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}^H \mathbf{Z})$ from (2.14). Scalar part and trace carry exactly the same information; we use sc below.

5.1 Similarity, determinant, and norm

For a complex [invertible paravector](#) $\mathcal{T}$, similarity means $\mathbf{Z}' = \mathcal{T} \mathbf{Z} \mathcal{T}^{-1}$. Scalar-part cyclicity gives

$$\text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}') = \text{sc}(\mathcal{T} \mathbf{Z} \mathcal{T}^{-1}) = \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z} \mathcal{T}^{-1} \mathcal{T}) = \text{sc}(\mathbf{Z}).$$

Thus trace is also preserved. Multiplicativity gives

$$\det \mathbf{Z}' = \det(\mathcal{T}) \det(\mathbf{Z}) \det \mathcal{T}^{-1} = \det(\mathbf{Z}). \quad (5.1)$$

The opposite similarity $\mathbf{Z}' = \mathcal{T}'^{-1} \mathbf{Z} \mathcal{T}'$ has the same invariants. For independent complex factors $\mathcal{T}, \mathcal{T}'$, the law $\mathbf{Z}' = \mathcal{T}' \mathbf{Z} \mathcal{T}$ instead gives

$$\det \mathbf{Z}' = \det(\mathcal{T}') \det(\mathcal{T}) \det(\mathbf{Z}).$$

This preserves the determinant for every $\mathbf{Z}$ exactly when $\det(\mathcal{T}') \det \mathcal{T} = 1$. This alone does not preserve scalar part, norm, or the real paravector subspace.

If the factor $\mathcal{T}$ is unitary, then $\mathcal{T}^H = \mathcal{T}^{-1}$ by (2.4). For $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^H$, cancellation and scalar-part cyclicity give

$$\begin{aligned}\|\mathcal{Z}'\|^2 &= \text{sc}\left(\mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}^H\mathcal{T}^H\mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^H\right) \\ &= \text{sc}\left(\mathcal{Z}^H\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^H\mathcal{T}\right) = \|\mathcal{Z}\|^2.\end{aligned}$$

The norm is also preserved by $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}$ and $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}$. The congruence additionally preserves scalar part and determinant; a one-sided unitary product need not.

5.1.1 Determinant one is not Hermitian unitarity

Invertibility, determinant one, and Hermitian unitarity are distinct conditions. Invertibility means that a two-sided inverse exists, as in (2.3); determinant one means $\det \mathcal{Z} = 1$; and Hermitian unitarity means $\mathcal{Z}^H\mathcal{Z} = 1$, as in (2.4). The phrase *unit determinant* means only that the determinant equals one. It does not mean unit norm or Hermitian unitarity.

Determinant one implies invertibility, but does not imply Hermitian unitarity. To distinguish them, take a real paravector $\mathcal{X} = a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ with $a \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $a^2 - \mathbf{X}^2 = 1$. Then

$$\mathcal{X}^*\mathcal{X} = \det \mathcal{X} = 1, \quad \mathcal{X}^{-1} = \mathcal{X}^* = a - \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Thus determinant one implies invertibility. Hermitian conjugation fixes $\mathcal{X}$, whereas sigma conjugation reverses its vector part, so

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{X}^H\mathcal{X} &= \mathcal{X}^2 = a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 + 2a\mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \|\mathcal{X}\|^2 &= a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2 = 1 + 2\mathbf{X}^2.\end{aligned}$$

Both equal 1 only when $\mathbf{X} = 0$, in which case $\mathcal{X} = \pm 1$. Choosing any nonzero real $\mathbf{X}$ and $a = \sqrt{1 + \mathbf{X}^2}$ therefore gives an invertible paravector of determinant one that is not unitary. These properties follow from the defining equations, not from the letter used for the paravector.

5.2 Real paravectors and the Lorentz metric

Let $\mathcal{X} = a + \mathbf{X} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ be real, with $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. The determinant and squared norm give different quadratic forms:

$$\begin{aligned}\det \mathcal{X} &= a^2 - \mathbf{X}^2, \\ \|\mathcal{X}\|^2 &= a^2 + \mathbf{X}^2.\end{aligned}$$

The first is the Lorentz quadratic form of signature $(+, -, -, -)$; the second is the positive sum of squared coefficients. A real-linear isometry of the first form must preserve the real subspace and its determinant. For a constant complex *invertible paravector* $\mathcal{T}$ with $\det \mathcal{T} = 1$, use the Hermitian congruence [1, Eq. (17)]

$$\boxed{\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}^H.} \tag{5.2}$$

Hermitian conjugation and determinant multiplication give

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{X}'^H &= \mathcal{T}\mathcal{X}^H\mathcal{T}^H = \mathcal{X}', \\ \det \mathcal{X}' &= \det(\mathcal{T}) \det(\mathcal{X}) \det \mathcal{T}^H = \det(\mathcal{X}).\end{aligned}$$

For a second real paravector $\mathbf{y} = b + \mathbf{Y} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $b \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{Y} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, the associated metric pairing is [1, Eq. (15)]

$$\text{sc}(\mathbf{x}^* \mathbf{y}) = ab - \mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{Y} = \frac{1}{2}(\det(\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y}) - \det(\mathbf{x}) - \det(\mathbf{y})). \quad (5.3)$$

Linearity and determinant invariance therefore give $\text{sc}(\mathbf{x}'^* \mathbf{y}') = \text{sc}(\mathbf{x}^* \mathbf{y})$: the full metric is preserved. These maps preserve the positive cone as well. For $a \geq \|\mathbf{x}\|$, the eigenvalues $a \pm \|\mathbf{x}\|$ are nonnegative, so $\mathbf{x}$ has a real square root and

$$\text{sc}(\mathbf{x}') = \|\sqrt{\mathbf{x}} \mathcal{T}^H\|^2 \geq 0.$$

Together with determinant invariance, this keeps $\mathbf{x}'$ in the cone $a \geq \|\mathbf{x}\|$. These are the proper Lorentz transformations preserving that cone; $\mathcal{T}$ and $-\mathcal{T}$ give the same map.

Why the scalar exponent vanishes. More generally, the congruence multiplies $\det(\mathbf{x})$ by $\|\det(\mathcal{T})\|^2$. For real $\mathcal{T} = \exp(a + \mathbf{x} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})$, (4.4) therefore gives

$$\det(\mathcal{T} \mathbf{x} \mathcal{T}^H) = e^{4a} \det(\mathbf{x}).$$

A nonzero real scalar exponent dilates the metric; it is excluded by determinant invariance. An imaginary scalar exponent contributes a phase e^{ib} , $b \in \mathbb{R}$, which cancels between $\mathcal{T}$ and $\mathcal{T}^H$. Requiring $\det \mathcal{T} = 1$ removes this continuous phase freedom. Thus a pure boost needs only a real vector exponent.

Why the squared norm is different. For $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real θ and real unit $\mathbf{u}$, applying (5.2) to $\mathbf{x} = 1$ gives

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{x}' &= \mathcal{L}^2 = \cosh \theta - \sinh \theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \det \mathbf{x}' &= 1, \\ \text{sc}(\mathbf{x}') &= \cosh \theta, \\ \|\mathbf{x}'\|^2 &= \cosh(2\theta). \end{aligned}$$

A nonzero boost preserves the determinant while changing the scalar part and squared norm. In fact, a determinant-one congruence preserves the squared norm for every real $\mathbf{x}$ exactly when $\mathcal{T}$ is unitary. Necessity follows by taking $\mathbf{x} = 1$: the real, positive $\mathcal{T} \mathcal{T}^H$ can have both determinant and norm one only if it is 1, which makes $\mathcal{T}$ unitary. Sufficiency was proved above. Normalizing $\mathcal{L}$ to $\|\mathcal{L}\| = 1$ would change its determinant and lose the Lorentz metric.

Every factor separates into a boost and a rotation. For a determinant-one complex $\mathcal{T}$, the paravector $\mathcal{T} \mathcal{T}^H$ is real, has determinant one, and has positive scalar part $\|\mathcal{T}\|^2$. Both eigenvalues are therefore positive. Using the positive real square root, define

$$\mathcal{B} := \sqrt{\mathcal{T} \mathcal{T}^H}, \quad \mathcal{R} := \mathcal{B}^{-1} \mathcal{T}.$$

Then $\det \mathcal{B} = 1$, $\mathcal{R}^H \mathcal{R} = 1$, $\det \mathcal{R} = 1$, and $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{B} \mathcal{R}$, with $\mathcal{B} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ and $\mathcal{R} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$. The real logarithm of $\mathcal{B}$ has zero scalar part by (4.4), so $\mathcal{B}$ is a real vector exponential. For $\mathcal{R}$, the identity $\mathcal{R}^H = \mathcal{R}^{-1} = \text{adj}(\mathcal{R})$ makes its scalar coefficient real and its vector coefficient imaginary; determinant one then gives $\mathcal{R} = \cos(\theta/2) - i \sin(\theta/2) \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ for some real θ and real unit $\mathbf{u}$. Consequently $\mathcal{T} \mathbf{x} \mathcal{T}^H = \mathcal{B} \mathcal{R} \mathbf{x} \mathcal{R}^H \mathcal{B}$: the rotation is followed by the boost. Their component actions follow next.

5.3 Rotation action and Rodrigues' formula

Recall the unitary factor $\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ from (4.5), with real angle θ and real unit axis $\mathbf{u}$. For the complex paravector $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, use the Hermitian congruence [1, Eq. (5)]

$$\boxed{\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{R} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{R}^H.} \quad (5.4)$$

Since $\mathcal{R}^H = \mathcal{R}^{-1}$ by (4.8), this keeps $c' = c$. The vector product (2.8) gives

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= 2(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z})\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ [\mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] &= -2i(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{Z}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Inserting the sine and cosine forms of $\mathcal{R}$ and $\mathcal{R}^H$ therefore yields

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{Z}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} &= \cos^2 \frac{\theta}{2} \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + 2 \sin \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta}{2} (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{Z}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \\ &\quad + \sin^2 \frac{\theta}{2} (2(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z})\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \end{aligned}$$

Collecting terms gives Rodrigues' formula [5, p. 14]:

$$\boxed{\mathcal{Z}' = \mathbf{Z} \cos \theta + (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{Z}) \sin \theta + (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z})(1 - \cos \theta)\mathbf{u}.} \quad (5.5)$$

This is the active right-handed rotation through $+\theta$ about $\mathbf{u}$. Rotating the coordinate axes through $+\theta$ instead uses the inverse map. It preserves sc, determinant, norm, and the real paravector subspace. For complex $\mathbf{Z}$, it rotates its real and imaginary parts by the same real rotation. The sign change in (4.14) affects both factors in (5.4), so $\mathcal{Z}'$ has period 2π .

5.4 Quaternions as paravectors

The quaternion units are already present in the complex vector part of our algebra. Define

$$\nu_k := -i\sigma_k \quad (k = 1, 2, 3), \quad \boldsymbol{\nu} := -i\boldsymbol{\sigma} = \{\nu_1, \nu_2, \nu_3\}.$$

The sigma product gives $\nu_1^2 = \nu_2^2 = \nu_3^2 = -1$, $\nu_1\nu_2 = \nu_3$, $\nu_2\nu_3 = \nu_1$, and $\nu_3\nu_1 = \nu_2$; reversing any of these distinct pairs changes its sign. Thus $\nu_1\nu_2\nu_3 = -1$. These are the three quaternion units, distinct from the commuting complex scalar i .

For $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{Q} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, the quaternion representation is [3, p. 92]

$$\boxed{\mathcal{Q} := a + \mathbf{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = a - i\mathbf{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.} \quad (5.6)$$

Here $\mathbf{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = Q_1\nu_1 + Q_2\nu_2 + Q_3\nu_3$. In the decomposition $\mathcal{Z} = (a' + b'i) + (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with scalar part $c' = a' + b'i$, this selects $a' = a$, $b' = 0$, $\mathbf{X} = 0$, and $\mathbf{Y} = -\mathbf{Q}$: equivalently, $c' = a$ and $\mathbf{Z} = -i\mathbf{Q}$. Thus $\mathcal{Q}, \mathcal{Q}' \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$: a real scalar coefficient and purely imaginary vector coefficients. Their four real components form a subalgebra of the eight-real-component complex paravectors. Indeed, for $\mathcal{Q}' = a' + \mathbf{Q}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}$, the paravector product becomes [6, p. 9]

$$\mathcal{Q}\mathcal{Q}' = (aa' - \mathbf{Q} \cdot \mathbf{Q}') + (a\mathbf{Q}' + a'\mathbf{Q} + \mathbf{Q} \times \mathbf{Q}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}. \quad (5.7)$$

Since $\nu_k^H = -\nu_k$ and $\nu_k^* = \nu_k$, quaternion conjugation is the existing Hermitian conjugation:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{Q}^H &= a - \mathcal{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = a + i\mathcal{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathcal{Q}^* &= \mathcal{Q}, \quad \text{adj } \mathcal{Q} = \mathcal{Q}^H, \\ \mathcal{Q}\mathcal{Q}^H &= \mathcal{Q}^H\mathcal{Q} = a^2 + \mathcal{Q}^2 = \det \mathcal{Q} = \|\mathcal{Q}\|^2.\end{aligned}\tag{5.8}$$

For nonzero $\mathcal{Q}$, (5.8) gives $\mathcal{Q}^{-1} = \mathcal{Q}^H/(a^2 + \mathcal{Q}^2)$. Nonzero quaternions are normalized with

$$\mathcal{Q} \leftarrow \frac{\mathcal{Q}}{\sqrt{\mathcal{Q}\mathcal{Q}^H}},$$

which, with $\|\mathcal{Q}\|^2 = \mathcal{Q}^2$ for real $\mathcal{Q}$, gives

$$\mathcal{Q}\mathcal{Q}^H = a^2 + \|\mathcal{Q}\|^2 = 1.$$

Thus a unit quaternion has $\mathcal{Q}^{-1} = \mathcal{Q}^H$.

To rotate $\mathbf{r} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, represent it by the pure quaternion $\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = -i\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. For a unit quaternion $\mathcal{Q} = a + \mathcal{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}$, use the quaternion sandwich:

$$\mathbf{r}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = \mathcal{Q}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu})\mathcal{Q}^H, \quad \mathbf{r}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \mathcal{Q}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{Q}^H.\tag{5.9}$$

The two forms agree because $-i$ commutes with every paravector. Applying (5.7) twice gives

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{Q}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}) &= -\mathcal{Q} \cdot \mathbf{r} + (a\mathbf{r} + \mathcal{Q} \times \mathbf{r}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}, \\ \mathcal{Q}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu})\mathcal{Q}^H &= ((a^2 - \mathcal{Q}^2)\mathbf{r} + 2(\mathcal{Q} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathcal{Q} + 2a\mathcal{Q} \times \mathbf{r}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}.\end{aligned}$$

The scalar part cancels. For a unit quaternion with $\mathcal{Q} \neq 0$, its real unit axis $\mathbf{u}$ and rotation angle θ satisfy

$$\mathbf{u} = \frac{\mathcal{Q}}{\|\mathcal{Q}\|}, \quad a = \cos \frac{\theta}{2}, \quad \mathcal{Q} = \mathbf{u} \sin \frac{\theta}{2}.$$

Thus the quaternion is the rotation factor

$$\mathcal{Q} = \cos \frac{\theta}{2} - i\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \sin \frac{\theta}{2} = \mathcal{R}.$$

Then $a^2 - \mathcal{Q}^2 = \cos \theta$, $2a\mathcal{Q} = \mathbf{u} \sin \theta$, and $2(\mathcal{Q} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathcal{Q} = (1 - \cos \theta)(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathbf{u}$. Consequently (5.9) recovers

$$\boxed{\mathbf{r}' = \mathbf{r} \cos \theta + (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{r}) \sin \theta + (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})(1 - \cos \theta)\mathbf{u}.}$$

This is precisely Rodrigues' formula (5.5) for $\mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{r}$. Thus $\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{Q}$, and the quaternion sandwich is exactly $\mathcal{R}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{R}^H$ from (5.4). The reversed sandwich $\mathcal{Q}^H(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{Q}$ gives the inverse rotation.

5.5 Boost action and its sign convention

Recall $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ from (4.6); $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$, $\beta = \tanh \theta$, and $\gamma = \cosh \theta$. Use the same congruence with $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{L}$ and $\mathcal{L}^H = \mathcal{L}$ from (4.9) [5, Eq. (24)]:

$$\boxed{\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{L}.}\tag{5.10}$$

The paravector $\mathbf{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ may be complex; the congruence also preserves its real subspace. Resolve $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$ into parallel and perpendicular parts in $\mathbb{C}^3$:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{Z}_{\parallel} &:= (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z})\mathbf{u}, \\ \mathbf{Z}_{\perp} &:= \mathbf{Z} - \mathbf{Z}_{\parallel}.\end{aligned}$$

The parallel term commutes with $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$; the perpendicular term anticommutes with it. Consequently,

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{L}(c + \mathbf{Z}_{\parallel} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{L} &= (c + \mathbf{Z}_{\parallel} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{L}^2, \\ \mathcal{L}(\mathbf{Z}_{\perp} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\mathcal{L} &= \mathbf{Z}_{\perp} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.\end{aligned}$$

Using $\mathcal{L}^2 = \gamma(1 - \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})$ from (4.16), multiplication gives [7, Eq. (5.1)]

$$\boxed{c' = \gamma(c - \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z}),} \quad (5.11)$$

$$\boxed{\mathbf{Z}' = \mathbf{Z}_{\perp} + \gamma(\mathbf{Z}_{\parallel} - \beta c\mathbf{u}).} \quad (5.12)$$

The equivalent longitudinal combinations expose the invariant directly:

$$c' \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z}' = e^{\mp\theta}(c \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z}). \quad (5.13)$$

Their product is $c^2 - (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z})^2$; the transverse part is unchanged. Thus (5.13) preserves $c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2$ and, for real $\mathbf{Z}$, the null cone $c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2 = 0$.

The inverse map is $\mathbf{Z} = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\mathbf{Z}'\mathcal{L}^{-1}$, obtained by reversing θ . Generally $\mathcal{L}\mathcal{X} \neq \mathcal{X}\mathcal{L}$: the scalar and parallel parts commute with $\mathcal{L}$, while a nonzero perpendicular part does not for a nonzero boost. For example, with $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \sigma_3$ and $\mathcal{X} = \sigma_1$,

$$\mathcal{L}\mathcal{X} = \cosh(\theta/2)\sigma_1 - i\sinh(\theta/2)\sigma_2, \quad \mathcal{L}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{L} = \sigma_1.$$

The second factor cancels the imaginary transverse term. Defining a full-rapidity factor cannot make a single left product boost every real $\mathcal{X}$; it would merely replace the two factors by their square roots.

Similarity action of the boost factor. For $\mathbf{Z}' = \mathcal{L}\mathbf{Z}\mathcal{L}^{-1}$, the same commutation rules give $c' = c$ and

$$\mathbf{Z}' = \mathbf{Z}_{\parallel} + \gamma(\mathbf{Z}_{\perp} - i\beta\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{Z}). \quad (5.14)$$

This preserves scalar part and determinant, but fixes $\mathbf{Z} = 1$ and generally makes a real vector complex. It does not mix scalar and vector components as the congruence does in (5.11)–(5.12). In particular, similarity preserves the scalar-free subspace; a nonzero boost congruence gives a nonzero scalar part to $\mathbf{Z} = z\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ for any nonzero $z \in \mathbb{C}$.

6 Space–time kinematics

In an inertial frame, an event is $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. A massive particle follows a future-directed time-like path $\mathbf{r}(t)$, with coordinate velocity $\mathbf{v} = \dot{\mathbf{r}}$, $\mathbf{v}^2 < 1$, and proper time s . Dots denote total coordinate-time derivatives: $\dot{\mathbf{v}} = d\mathbf{v}/dt$ and $\ddot{\mathbf{v}} = d^2\mathbf{v}/dt^2$, with the same convention for scalars and paravectors. Natural units are used except in the explicitly marked SI equations.

6.1 Overview: velocity, acceleration, and jerk

The laboratory describes velocity $\mathbf{v}$, acceleration $\dot{\mathbf{v}}$, and jerk $\ddot{\mathbf{v}}$ using coordinate time t ; the traveler measures proper time s . Uniform velocity produces no accelerometer reading. Proper acceleration is that reading; proper jerk is its vector rate of change per unit proper time, referred to nonrotating carried axes. A steady push along a fixed axis gives zero proper jerk even while coordinate acceleration changes.

Differentiating four-velocity with respect to proper time gives four-acceleration. Differentiating again also includes a contribution from the changing rest frame; projecting this derivative into the instantaneous rest space leaves proper jerk.

6.2 Intervals, light cones, and proper time

The displacement and its Minkowski interval are [5, Eq. (7)]

$$\begin{aligned} d\mathcal{X} &= dt + d\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \det(d\mathcal{X}) &= d\mathcal{X} d\mathcal{X}^* = dt^2 - d\mathbf{r}^2. \end{aligned} \quad (6.1)$$

The interval is positive, zero, or negative for time-like, null, or space-like displacements. Along a massive particle's path it equals ds^2 ; a null path has no elapsed proper time. By (5.2), a constant complex invertible paravector $\mathcal{T}$ with $\det \mathcal{T} = 1$ gives

$$d\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T} d\mathcal{X} \mathcal{T}^H, \quad \det(d\mathcal{X}') = \det(d\mathcal{X}).$$

For a rotation, $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{R} \mathcal{X} \mathcal{R}^H$ leaves $t' = t$ and acts on $\mathbf{r}$ by Rodrigues' formula (5.5). For real displacements, the product also gives

$$\begin{aligned} [d\mathcal{X}, d\mathcal{X}'] &= 2i(d\mathbf{r} \times d\mathbf{r}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ (d\mathcal{X})^{-1} &= \frac{d\mathcal{X}^*}{\det(d\mathcal{X})} \quad (\det(d\mathcal{X}) \neq 0). \end{aligned}$$

A null interval has no inverse.

Light cones. For a finite real event separation $\Delta\mathcal{X} = \Delta t + \Delta\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the eigenvalues are $\Delta t \pm \|\Delta\mathbf{r}\|$. Both are nonnegative precisely in the future causal cone:

$$\Delta t \geq \|\Delta\mathbf{r}\|. \quad (6.2)$$

The future null boundary has $\det(\Delta\mathcal{X}) = 0$ and $\Delta t \geq 0$; for a real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$, its nonzero future rays are

$$\Delta\mathcal{X} = \Delta t(1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \quad \Delta t > 0, \quad \mathbf{u}^2 = 1.$$

The Hermitian congruence (5.2) preserves nonnegativity of the eigenvalues and the determinant, hence the cone and its boundary. For a future time-like or null path,

$$\|\Delta \mathbf{r}\| = \left\| \int \mathbf{v} dt \right\| \leq \int \|\mathbf{v}\| dt \leq \Delta t.$$

Its endpoints therefore satisfy (6.2); a space-like separation cannot carry a causal signal [9, p. 118].

Proper time. Along a future-directed time-like path, take $dt > 0$ and $ds = \sqrt{\det(d\mathbf{x})} > 0$. Dividing by dt gives

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{s} &= \frac{ds}{dt} = \frac{\sqrt{dt^2 - d\mathbf{r}^2}}{dt} \\ &= \sqrt{\frac{dt^2 - d\mathbf{r}^2}{dt^2}} \\ &= \sqrt{1 - \left(\frac{d\mathbf{r}}{dt}\right)^2} \\ &= \sqrt{1 - \dot{\mathbf{r}}^2} = \sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}^2}. \end{aligned}$$

The Lorentz factor and the derivative conversion are therefore [9, Eq. (7.18)]

$$\gamma := \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}^2}} = \frac{dt}{ds}, \quad (6.3)$$

$$\frac{d}{ds} = \gamma \frac{d}{dt}. \quad (6.4)$$

6.3 Four-velocity and the mass shell

The real four-velocity is the proper-time tangent [5, Eq. (8)]:

$$\mathbf{u} := \frac{d\mathbf{x}}{ds} = \frac{dt}{ds} (1 + \dot{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \gamma (1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (6.5)$$

Its normalization and conjugates are

$$\mathbf{u}^* \mathbf{u} = \det \mathbf{u} = \frac{\det(d\mathbf{x})}{ds^2} = 1, \quad \mathbf{u}^H = \mathbf{u}, \quad \mathbf{u}^{-1} = \mathbf{u}^* = \gamma (1 - \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (6.6)$$

Determinant one is distinct from Hermitian unitarity:

$$\mathbf{u}^H \mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}^2 = 2\gamma^2 - 1 + 2\gamma^2 \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 = 2\gamma^2 - 1.$$

Both equal 1 only at rest. Thus four-velocity has determinant one in every inertial frame but is Hermitian unitary only in its rest frame. For a [real unit direction](#) $\mathbf{u}$, write $\mathbf{v} = \beta \mathbf{u}$ and $\theta = \tanh^{-1} \beta$. Equation (4.16) gives $\mathbf{u} = \mathcal{L}^{-2}$ for $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$: the direct boost $\mathcal{L} \mathbf{u} \mathcal{L} = 1$ takes this tangent to rest.

For constant real mass $m > 0$, define the real four-momentum [9, Eq. (7.24)]

$$\mathcal{P} := m \mathbf{u} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.7)$$

The energy, momentum, and inverse are

$$\begin{aligned} E &= \text{sc}(\mathcal{P}) = m\gamma, \\ \mathbf{P} &= \text{vec}(\mathcal{P}) = m\gamma\mathbf{v}, \\ \mathcal{P}^{-1} &= \frac{E - \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{m^2}. \end{aligned}$$

Since $\det \mathcal{U} = 1$, scalar scaling gives the mass shell [9, Eq. (7.30)]:

$$E^2 - \mathbf{P}^2 = \det \mathcal{P} = m^2, \quad E > 0. \quad (6.8)$$

For a massive particle of finite energy,

$$\mathbf{v}^2 = \frac{\mathbf{P}^2}{E^2} = 1 - \frac{m^2}{E^2} < 1.$$

Approaching light speed requires unbounded energy. A massless particle has no proper-time four-velocity. Its momentum is defined directly by $\mathcal{P} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $E > 0$ and $E^2 = \mathbf{P}^2$.

6.4 Four-acceleration and proper acceleration

Coordinate acceleration is $\dot{\mathbf{v}}$; four-acceleration is $d\mathcal{U}/ds$. We first differentiate with respect to coordinate time:

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\gamma} &= \gamma^3 (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}}), \\ \dot{\mathcal{U}} &= \dot{\gamma} + \frac{d(\gamma\mathbf{v})}{dt} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \frac{d(\gamma\mathbf{v})}{dt} &= \gamma\dot{\mathbf{v}} + \dot{\gamma}\mathbf{v}. \end{aligned}$$

For $\mathbf{v} \neq 0$, resolve the coordinate acceleration into components parallel and perpendicular to the velocity:

$$\dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel} := \frac{(\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})\mathbf{v}}{\mathbf{v}^2}, \quad \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} := \dot{\mathbf{v}} - \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}, \quad \dot{\mathbf{v}} = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}.$$

These subscripts project $\dot{\mathbf{v}}$; at $\mathbf{v} = 0$, use the unsplit formulas. Since $(\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}^2 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}$ and $1 + \gamma^2 \mathbf{v}^2 = \gamma^2$, the spatial derivative becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d(\gamma\mathbf{v})}{dt} &= \gamma\dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} + (\gamma + \gamma^3 \mathbf{v}^2)\dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel} \\ &= \gamma\dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} + \gamma^3 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}. \end{aligned}$$

Thus the full coordinate-time derivative of four-velocity is

$$\dot{\mathcal{U}} = \gamma^3 (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}}) + (\gamma\dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} + \gamma^3 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.9)$$

Orthogonality and determinant. Differentiating $\mathcal{U}^* \mathcal{U} = 1$ gives

$$\dot{\mathcal{U}}^* \mathcal{U} + \mathcal{U}^* \dot{\mathcal{U}} = 0.$$

Taking scalar parts gives

$$\text{sc}(\mathcal{U}^* \dot{\mathcal{U}}) = 0.$$

Thus $\mathbf{u}$ and $\dot{\mathbf{u}}$ are Minkowski-orthogonal. Although $\dot{\mathbf{u}}$ can have a scalar part, the product $\mathbf{u}^*\dot{\mathbf{u}}$ is scalar-free and belongs to $\{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Multiplication on the right by $\mathbf{u}^*$ also gives

$$\text{adj} \dot{\mathbf{u}} = -\mathbf{u}^* \dot{\mathbf{u}} \mathbf{u}^*.$$

Expanding the commutator and the product gives

$$\begin{aligned} [\mathbf{u}, \dot{\mathbf{u}}] &= 2i\gamma^2 (\mathbf{v} \times \dot{\mathbf{v}}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \mathbf{u}^* \dot{\mathbf{u}} &= \gamma^2 (\dot{\mathbf{v}} - i\mathbf{v} \times \dot{\mathbf{v}}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

The cross product depends only on acceleration perpendicular to $\mathbf{v}$. Since $\det \mathbf{u}^* = 1$, multiplying by $\mathbf{u}^*$ preserves the determinant. The determinant of a scalar-free paravector is the negative of its square. Using $\dot{\mathbf{v}} \cdot (\mathbf{v} \times \dot{\mathbf{v}}) = 0$ therefore gives

$$\begin{aligned} \det \dot{\mathbf{u}} &= -(\mathbf{u}^* \dot{\mathbf{u}})^2 \\ &= -\gamma^4 (\dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 - (\mathbf{v} \times \dot{\mathbf{v}})^2) \\ &= -\gamma^2 (\dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 + \gamma^2 (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})^2). \end{aligned}$$

The last equality uses $(\mathbf{v} \times \dot{\mathbf{v}})^2 = \mathbf{v}^2 \dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 - (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})^2$ and $1 - \mathbf{v}^2 = \gamma^{-2}$. Using the parallel and perpendicular components defined above, $\dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp}^2 + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}^2$ and $(\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})^2 = \mathbf{v}^2 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}^2$ give

$$\det \dot{\mathbf{u}} = -\gamma^2 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp}^2 - \gamma^4 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}^2.$$

Conversion to proper time. Multiplying $\dot{\mathbf{u}}$ by γ gives [9, p. 141]

$$\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds} = \gamma \dot{\mathbf{u}} = \gamma^4 (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}}) + (\gamma^2 \dot{\mathbf{v}} + \gamma^4 (\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}}) \mathbf{v}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.10)$$

The determinant is quadratic, so

$$\begin{aligned} \det \left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds} \right) &= \gamma^2 \det (\dot{\mathbf{u}}) \\ &= -\gamma^4 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp}^2 - \gamma^6 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}^2. \end{aligned}$$

The same scaling gives $\text{sc}(\mathbf{u}^* d\mathbf{u}/ds) = 0$, so four-velocity and four-acceleration are Minkowski-orthogonal. Nonzero four-acceleration is space-like. Its negative determinant is the squared magnitude of the acceleration measured in the instantaneous rest frame, called the proper acceleration. At rest, $\gamma = 1$ and $d\mathbf{u}/ds = \dot{\mathbf{v}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, so the determinant is $-\dot{\mathbf{v}}^2$ and the proper acceleration has magnitude $\|\dot{\mathbf{v}}\|$.

6.4.1 Energy and inertia

For constant invariant mass $m > 0$, four-momentum is $\mathbf{P} = m\mathbf{u}$, so $\dot{\mathbf{P}} = m\dot{\mathbf{u}}$. Its scalar and spatial parts are $E = m\gamma$ and $\mathbf{P} = m\gamma\mathbf{v}$. Multiplying the spatial part of (6.9) by m therefore gives

$$\dot{\mathbf{P}} = m\gamma \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\perp} + m\gamma^3 \dot{\mathbf{v}}_{\parallel}. \quad (6.11)$$

Taking its dot product with $\mathbf{v}$ gives the work rate

$$\dot{E} = m\gamma^3 \mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}} = \mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{P}}. \quad (6.12)$$

At rest the force is $m\dot{\mathbf{v}}$. Reverting to SI units,

$$\boxed{E = \gamma mc^2}_{\text{SI}}, \quad \boxed{E/c^2 = \gamma m}_{\text{SI}}.$$

The mass equivalent in the second relation is sometimes called *relativistic mass*. In the natural units used elsewhere, we retain invariant m : the longitudinal and transverse inertia in (6.11) differ.

6.5 Jerk and proper-time derivatives

Jerk distinguishes three quantities: the coordinate jerk $\ddot{\mathbf{v}}$, the proper-time derivative of four-acceleration, and its projection into the instantaneous rest space. Dots still mean t derivatives.

6.5.1 Coordinate derivatives, then proper-time derivatives

Starting from $\dot{\gamma}$ and $\dot{\mathbf{U}}$ in Section 6.4, differentiate once more with respect to t . Using

$$\frac{d(\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})}{dt} = \dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \ddot{\mathbf{v}},$$

a second differentiation gives

$$\begin{aligned} \ddot{\gamma} &= \gamma^3 (\dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \ddot{\mathbf{v}}) + \frac{3\dot{\gamma}^2}{\gamma}, \\ \ddot{\mathbf{U}} &= \ddot{\gamma} + (\gamma \ddot{\mathbf{v}} + 2\dot{\gamma} \dot{\mathbf{v}} + \ddot{\gamma} \mathbf{v}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Now apply $d/ds = \gamma d/dt$. The first derivative is $d\mathbf{U}/ds = \gamma \dot{\mathbf{U}}$, and the second is

$$\frac{d^2 \mathbf{U}}{ds^2} = \gamma \frac{d(\gamma \dot{\mathbf{U}})}{dt} = \gamma^2 \ddot{\mathbf{U}} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\mathbf{U}}. \quad (6.13)$$

The same conversion applies to every twice-differentiable scalar, vector, or paravector along the worldline. In particular,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d^2 \gamma}{ds^2} &= \gamma^2 \ddot{\gamma} + \gamma \dot{\gamma}^2, \\ \frac{d^2 \mathbf{U}}{ds^2} &= \frac{d^2 \gamma}{ds^2} + \left(\gamma^3 \ddot{\mathbf{v}} + 3\gamma^2 \dot{\gamma} \dot{\mathbf{v}} + \frac{d^2 \gamma}{ds^2} \mathbf{v} \right) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned} \quad (6.14)$$

This derivative of four-acceleration is the *unprojected four-jerk*:

$$\frac{d}{ds} \left(\frac{d\mathbf{U}}{ds} \right) = \frac{d^2 \mathbf{U}}{ds^2} = \frac{d^3 \boldsymbol{\mathcal{X}}}{ds^3}. \quad (6.15)$$

By comparison, $d\dot{\mathbf{v}}/ds = \gamma \ddot{\mathbf{v}}$ still differentiates the coordinate acceleration of the chosen inertial frame.

6.5.2 Projection into the instantaneous rest space

Start with the coordinate-time normalization identities

$$\text{sc}(\mathbf{u}^* \dot{\mathbf{u}}) = 0, \quad \text{sc}(\mathbf{u}^* \ddot{\mathbf{u}}) = -\det(\dot{\mathbf{u}}).$$

The second follows by differentiating the first. Substitution into (6.13), together with $\det(d\mathbf{u}/ds) = \gamma^2 \det(\dot{\mathbf{u}})$, gives

$$\text{sc}\left(\mathbf{u}^* \frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2}\right) = -\det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right).$$

Thus the derivative of four-acceleration need not be orthogonal to four-velocity. Since $\det \mathbf{u} = 1$, the right-hand side is its coefficient of $\mathbf{u}$ in the unprojected four-jerk. Removing that component defines the projected relativistic jerk [22, Eqs. (2.8)–(2.13)]. With our signature $(+, -, -, -)$, its orthogonality is

$$\text{sc}\left(\mathbf{u}^* \left(\frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2} + \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right) \mathbf{u}\right)\right) = 0. \quad (6.16)$$

At an instant of rest, $\mathbf{u} = 1$ and

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2} &= \dot{\mathbf{v}}^2 + \ddot{\mathbf{v}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2} + \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right) \mathbf{u} &= \ddot{\mathbf{v}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Here the coordinate derivatives are evaluated in the inertial frame in which the particle is instantaneously at rest. The projected expression is therefore the measured proper jerk there; it is space-like whenever nonzero.

Invariant magnitude. Expanding the determinant using the metric pairing and (6.16) gives

$$\det\left(\frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2} + \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right) \mathbf{u}\right) = \det\left(\frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2}\right) - \left(\det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right)\right)^2 \leq 0. \quad (6.17)$$

The negative of this determinant is the squared proper-jerk magnitude. The unprojected four-jerk can instead be time-like, null, or space-like; its determinant includes the positive contribution from the component along $\mathbf{u}$.

When proper jerk vanishes. In (6.14), subtracting the scalar coefficient times $\mathbf{v}$ from the vector coefficient leaves $\gamma^3(\ddot{\mathbf{v}} + 3\dot{\gamma}\dot{\mathbf{v}}/\gamma)$. Its vanishing says that the unprojected four-jerk is parallel to $\mathbf{u}$, so its projection vanishes. Hence [22, Eq. (2.14)]

$$\frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2} + \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right) \mathbf{u} = 0 \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad \ddot{\mathbf{v}} = -3\frac{\dot{\gamma}}{\gamma}\dot{\mathbf{v}}. \quad (6.18)$$

Zero proper jerk therefore need not mean zero coordinate jerk. Also, differentiating the acceleration determinant gives

$$\frac{d}{ds} \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right) = 2 \text{sc}\left(\left(\frac{d\mathbf{u}}{ds}\right)^* \frac{d^2 \mathbf{u}}{ds^2}\right).$$

The pairing is unchanged if the second factor is replaced by its projected expression, because $d\mathbf{u}/ds$ is orthogonal to $\mathbf{u}$. Consequently, zero projected jerk implies constant proper-acceleration magnitude. The converse does not hold in general: the direction can still change, as in uniform circular motion.

6.5.3 Fixed-axis motion and rapidity

For a fixed real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$, write

$$\mathcal{U} = \cosh \theta + \sinh \theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \mathcal{N} = \sinh \theta + \cosh \theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Here $\det \mathcal{U} = 1$, $\det \mathcal{N} = -1$, and $\text{sc}(\mathcal{U}^* \mathcal{N}) = 0$. The pair is an orthonormal time and spatial basis in the plane of motion. Although rapidity is given as $\theta(s)$, its coordinate-time derivatives are those of the composition $\theta(s(t))$.

Coordinate-time derivatives. The first derivatives exchange $\mathcal{U}$ and $\mathcal{N}$:

$$\dot{\mathcal{U}} = \dot{\theta} \mathcal{N}, \quad \dot{\mathcal{N}} = \dot{\theta} \mathcal{U}.$$

Differentiating again gives

$$\begin{aligned} \ddot{\mathcal{U}} &= \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{U} + \ddot{\theta} \mathcal{N}, \\ \ddot{\mathcal{N}} &= \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{N} + \ddot{\theta} \mathcal{U}. \end{aligned}$$

The $\dot{\theta}^2$ terms come from differentiating the moving basis; the $\ddot{\theta}$ terms come from differentiating its rate of change. Their determinants follow directly from the orthogonal unit pair:

$$\det \dot{\mathcal{U}} = -\dot{\theta}^2, \quad \det \ddot{\mathcal{U}} = -\det(\ddot{\mathcal{N}}) = \dot{\theta}^4 - \ddot{\theta}^2.$$

For the velocity along the axis, let $\beta = \tanh \theta$, so $\mathbf{v} = \beta \mathbf{u}$ and $\gamma = \cosh \theta$. Then

$$\dot{\beta} = \gamma^{-2} \dot{\theta}, \quad \ddot{\beta} = \gamma^{-2} \ddot{\theta} - 2\gamma^{-3} \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}.$$

Conversion to proper time. Since $\dot{s} = 1/\gamma$, the chain rule gives

$$\dot{\theta} = \frac{d\theta}{ds} \dot{s}, \quad \frac{d\theta}{ds} = \gamma \dot{\theta}, \quad \frac{d^2\theta}{ds^2} = \gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}.$$

These are ordinary derivatives of the same rapidity along the path. The signed proper acceleration and signed proper jerk are respectively $d\theta/ds$ and $d^2\theta/ds^2$. Scaling the first coordinate derivatives gives

$$\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds} = \gamma \dot{\theta} \mathcal{N}, \quad \frac{d\mathcal{N}}{ds} = \gamma \dot{\theta} \mathcal{U}.$$

Applying (6.13) to each member of the pair gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} &= \gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{U} + (\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}) \mathcal{N}, \\ \frac{d^2\mathcal{N}}{ds^2} &= \gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{N} + (\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}) \mathcal{U}. \end{aligned} \tag{6.19}$$

Removing the component along $\mathcal{U}$ leaves

$$\frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} - \gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{U} = (\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}) \mathcal{N} = \frac{d^2\theta}{ds^2} \mathcal{N}.$$

Thus the proper-acceleration and proper-jerk magnitudes are $\gamma \left| \dot{\theta} \right|$ and $\left| \gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta} \right|$. The corresponding determinant identities are

$$\begin{aligned} \det \left(\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds} \right) &= -\gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2, \\ \det \left(\frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} - \gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2 \mathcal{U} \right) &= - \left(\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta} \right)^2, \\ \det \left(\frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} \right) &= - \det \left(\frac{d^2\mathcal{N}}{ds^2} \right) \\ &= \gamma^4 \dot{\theta}^4 - \left(\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta} \right)^2. \end{aligned}$$

The sign reversal again comes from exchanging the unit time and spatial directions. Using $\dot{\theta} = \gamma^2 \dot{\beta}$ and $\dot{\gamma} = \gamma^3 \beta \dot{\beta}$ also gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d\theta}{ds} &= \gamma^3 \dot{\beta}, \\ \frac{d^2\theta}{ds^2} &= \gamma^4 \ddot{\beta} + 3\gamma^3 \dot{\gamma} \dot{\beta} = \gamma^4 \ddot{\beta} + 3\gamma^6 \beta \dot{\beta}^2, \\ \ddot{\beta} &= \gamma^{-4} \frac{d^2\theta}{ds^2} - 3 \frac{\dot{\gamma}}{\gamma} \dot{\beta}. \end{aligned} \tag{6.20}$$

For fixed-axis motion, zero proper jerk is exactly $\gamma \ddot{\theta} + \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta} = 0$, or equivalently $d^2\theta/ds^2 = 0$. Thus $\gamma \dot{\theta}$ is constant and rapidity is affine in proper time. The unprojected four-jerk remains nonzero whenever that constant proper acceleration is nonzero.

6.5.4 Null combinations and the constant-acceleration pattern

The symmetry of the paired derivatives becomes especially simple on adding or subtracting $\mathcal{U}$ and $\mathcal{N}$:

$$\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N} = e^{\pm\theta} (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \quad \det(\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}) = 0.$$

These two null directions are fixed; only their scalar factors change. Their coordinate-time derivatives are

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\mathcal{U}} \pm \dot{\mathcal{N}} &= \pm \dot{\theta} (\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}), \\ \ddot{\mathcal{U}} \pm \ddot{\mathcal{N}} &= (\dot{\theta}^2 \pm \ddot{\theta}) (\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}). \end{aligned}$$

The proper-time derivatives follow by the same conversion:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d(\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N})}{ds} &= \pm \gamma \dot{\theta} (\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}), \\ \frac{d^2(\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N})}{ds^2} &= \left(\gamma^2 \dot{\theta}^2 \pm (\gamma^2 \ddot{\theta} + \gamma \dot{\gamma} \dot{\theta}) \right) (\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}). \end{aligned}$$

For constant signed proper acceleration $d\theta/ds = \gamma \dot{\theta}$, every proper-time differentiation multiplies each null combination by the same constant factor. For integers $n \geq 0$,

$$\frac{d^n(\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N})}{ds^n} = (\pm \gamma \dot{\theta})^n (\mathcal{U} \pm \mathcal{N}).$$

Adding and subtracting recovers the derivatives of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{N}$: even orders preserve each direction, while odd orders exchange them. These ordinary derivatives remain nonzero for nonzero constant proper acceleration, even though the projected jerk is zero. The constant-proper-acceleration worldline in Section 6.6.5 realizes this pattern; Section 6.6.6 treats nonzero constant proper jerk.

6.6 World lines and model motions

Dots continue to denote coordinate-time derivatives even when a path is parametrized by s . The integration limits s_0, s_1 below are arbitrary; in the constant-motion examples, subscript 0 denotes the initial event $t = s = 0$.

6.6.1 Integrating four-velocity

Integrating $\mathbf{u} = d\mathbf{x}/ds$ between $s_0 < s_1$ gives

$$\mathbf{x}(s_1) - \mathbf{x}(s_0) = \int_{s_0}^{s_1} \mathbf{u}(s) ds. \quad (6.21)$$

Its real components are

$$\begin{aligned} t(s_1) - t(s_0) &= \int_{s_0}^{s_1} \gamma(s) ds, \\ \mathbf{r}(s_1) - \mathbf{r}(s_0) &= \int_{s_0}^{s_1} \gamma(s) \mathbf{v}(s) ds. \end{aligned}$$

Thus between coordinate times t_0 and t the clock records [9, Eq. (7.19)]

$$s(t) - s(t_0) = \int_{t_0}^t \frac{dt'}{\gamma(t')} = \int_{t_0}^t \sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}(t')^2} dt'. \quad (6.22)$$

The velocity history determines the path; an endpoint boost alone does not.

6.6.2 Clock comparison

Let $\mathbf{x}_0 = \mathbf{x}(s_0)$ and $\mathbf{x}_1 = \mathbf{x}(s_1)$ be fixed, time-like separated events, with $\mathbf{x}_1$ to the future of $\mathbf{x}_0$. Write $\mathbf{x}_k = t_k + \mathbf{r}_k \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ for $k = 0, 1$. In their separation's rest frame, $\mathbf{r}_1 = \mathbf{r}_0$ and $t_1 - t_0 = \sqrt{\det(\mathbf{x}_1 - \mathbf{x}_0)}$. Since $\sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}^2} \leq 1$, (6.22) gives [7, p. 122]

$$s_1 - s_0 \leq \sqrt{\det(\mathbf{x}_1 - \mathbf{x}_0)}. \quad (6.23)$$

Equality requires the straight inertial path. The determinant of a finite displacement therefore does not generally equal the squared elapsed proper time of an accelerated clock.

For a return trip lasting real coordinate time $T > 0$, take velocities $+\beta\mathbf{u}$ and $-\beta\mathbf{u}$ for $T/2$ each, with **real unit vector** $\mathbf{u}$ and $0 < \beta < 1$. The ideal instantaneous reversal is the limit of a short smooth turn. The traveling clock records

$$s(T) - s(0) = T\sqrt{1 - \beta^2},$$

while the clock at rest records T . This is the twin-clock comparison [9, p. 121].

6.6.3 Constant velocity

For $\mathbf{v}(t) = \mathbf{v}_0$, $v_0^2 < 1$, and $\mathbf{r}(0) = \mathbf{r}_0$,

$$\gamma_0 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - v_0^2}}, \quad \mathcal{X}(t) = t + (\mathbf{r}_0 + \mathbf{v}_0 t) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

With $s(0) = 0$, the clock integral gives $s = t/\gamma_0$. Hence

$$\mathcal{X}(s) = \mathbf{r}_0 \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + s\mathcal{U}_0, \quad \mathcal{U}_0 = \gamma_0 (1 + \mathbf{v}_0 \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \quad (6.24)$$

This straight time-like worldline has $\dot{\mathbf{v}} = 0$ and $\dot{\mathcal{U}} = d\mathcal{U}/ds = 0$. For any two events on this inertial path, $\Delta\mathcal{X} = \Delta s\mathcal{U}_0$ and $\det\mathcal{U}_0 = 1$ give

$$\det(\Delta\mathcal{X}) = (\Delta s)^2 = (\Delta t)^2(1 - v_0^2).$$

In the particle's rest frame, $\mathbf{v}_0 = 0$, so $\mathcal{U}_0 = 1$ and $s = t$.

6.6.4 Constant coordinate acceleration

Constant coordinate acceleration means that $\dot{\mathbf{v}} = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0$ is a fixed real vector in a chosen inertial frame. With initial position $\mathbf{r}(0) = \mathbf{r}_0$ and velocity $\mathbf{v}(0) = \mathbf{v}_0$, integration gives

$$\mathbf{v}(t) = \mathbf{v}_0 + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t, \quad (6.25)$$

$$\mathcal{X}(t) = t + (\mathbf{r}_0 + \mathbf{v}_0 t + \tfrac{1}{2}\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t^2) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.26)$$

These familiar coordinate-time formulas also describe a relativistic massive particle, provided $\|\mathbf{v}_0 + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t\| < 1$ throughout the interval considered. A nonzero constant coordinate acceleration can therefore persist only for a finite coordinate-time interval.

For motion from rest at the origin, write $\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 = \dot{v}_0 \mathbf{u}$, where $\dot{v}_0 > 0$ is the scalar acceleration along the fixed real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$. Then

$$\mathbf{v}(t) = \dot{v}_0 t \mathbf{u}, \quad \mathcal{X}(t) = t + \tfrac{1}{2}\dot{v}_0 t^2 \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \gamma(t) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - \dot{v}_0^2 t^2}}, \quad 0 \leq t < \frac{1}{\dot{v}_0}.$$

The particle's clock runs at $\dot{s} = 1/\gamma(t)$. Taking $s(0) = 0$ in (6.22) gives

$$s(t) = \int_0^t \sqrt{1 - \dot{v}_0^2 t'^2} dt' = \frac{\arcsin(\dot{v}_0 t) + \dot{v}_0 t \sqrt{1 - \dot{v}_0^2 t^2}}{2\dot{v}_0}. \quad (6.27)$$

Four-velocity and four-acceleration follow by differentiating the world line:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{U}(t) &= \gamma(t)(1 + \dot{v}_0 t \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \\ \frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds} &= \gamma \dot{\mathcal{U}} = \gamma^4 \dot{v}_0 t + \gamma^4 \dot{v}_0 \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Consequently,

$$\det\left(\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds}\right) = \gamma^8 \dot{v}_0^2 (\dot{v}_0^2 t^2 - 1) = -\gamma^6 \dot{v}_0^2.$$

The proper-acceleration magnitude is therefore

$$\sqrt{-\det\left(\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds}\right)} = \gamma^3 \dot{v}_0 = \frac{\dot{v}_0}{(1 - \dot{v}_0^2 t^2)^{3/2}}.$$

Although the coordinate acceleration stays fixed, the acceleration measured in the instantaneous rest frame grows without bound as $t \rightarrow 1/\dot{v}_0$. The next example instead holds the proper acceleration fixed.

6.6.5 Constant proper acceleration

Let $\mathbf{u}$ be a fixed [real unit axis](#), and start at $\mathcal{X}(0) = 0$, $\mathcal{U}(0) = 1$, with initial coordinate acceleration $\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 = \dot{v}_0 \mathbf{u}$, where $\dot{v}_0 > 0$. At rest $\gamma_0 = 1$ and $\dot{\theta}_0 = \dot{v}_0$. Holding the signed proper acceleration along this axis constant gives $\theta(s) = \dot{v}_0 s$, and hence

$$\mathcal{U}(s) = \mathcal{L}(\dot{v}_0 s, \mathbf{u})^{-2} = \cosh(\dot{v}_0 s) + \sinh(\dot{v}_0 s) \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Differentiation verifies the stated acceleration:

$$\det \left(\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds} \right) = -\dot{v}_0^2 (\cosh^2(\dot{v}_0 s) - \sinh^2(\dot{v}_0 s)) = -\dot{v}_0^2.$$

Integrating (6.21) yields [9, Eq. (7.33), pp. 142–143]

$$\mathcal{X}(s) = \frac{\sinh(\dot{v}_0 s)}{\dot{v}_0} + \frac{\cosh(\dot{v}_0 s) - 1}{\dot{v}_0} \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.28)$$

Its components give

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{v}(t(s)) &= \tanh(\dot{v}_0 s) \mathbf{u}, \\ (1 + \dot{v}_0 \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})^2 - (\dot{v}_0 t)^2 &= 1. \end{aligned}$$

Thus (6.28) is the usual hyperbolic motion, with speed below light speed at every finite s . Eliminating s using $\dot{v}_0 t = \sinh(\dot{v}_0 s)$ makes the coordinate acceleration explicit:

$$\mathbf{v}(t) = \frac{\dot{v}_0 t}{\sqrt{1 + \dot{v}_0^2 t^2}} \mathbf{u}, \quad \dot{\mathbf{v}}(t) = \frac{\dot{v}_0}{(1 + \dot{v}_0^2 t^2)^{3/2}} \mathbf{u}.$$

Here $\gamma(t) = \sqrt{1 + \dot{v}_0^2 t^2}$, so $\gamma^3 \|\dot{\mathbf{v}}(t)\| = \dot{v}_0$ is constant while the coordinate acceleration decreases as the particle gains speed.

6.6.6 Constant jerk

We distinguish constant coordinate jerk in a chosen inertial frame, constant signed proper jerk along a fixed axis, and constant components of the unprojected four-jerk. The last condition is preserved by constant Lorentz transformations.

Constant coordinate jerk. For $\ddot{\mathbf{v}} = \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0$ in a chosen inertial frame, integration gives

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\mathbf{v}}(t) &= \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 + \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t, \\ \mathbf{v}(t) &= \mathbf{v}_0 + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t + \frac{1}{2} \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t^2, \\ \mathcal{X}(t) &= t + (\mathbf{r}_0 + \mathbf{v}_0 t + \frac{1}{2} \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t^2 + \frac{1}{6} \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 t^3) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned} \quad (6.29)$$

These formulas apply on the interval where $\mathbf{v}(t)^2 < 1$. Equations (6.3), (6.5), and (6.22) give γ , $\mathcal{U}$, and $s(t)$; (6.14) gives the generally varying four-jerk. For example, from rest with zero initial acceleration, take $\ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 = \ddot{v}_0 \mathbf{u}$, where $\ddot{v}_0 > 0$ is the scalar jerk along the fixed real unit axis $\mathbf{u}$. Then

$$\mathbf{v}(t) = \frac{1}{2} \ddot{v}_0 t^2 \mathbf{u}, \quad \mathbf{r}(t) = \mathbf{r}_0 + \frac{1}{6} \ddot{v}_0 t^3 \mathbf{u}, \quad 0 \leq t < \sqrt{\frac{2}{\ddot{v}_0}}.$$

Here $\dot{\beta} = \ddot{v}_0 t$ and $\beta = \ddot{v}_0 t^2/2$, so (6.20) gives $d^2\theta/ds^2 = \gamma^4 \ddot{v}_0 + 3\gamma^6 \beta (\ddot{v}_0 t)^2$. Thus constant coordinate jerk does not give constant proper jerk.

Constant proper jerk. For fixed-axis motion, hold the signed quantity $d^2\theta/ds^2$ constant. Express its value and the initial signed proper acceleration in coordinate-time data using $\gamma_0 = \cosh \theta_0$ and $\dot{\gamma}_0 = \sinh \theta_0 \dot{\theta}_0$. Integrating with respect to proper time gives

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{d\theta}{ds} &= \gamma_0 \dot{\theta}_0 + \left(\gamma_0^2 \ddot{\theta}_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\theta}_0 \right) s, \\ \theta(s) &= \theta_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\theta}_0 s + \frac{1}{2} \left(\gamma_0^2 \ddot{\theta}_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\theta}_0 \right) s^2.\end{aligned}\tag{6.30}$$

If the particle starts at rest, $\theta_0 = 0$, $\gamma_0 = 1$, and $\dot{\gamma}_0 = 0$, so this reduces to $\theta(s) = \dot{\theta}_0 s + \frac{1}{2} \ddot{\theta}_0 s^2$. The corresponding world line, with $t(0) = 0$, is

$$\begin{aligned}t(s) &= \int_0^s \cosh \theta(s') ds', \\ \mathbf{r}(s) &= \mathbf{r}_0 + \mathbf{u} \int_0^s \sinh \theta(s') ds', \quad \mathcal{X}(s) = t(s) + \mathbf{r}(s) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.\end{aligned}\tag{6.31}$$

These integrals specify the trajectory exactly; see also [22, Eqs. (5.8)–(5.9)]. Because $dt/ds = \cosh \theta > 0$, they also define a unique coordinate-time trajectory. Its velocity, acceleration, and jerk are

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{v}(t(s)) &= \tanh \theta(s) \mathbf{u}, \\ \dot{\mathbf{v}}(t(s)) &= \frac{1}{\cosh^3 \theta(s)} \frac{d\theta}{ds} \mathbf{u}, \\ \ddot{\mathbf{v}}(t(s)) &= \frac{1}{\cosh^4 \theta(s)} \left(\frac{d^2\theta}{ds^2} - 3 \left(\frac{d\theta}{ds} \right)^2 \tanh \theta(s) \right) \mathbf{u}.\end{aligned}$$

The projected jerk is $(d^2\theta/ds^2)\mathcal{N}$, as derived in Section 6.5. Its magnitude is constant, while its inertial-frame components change with $\mathcal{N}$. The unprojected derivative also contains the changing component $(d\theta/ds)^2 \mathbf{u}$. Setting $\theta_0 = 0$, $\ddot{\theta}_0 = 0$, and $\dot{\theta}_0 = \dot{v}_0 > 0$ recovers the preceding constant-proper-acceleration example.

Constant unprojected four-jerk. If the components of $d^2\mathbf{u}/ds^2$ are constant in an inertial frame, its value is determined by the initial coordinate-time derivatives:

$$\frac{d^2\mathbf{u}}{ds^2} = \gamma_0^2 \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0.$$

Here γ_0 and $\dot{\gamma}_0$ are the scalar parts of $\mathbf{u}_0$ and $\dot{\mathbf{u}}_0$, respectively. Direct integration then gives

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{u}(s) &= \mathbf{u}_0 + s\gamma_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \frac{s^2}{2} \left(\gamma_0^2 \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0 \right), \\ \mathcal{X}(s) &= \mathcal{X}_0 + s\mathbf{u}_0 + \frac{s^2}{2} \gamma_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \frac{s^3}{6} \left(\gamma_0^2 \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \gamma_0 \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0 \right).\end{aligned}$$

With $\mathbf{u}_0$ future-directed, the following coefficient conditions are necessary and sufficient for $\det \mathcal{U}(s) = 1$. Equating powers of s using the metric pairing in (5.3) gives

$$\begin{aligned}\det \mathbf{u}_0 &= 1, \quad \text{sc}(\mathbf{u}_0^* \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0) = 0, \quad \text{sc}(\mathbf{u}_0^* \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0) = -\det(\dot{\mathbf{u}}_0), \\ \gamma_0 \text{sc}(\dot{\mathbf{u}}_0^* \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0) + \dot{\gamma}_0 \det(\dot{\mathbf{u}}_0) &= 0, \quad \det(\gamma_0 \ddot{\mathbf{u}}_0 + \dot{\gamma}_0 \dot{\mathbf{u}}_0) = 0.\end{aligned}$$

In particular, a nonzero constant $d^2\mathcal{U}/ds^2$ must be null. If it is zero, the normalization conditions force $\dot{\mathcal{U}}_0 = 0$, so the motion is inertial.

For a concrete example [22, Eq. (3.40)], start at rest at the origin and choose nonzero initial coordinate acceleration $\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0$ and jerk $\ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0$ satisfying

$$\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 \cdot \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 = 0, \quad \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 = (\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2)^2.$$

Here $\gamma_0 = 1$ and $\dot{\gamma}_0 = 0$, so the initial paravector data are

$$\mathcal{X}_0 = 0, \quad \mathcal{U}_0 = 1, \quad \dot{\mathcal{U}}_0 = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \ddot{\mathcal{U}}_0 = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 + \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

The resulting world line is

$$\mathcal{X}(s) = s + \frac{1}{6}\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 s^3 + \left(\frac{1}{2}\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0 s^2 + \frac{1}{6}\ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 s^3\right) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (6.32)$$

Differentiation verifies

$$\frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} = \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 + \ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0 \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \det \mathcal{U} = 1.$$

Its invariants are

$$\det \left(\frac{d\mathcal{U}}{ds} \right) = -\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2, \quad \det \left(\frac{d^2\mathcal{U}}{ds^2} \right) = 0.$$

Thus the proper-acceleration magnitude $\|\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0\|$ and, by (6.17), the proper-jerk magnitude $\dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 = \|\ddot{\mathbf{v}}_0\|$ are both constant. Also $dt/ds = 1 + \dot{\mathbf{v}}_0^2 s^2/2 > 0$, so s is indeed future-directed proper time. This curved spatial path is a different motion from the fixed-axis constant-proper-jerk example.

7 Inertial frames and particle dynamics

Recall that a dot denotes a total derivative with respect to coordinate time t , for example $\dot{\mathbf{r}} = d\mathbf{r}/dt$.

Constant Lorentz transformations relate coordinates and measured quantities in inertial frames. The invariant mass and proper time retain the meanings established in Section 6.

7.1 Coordinates, intervals, and light cones

Recall $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real rapidity θ , **real unit vector** $\mathbf{u}$, $\beta = \tanh \theta$, and $\gamma = \cosh \theta$. Here γ is the factor for frame velocity $\beta \mathbf{u}$. The gamma form (4.15) and its square (4.16) are the same exponential at half and full rapidity. For real $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, take coincident inertial origins at $t = t' = 0$. Equation (5.2) with $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{L}$ gives $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{L}$: the primed frame moves at $+\beta \mathbf{u}$. Equations (5.11)–(5.12) become [7, Eq. (5.1)]

$$t' = \gamma(t - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}), \quad (7.1)$$

$$\mathbf{r}' = \mathbf{r}_\perp + \gamma(\mathbf{r}_\parallel - \beta t \mathbf{u}), \quad (7.2)$$

where $\mathbf{r}_\parallel = (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{r}_\perp = \mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\parallel$. In particular, $\mathbf{r} = \beta t \mathbf{u}$ maps to $\mathbf{r}' = 0$, fixing the physical meaning of the sign. Reversing θ as in (4.7) gives $\mathcal{X} = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\mathcal{X}'\mathcal{L}^{-1}$.

Specializing (5.13) to the real event $\mathcal{X}$ gives [9, p. 154]

$$t' \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}' = e^{\mp\theta}(t \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}). \quad (7.3)$$

Multiplying the two signs in (7.3) and using $\mathbf{r}'_{\perp} = \mathbf{r}_{\perp}$ gives

$$t'^2 - \mathbf{r}'^2 = (t' + \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}')(t' - \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}') - \mathbf{r}'_{\perp}^2 = t^2 - \mathbf{r}^2.$$

Thus the exponential stretches one light-cone coordinate and compresses the other reciprocally. The same identity holds for event differences; in particular,

$$dt'^2 - d\mathbf{r}'^2 = \det(d\mathcal{X}') = \det(d\mathcal{X}) = dt^2 - d\mathbf{r}^2. \quad (7.4)$$

Equation (7.4) preserves the interval (6.1) and light cones in every direction. Future causal increments stay future because $dt' = \gamma(dt - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot d\mathbf{r}) > 0$ when $dt > 0$ and $dt \geq \|d\mathbf{r}\|$ [9, p. 118].

In contrast, the squared norm is

$$\|\mathcal{X}'\|^2 = \gamma^2((t - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})^2 + (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r} - \beta t)^2) + \mathbf{r}_{\perp}^2.$$

It generally differs from $t^2 + \mathbf{r}^2$. The determinant controls proper time and causality; preserving this squared norm instead would not give these Lorentz transformations.

7.2 Spacetime increments and velocity

Recall the real four-velocity $\mathcal{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds$, an invertible paravector with $\mathcal{U}\mathcal{U}^{-1} = 1$, along a real world line $\mathcal{X}(s)$. For constant $\mathcal{L}$, differentiation gives

$$d\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{L} d\mathcal{X} \mathcal{L}. \quad (7.5)$$

Because ds is invariant, $\mathcal{U}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{U}\mathcal{L}$. At a point where $\mathcal{U} = \mathcal{L}^{-2} = \gamma(1 + \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})$, this gives $\mathcal{U}' = 1$ and $d\mathcal{X}' = ds$: the boost takes the particle's instantaneous tangent to rest. For varying velocity, a different $\mathcal{L}$ is needed at each point; Section 8.4 supplies its derivative terms.

Recall the particle velocity $\mathbf{v} = \dot{\mathbf{r}}$ and resolve it along $\mathbf{u}$. Dividing the spatial increment by $dt' = \gamma(1 - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}) dt$ gives [9, Eq. (7.22)]

$$\boxed{\mathbf{v}' = \frac{\mathbf{v}_{\perp}/\gamma + \mathbf{v}_{\parallel} - \beta \mathbf{u}}{1 - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}}}. \quad (7.6)$$

Interval invariance also gives

$$1 - \mathbf{v}'^2 = \frac{1 - \mathbf{v}^2}{\gamma^2(1 - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v})^2}. \quad (7.7)$$

Thus (7.6) preserves subluminal motion and light speed. For two real proper times s_1, s_2 , the constant-factor law (7.5) also integrates to

$$\mathcal{X}'(s_2) - \mathcal{X}'(s_1) = \mathcal{L} \left(\int_{s_1}^{s_2} \mathcal{U}(s) ds \right) \mathcal{L}.$$

This is the transformed world-line integral (6.21).

7.3 Clock rates and measured lengths

For a clock at rest in the primed frame, (7.1) uses $d\mathbf{r} = \beta\mathbf{u} dt$, hence [9, p. 119]

$$dt' = \gamma(1 - \beta^2) dt = dt/\gamma. \quad (7.8)$$

Here $dt' = ds$; finite elapsed time follows from (6.22).

For a rod at rest in the unprimed frame, let $\Delta\mathbf{r} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ be its fixed endpoint separation. A simultaneous measurement in the primed frame requires $\Delta t' = 0$, so $\Delta t = \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \Delta\mathbf{r}$. Substituting in (7.2) gives [9, p. 123]

$$\Delta\mathbf{r}'_{\parallel} = \Delta\mathbf{r}_{\parallel}/\gamma. \quad (7.9)$$

The transverse separation stays unchanged; thus a rod of any orientation has

$$\|\Delta\mathbf{r}'\|^2 = \|\Delta\mathbf{r}_{\perp}\|^2 + \|\Delta\mathbf{r}_{\parallel}\|^2/\gamma^2.$$

Longitudinal contraction (7.9) therefore compares endpoint events at equal primed times. Equal unprimed times instead give $\Delta t' = -\gamma\beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \Delta\mathbf{r}$; simultaneity is frame-dependent. The reciprocal statement follows by exchanging primes and reversing β .

7.4 Composing frames

For constant determinant-one factors $\mathcal{T}, \mathcal{T}'$, applying the frame change $\mathcal{T}$ and then $\mathcal{T}'$ gives

$$\mathcal{Z}'' = \mathcal{T}'(\mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^H)\mathcal{T}'^H = (\mathcal{T}'\mathcal{T})\mathcal{Z}(\mathcal{T}'\mathcal{T})^H.$$

Thus the combined factor is $\mathcal{T}'\mathcal{T}$: the rightmost factor acts first.

Collinear boosts add rapidities by (4.18). For a second real rapidity θ' , set $\beta' = \tanh \theta'$ and $\gamma' = \cosh \theta'$. Their combined parameters are

$$\begin{aligned} \beta'' &= \tanh(\theta + \theta') = \frac{\beta + \beta'}{1 + \beta\beta'}, \\ \gamma'' &= \gamma\gamma'(1 + \beta\beta'). \end{aligned}$$

These are the collinear velocity and clock-factor composition laws. Noncollinear boosts instead have the rotation commutator (4.19), producing the Thomas–Wigner rotation.

7.5 Energy and momentum

For the real momentum $\mathcal{P} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the same congruence gives [21, Eq. (17.12)]

$$E' = \gamma(E - \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{P}), \quad (7.10)$$

$$\mathbf{P}' = \mathbf{P}_{\perp} + \gamma(\mathbf{P}_{\parallel} - \beta E\mathbf{u}). \quad (7.11)$$

Here the projections are along $\mathbf{u}$. Determinant invariance gives $E'^2 - \mathbf{P}'^2 = E^2 - \mathbf{P}^2 = m^2$ for a particle of rest mass $m > 0$. To see the energy increase directly, start with $\mathcal{P}' = m$ in its rest frame and invert the boost:

$$\mathcal{P} = \mathcal{L}^{-1}m\mathcal{L}^{-1} = m\gamma(1 + \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

Thus $E = m\gamma$ and $\mathbf{P} = m\gamma\beta\mathbf{u}$, while m remains unchanged [9, Eqs. (7.25), (7.28)]. The force response is derived in (6.11)–(6.12).

7.6 Free-particle action

Recall real $m > 0$, $\mathbf{v} = \dot{\mathbf{r}}$, and $ds = dt/\gamma$. Here $L : \mathbb{R} \times \mathbb{R}^3 \times \{\mathbf{v} \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \mathbf{v}^2 < 1\} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is the particle Lagrangian; the boost factor is $\gamma \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. $\partial_{\mathbf{v}}$ denotes its vector derivative with respect to the three independent velocity components, while $\partial_{\mathbf{r}}$ denotes the spatial gradient. The free action is the physical choice [7, Eqs. (5.38)–(5.39)]

$$\int L dt = -m \int ds. \quad (7.12)$$

Using $ds = dt/\gamma$ gives the Lagrangian

$$L = -m\sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}^2} = -m/\gamma.$$

For endpoint-fixed real path variations $\delta \mathbf{r}(t)$, varying the Lagrangian and integrating by parts gives

$$\delta \int L dt = \int \left(\partial_{\mathbf{r}} L - \frac{d(\partial_{\mathbf{v}} L)}{dt} \right) \cdot \delta \mathbf{r} dt.$$

Stationarity for every variation yields the Euler–Lagrange equation. With Hamiltonian $H := \mathbf{v} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{v}} L - L \in \mathbb{R}$, the chain rule gives

$$\frac{d(\partial_{\mathbf{v}} L)}{dt} = \partial_{\mathbf{r}} L, \quad (7.13)$$

$$\dot{H} = \mathbf{v} \cdot \left(\frac{d(\partial_{\mathbf{v}} L)}{dt} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}} L \right) - \partial_t L = -\partial_t L. \quad (7.14)$$

By (7.13) and (7.14), spatial and temporal translation invariance conserve canonical momentum and energy. For the free action,

$$\begin{aligned} \partial_{\mathbf{v}} L &= m\gamma \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{P}, \\ H &= m\gamma \mathbf{v}^2 + m/\gamma = m\gamma = E. \end{aligned}$$

Write $v = \|\mathbf{v}\| \ll 1$. Here $O(v^n)$ denotes terms bounded by a constant times v^n as $v \rightarrow 0$. The binomial series gives

$$\begin{aligned} \sqrt{1 - v^2} &= 1 - \frac{1}{2}v^2 + O(v^4), \\ \gamma &= 1 + \frac{1}{2}v^2 + O(v^4), \\ L &= -m + \frac{1}{2}mv^2 + O(mv^4), \\ H &= m + \frac{1}{2}mv^2 + O(mv^4). \end{aligned}$$

The exact kinetic energy above rest is

$$K := H - m = m(\gamma - 1) \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}.$$

This and both expansions recover $mv^2/2$ at low speed after removal of the constant rest term.

8 Coordinates, frames, and differentiation

Fields have domain $\mathbb{R}^4$ (or an open coordinate region). The symbols ∂_t , ∂_r , ∂ , ∂^* , and $\square$ are differential operators. On a scalar field $f : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, $\partial_t f, \square f \in \mathbb{C}$, $\partial_r f \in \mathbb{C}^3$, and $\partial f, \partial^* f \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ pointwise. For real f , these outputs lie in the corresponding real spaces. On a paravector field, ∂ and ∂^* use algebra multiplication, so even a real input may have a complex output.

8.1 Paravector differential operators

Let $t \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{r} = \{r_1, r_2, r_3\} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ be real coordinates. Define their scalar and vector derivatives by

$$\partial_t := \frac{\partial}{\partial t}, \quad \partial_r := \left\{ \frac{\partial}{\partial r_1}, \frac{\partial}{\partial r_2}, \frac{\partial}{\partial r_3} \right\}.$$

Define the partial paravector and its sigma conjugate by [8, Eq. (176)]

$$\begin{aligned} \partial &:= \partial_t + \boldsymbol{\sigma} \cdot \partial_r = \partial_t + \sum_{n=1}^3 \sigma_n \frac{\partial}{\partial r_n}, \\ \partial^* &= \text{adj } \partial = \partial_t - \boldsymbol{\sigma} \cdot \partial_r. \end{aligned} \tag{8.1}$$

The sigma generators are constant. Derivatives act from the left on everything to their right unless parentheses specify their scope. For fields with commuting second derivatives, anticommutation cancels all mixed spatial terms:

$$\begin{aligned} (\boldsymbol{\sigma} \cdot \partial_r)^2 &= \sum_{n=1}^3 \frac{\partial^2}{\partial r_n^2} + \sum_{n < m} (\sigma_n \sigma_m + \sigma_m \sigma_n) \frac{\partial^2}{\partial r_n \partial r_m} \\ &= \partial_r \cdot \partial_r. \end{aligned}$$

The mixed time-space terms likewise cancel. Both orders therefore give the scalar d'Alembertian [8, Eq. (178)]

$$\partial \partial^* = \partial^* \partial = \partial_t^2 - \partial_r \cdot \partial_r =: \square. \tag{8.2}$$

These are operator identities: $\partial \partial^* \mathcal{Z}$ means $\partial(\partial^* \mathcal{Z})$.

8.2 Components and the product rule

Let $a, b : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be real scalar functions and $\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Y} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ real vector functions. They define the complex paravector field

$$\mathcal{Z}(t, \mathbf{r}) = (a + bi) + (\mathbf{X} + i\mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Ordered vector multiplication gives the real and imaginary scalar and vector parts of $\partial \mathcal{Z}$:

$$\begin{aligned} \partial \mathcal{Z} &= (\partial_t a + \partial_r \cdot \mathbf{X}) + i(\partial_t b + \partial_r \cdot \mathbf{Y}) \\ &\quad + (\partial_r a + \partial_t \mathbf{X} - \partial_r \times \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \\ &\quad + i(\partial_r b + \partial_r \times \mathbf{X} + \partial_t \mathbf{Y}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

Multiplication by i exchanges real and imaginary parts, with the former imaginary parts acquiring a minus sign.

Here $\mathbf{Z} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. For a second field $\mathbf{Z}' : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, the prime labels the field rather than a derivative. Apply the scalar product rule before reordering any factors:

$$\begin{aligned}\partial(\mathbf{Z}\mathbf{Z}') &= (\partial_t \mathbf{Z})\mathbf{Z}' + \mathbf{Z}(\partial_t \mathbf{Z}') \\ &\quad + \sum_{n=1}^3 \sigma_n \left(\frac{\partial \mathbf{Z}}{\partial r_n} \mathbf{Z}' + \mathbf{Z} \frac{\partial \mathbf{Z}'}{\partial r_n} \right) \\ &= (\partial \mathbf{Z})\mathbf{Z}' + \mathbf{Z}(\partial \mathbf{Z}') + \sum_{n=1}^3 [\sigma_n, \mathbf{Z}] \frac{\partial \mathbf{Z}'}{\partial r_n}.\end{aligned}$$

8.3 Flat spacetime in generalized coordinates

Here $(t, \mathbf{r})$ denote generalized real chart coordinates. Smooth functions $f : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{g} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$, restricted to a coordinate region, specify inertial coordinates through $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$:

$$\mathbf{X} = f(t, \mathbf{r}) + \mathbf{g}(t, \mathbf{r}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Along a future timelike path with proper time s , recall the real $\mathbf{U} = d\mathbf{X}/ds$, an [invertible paravector](#) with $\mathbf{U}\mathbf{U}^{-1} = 1$. Require the Jacobian of $(f, \mathbf{g})$ to be nonsingular. Differentiating gives

$$\begin{aligned}d\mathbf{X} &= (\partial_t f + \partial_t \mathbf{g} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) dt + \sum_{k=1}^3 (\partial_{r_k} f + \partial_{r_k} \mathbf{g} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) dr_k, \\ ds^2 &= d\mathbf{X} d\mathbf{X}^* = df^2 - d\mathbf{g}^2.\end{aligned}$$

With $x_0 = t$, $x_k = r_k$ and $\partial_k = \partial/\partial x_k$, the interval is $ds^2 = \sum_{j,k=0}^3 g_{jk} dx_j dx_k$, with $x_j, g_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}$ and metric matrix $(g_{jk}) \in \mathbb{R}^{4 \times 4}$:

$$g_{jk} = \partial_j f \partial_k f - \partial_j \mathbf{g} \cdot \partial_k \mathbf{g}, \quad j, k = 0, 1, 2, 3.$$

This is the flat Minkowski metric in changed coordinates; varying coefficients do not imply curvature. Along this future timelike curve, $df > 0$. Define its real inertial three-velocity $\mathbf{v} = d\mathbf{g}/df$ and $\gamma = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-v^2}}$, with $v^2 < 1$. Then

$$\begin{aligned}ds &= \sqrt{1-v^2} df, \\ \mathbf{U} &= \frac{d\mathbf{X}}{ds} = \gamma(1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).\end{aligned}$$

Apply (6.10) with inertial time f and coordinate acceleration $d\mathbf{v}/df$. For inertial motion, the scalar part gives $\mathbf{v} \cdot d\mathbf{v}/df = 0$, and its vector part then gives $d\mathbf{v}/df = 0$. Therefore

$$\mathbf{g} = \mathbf{C}_1 f + \mathbf{C}_2.$$

The real constants $\mathbf{C}_1, \mathbf{C}_2 \in \mathbb{R}^3$ are inertial velocity and position at inertial time $f = 0$, with $C_1^2 < 1$. Recall that overdots denote total derivatives along this curve with respect to the chart time t : $\dot{f} = df/dt$ and $\ddot{f} = d^2f/dt^2$, with the same convention for $\mathbf{g}$ and $\mathbf{v}$. Wherever $\dot{f} \neq 0$,

$$\dot{\mathbf{v}} = \frac{\ddot{\mathbf{g}}\dot{f} - \dot{\mathbf{g}}\ddot{f}}{\dot{f}^2}.$$

8.4 Varying frames and local bases

Use a fixed coordinate chart and let the local frame vary along a curve. Let $\mathcal{T}(s)$ be a smooth complex **invertible paravector** of **determinant one** along a real parameter s . When s is proper time, recall the real tangent $\mathcal{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds$, an **invertible paravector** with $\mathcal{U}\mathcal{U}^{-1} = 1$. Here $\mathcal{T}(s), \mathcal{Z}(s) \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Define $\Omega(s) := (d\mathcal{T}/ds)\mathcal{T}^{-1} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Its scalar part vanishes because $d(\det \mathcal{T})/ds = 2\text{sc}(\Omega) = 0$. The inverse rule gives

$$\frac{d\mathcal{T}^{-1}}{ds} = -\mathcal{T}^{-1}\Omega.$$

For a complex paravector $\mathcal{Z}(s)$ transformed by similarity, $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^{-1}$, product differentiation yields

$$\frac{d\mathcal{Z}'}{ds} = \mathcal{T} \frac{d\mathcal{Z}}{ds} \mathcal{T}^{-1} + [\Omega, \mathcal{Z}']. \quad (8.3)$$

Differentiating again and replacing $\mathcal{T}(d\mathcal{Z}/ds)\mathcal{T}^{-1}$ by its first-derivative expression gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{d^2\mathcal{Z}'}{ds^2} &= \mathcal{T} \frac{d^2\mathcal{Z}}{ds^2} \mathcal{T}^{-1} + 2 \left[\Omega, \frac{d\mathcal{Z}'}{ds} \right] \\ &\quad + \left[\frac{d\Omega}{ds}, \mathcal{Z}' \right] - [\Omega, [\Omega, \mathcal{Z}']]. \end{aligned}$$

For a real paravector transformed instead by congruence, $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{T}^H$, the same rule gives

$$\frac{d\mathcal{Z}'}{ds} = \mathcal{T} \frac{d\mathcal{Z}}{ds} \mathcal{T}^H + \Omega\mathcal{Z}' + \mathcal{Z}'\Omega^H. \quad (8.4)$$

Equations (8.3) and (8.4) include the frame terms omitted by a constant-factor transformation. For a varying rotation $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta(s)\mathbf{u}(s) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real $\theta(s)$ and **real unit vector** $\mathbf{u}(s)$, unitarity gives $\Omega^H = -\Omega$ and $\Omega \in \{0\} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$, so both formulas agree.

When s is proper time, the physical four-acceleration in the local frame is $\mathcal{T}(d\mathcal{U}/ds)\mathcal{T}^H$. In (8.4), $d\mathcal{U}'/ds$ also differentiates the frame; the two Ω terms account for this change. Likewise, differentiating the transformed event $\mathcal{X}'$ adds frame terms to its tangent. The similarity formula also gives the local algebra-basis law $\sigma'_k = \mathcal{T}\sigma_k\mathcal{T}^{-1}$, with

$$\frac{d\sigma'_k}{ds} = [\Omega, \sigma'_k], \quad k = 1, 2, 3.$$

This evolution preserves all generator products. A general complex local basis is nevertheless distinct from a real spacetime frame, whose vectors require the congruence law.

9 Electromagnetism

All coefficient fields depend on real inertial coordinates $(t, \mathbf{r})$. Combine the electric and magnetic fields $\mathbf{E}, \mathbf{B} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ into the complex field vector $\mathbf{F} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}^3$ and its scalar-free paravector $\mathcal{F} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ [5, Eq. (23)]:

$$\mathbf{F} := \mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}, \quad \mathcal{F} := \mathbf{F} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (9.1)$$

Combine the charge density $\rho : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and current density $\mathbf{J} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ into the real four-current paravector:

$$\mathcal{J} := \rho + \mathbf{J} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3, \quad \mathcal{J}^* = \rho - \mathbf{J} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

We use the paravector derivative of (8.1), with spatial gradient $\partial_{\mathbf{r}}$ and d'Alembertian $\square = \partial^* \partial = \partial_t^2 - \partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2$. The symbols ∂ , ∂^* , and $\square$ denote differential operators.

The dot/cross product (2.8) combines metric and orientation. With a spatial derivative it gives divergence and curl, packing the six real electromagnetic components into one complex field $\mathcal{F}$. The product explains the compact form; Maxwell dynamics remains physical input, derived from an action in Section 9.3.

9.1 Maxwell's equations and wave propagation

Maxwell's four equations are the single field law [8, Eq. (177)]:

$$\boxed{\partial \mathcal{F} = \mathcal{J}^*}. \quad (9.2)$$

The product rule expands its left side into

$$\begin{aligned} \partial \mathcal{F} = & \underbrace{\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{E}}_{\text{real scalar}} + \underbrace{i \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{B}}_{\text{imaginary scalar}} \\ & + \underbrace{(\partial_t \mathbf{E} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}_{\text{real vector}} \\ & + \underbrace{i(\partial_t \mathbf{B} + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{E}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}_{\text{imaginary vector}}. \end{aligned}$$

Equating the four parts gives [7, Eqs. (1.4)–(1.7)]:

$$\text{Real scalar: } \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{E} = \rho, \quad (9.3)$$

$$\text{Imaginary scalar: } \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{B} = 0, \quad (9.4)$$

$$\text{Real vector: } \partial_t \mathbf{E} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{B} = -\mathbf{J}, \quad (9.5)$$

$$\text{Imaginary vector: } \partial_t \mathbf{B} + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{E} = 0. \quad (9.6)$$

These are Gauss' electric and magnetic laws, Ampère–Maxwell's law, and Faraday's law. Applying ∂^* gives the sourced wave equation:

$$\partial^*(\partial \mathcal{F}) = \square \mathcal{F} = \partial^* \mathcal{J}^*.$$

Taking its star yields [8, Eq. (152)]:

$$\boxed{\square \mathcal{F}^* = \partial \mathcal{J}}. \quad (9.7)$$

Expanding the source derivative gives

$$\partial \mathcal{J} = (\partial_t \rho + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{J}) + (\partial_t \mathbf{J} + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \rho + i \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{J}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Because $\mathcal{F}$ is scalar-free, its real and imaginary scalar parts vanish. Matching all four parts gives [7, Eq. (1.1)]:

$$\text{Real scalar: } 0 = \partial_t \rho + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{J}, \quad (9.8)$$

$$\text{Imaginary scalar: } 0 = 0,$$

$$\text{Real vector: } \square \mathbf{E} = -\partial_t \mathbf{J} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \rho, \quad (9.9)$$

$$\text{Imaginary vector: } \square \mathbf{B} = \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{J}. \quad (9.10)$$

Equation (9.8) is charge conservation; (9.9) and (9.10) are the sourced field waves. In source-free vacuum, $\mathcal{J} = 0$ and $\square \mathcal{F} = 0$: both fields obey the free wave equation.

9.2 Potentials and gauge freedom

Combine the scalar potential $V : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and vector potential $\mathbf{A} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ into the real four-potential, and define its four-divergence:

$$\mathcal{A} := V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3, \quad S := \text{sc}(\partial \mathcal{A}) \in \mathbb{R}.$$

The product rule gives

$$\partial \mathcal{A} = (\partial_t V + \partial_r \cdot \mathbf{A}) + (\partial_t \mathbf{A} + \partial_r V) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + i(\partial_r \times \mathbf{A}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Subtracting its scalar part gives the field [7, p. 105]:

$$\boxed{\mathcal{F}^* = \partial \mathcal{A} - S.} \tag{9.11}$$

Thus $\partial \mathcal{A} = S + \mathcal{F}^* \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, with components:

$$\text{Real scalar: } S = \partial_t V + \partial_r \cdot \mathbf{A},$$

$$\text{Imaginary scalar: } 0 = 0,$$

$$\text{Real vector: } \mathbf{E} = -\partial_t \mathbf{A} - \partial_r V, \tag{9.12}$$

$$\text{Imaginary vector: } \mathbf{B} = \partial_r \times \mathbf{A}. \tag{9.13}$$

Equation (9.11) separates the four-divergence from the field; (9.12) and (9.13) satisfy (9.4) and (9.6) identically.

Applying ∂^* gives the source equations in any gauge:

$$\square \mathcal{A} = \partial^*(\partial \mathcal{A}) = \partial^*(S + \mathcal{F}^*) = \partial^* S + (\partial \mathcal{F})^*.$$

Using Maxwell's equation (9.2) gives [7, Eq. (6.1)]:

$$\boxed{\square \mathcal{A} = \partial^* S + \mathcal{J}.}$$

Separating scalar and vector parts gives

$$\text{Real scalar: } \square V - \partial_t S = \rho,$$

$$\text{Imaginary scalar: } 0 = 0,$$

$$\text{Real vector: } \square \mathbf{A} + \partial_r S = \mathbf{J},$$

$$\text{Imaginary vector: } \mathbf{0} = \mathbf{0}.$$

These source equations hold before gauge fixing. For a real gauge function $\lambda : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, let [7, Eq. (6.2)]:

$$\mathcal{A}' := \mathcal{A} + \partial^* \lambda.$$

Differentiating gives $\partial \mathcal{A}' = \partial \mathcal{A} + \square \lambda$. Only the scalar changes, so the field is gauge invariant:

$$S' = S + \square \lambda, \quad \mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{F}.$$

In the Lorenz gauge $S = 0$, the potential wave equations are [7, Eq. (6.4)]:

$$\text{Real scalar: } \square V = \rho,$$

$$\text{Real vector: } \square \mathbf{A} = \mathbf{J}.$$

9.3 The electromagnetic field action

For real scalar potential $V(t, \mathbf{r})$ and vector potential $\mathbf{A}(t, \mathbf{r})$, write $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. With prescribed conserved current $\mathcal{J} = \rho + \mathbf{J} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, Maxwell dynamics follows from the scalar Lagrangian density $L : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ [7, Eq. (5.42)] [7, Eq. (5.43)]

$$L = \frac{1}{2} \text{re}(\mathcal{F}^2) - \text{sc}(\mathcal{A}^* \mathcal{J}) = \frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{E}^2 - \mathbf{B}^2) - \rho V + \mathbf{J} \cdot \mathbf{A}. \quad (9.14)$$

For boundary-vanishing variations $\delta V \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\delta \mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, the induced field variations $\delta \mathbf{E}, \delta \mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ satisfy

$$\begin{aligned} \delta \mathbf{E} &= -\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \delta V - \partial_t \delta \mathbf{A}, \\ \delta \mathbf{B} &= \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \delta \mathbf{A}. \end{aligned}$$

Integration by parts gives

$$\delta \int L \, dt \, d^3 \mathbf{r} = \int ((\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{E} - \rho) \delta V + (\partial_t \mathbf{E} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{B} + \mathbf{J}) \cdot \delta \mathbf{A}) \, dt \, d^3 \mathbf{r}.$$

Independent variations give (9.3) and (9.5); the potential identities supply (9.4) and (9.6). Together they recover (9.2).

9.4 Field invariants

Since $\mathcal{F} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, its adjugate is $-\mathcal{F}$. Its square is a complex scalar, $\mathcal{F}^2 \in \mathbb{C}$ [3, p. 106]

$$\mathcal{F}^2 = -\det \mathcal{F} = \mathbf{E}^2 - \mathbf{B}^2 + 2i\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B}. \quad (9.15)$$

For a complex invertible paravector $\mathcal{T}$, the field similarity $\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{T} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{T}^{-1}$ preserves this scalar by (5.1). Physical rotations and boosts use $\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ and $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, respectively, with real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$ and real angle or rapidity θ ; their field laws are derived in Section 15. The real and imaginary parts of (9.15) are therefore observer-independent. At a point with a nonzero field, they give the classification

Condition	Consequence
$\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B} = 0, \mathbf{E}^2 > \mathbf{B}^2$	Some frame has $\mathbf{B}' = 0$.
$\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B} = 0, \mathbf{E}^2 < \mathbf{B}^2$	Some frame has $\mathbf{E}' = 0$.
$\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B} \neq 0$	Neither field can be eliminated.
$\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B} = 0, \mathbf{E}^2 = \mathbf{B}^2$	Null field: equal, perpendicular fields.

For the first two rows, choose respectively

$$\tanh \theta \mathbf{u} = \frac{\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{B}}{\mathbf{E}^2}, \quad \tanh \theta \mathbf{u} = \frac{\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{B}}{\mathbf{B}^2}.$$

Both speeds are less than one. Substitution in (15.6) and (15.7) gives $\mathbf{B}' = 0$ and $\mathbf{E}' = 0$, respectively.

9.5 Lorentz force from the action

Recall that a dot is a total derivative along the particle's path with respect to coordinate time t , for example $\dot{\mathbf{P}} = d\mathbf{P}/dt$. The field derivatives ∂_t are partial derivatives at fixed position.

Recall the real four-velocity $\mathbf{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds = \gamma(1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})$, an [invertible paravector](#) with $\mathbf{U}\mathbf{U}^{-1} = 1$. Let $q \in \mathbb{R}$ be charge and $m > 0$ constant mass. The real momentum is $\mathbf{P} = m\mathbf{U} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $E = m\gamma$ and $\mathbf{P} = m\gamma\mathbf{v}$. The real particle Lagrangian L is fixed by the action [\[7, Eq. \(5.41\)\]](#)

$$\int L dt = -m \int ds - q \int \text{sc}(\mathcal{A}^*\mathbf{U}) ds. \quad (9.16)$$

Since $\text{sc}(\mathcal{A}^*\mathbf{U}) = \gamma(V - \mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{A})$, the Lagrangian is

$$L = -m/\gamma - qV + q\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{A}.$$

Its Euler–Lagrange terms are

$$\begin{aligned} \partial_v L &= \mathbf{P} + q\mathbf{A}, \\ \frac{d(\partial_v L)}{dt} &= \dot{\mathbf{P}} + q\partial_t \mathbf{A} + q(\mathbf{v} \cdot \partial_r) \mathbf{A}, \\ \partial_r L &= -q\partial_r V + q\partial_r(\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{A}). \end{aligned}$$

Here spatial differentiation holds the independent velocity argument fixed. Using $\partial_r(\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{A}) - (\mathbf{v} \cdot \partial_r) \mathbf{A} = \mathbf{v} \times (\partial_r \times \mathbf{A})$ gives [\[7, Eq. \(5.32\)\]](#)

$$\dot{\mathbf{P}} = q(\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}). \quad (9.17)$$

Here (9.12) and (9.13) turn the potential derivatives into the fields. The Hamiltonian is

$$H = \mathbf{v} \cdot (\mathbf{P} + q\mathbf{A}) - L = E + qV. \quad (9.18)$$

Using (7.14) in (9.18),

$$\dot{E} + q\partial_t V + q\mathbf{v} \cdot \partial_r V = -\partial_t L = q\partial_t V - q\mathbf{v} \cdot \partial_t \mathbf{A}.$$

Canceling $q\partial_t V$ and using (9.12) gives [\[7, p. 116\]](#)

$$\dot{E} = q\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E}. \quad (9.19)$$

This is the mechanical work rate. Thus $\mathbf{P} + q\mathbf{A}$ and $H = E + qV$ are canonical momentum and energy. The momentum $\mathbf{P}$ is kinetic (also called mechanical); the particle energy E includes rest energy and excludes the potential energy qV . Canonical energy is conserved for static potentials in the chosen gauge. A time-dependent gauge transformation can change H while leaving E and the force unchanged.

Now expand the complex product of the field and four-velocity:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\mathcal{F}\mathbf{U}}{\gamma} &= \mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E} + (\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \\ &\quad + i(\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{B} + (\mathbf{B} - \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{E}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}). \end{aligned} \quad (9.20)$$

The real scalar and vector parts reproduce (9.19) and (9.17). Since $\mathbf{P}$ is real and $d/ds = \gamma d/dt$, they combine into [\[10, Eq. \(2\)\]](#)

$$\boxed{\frac{d\mathbf{P}}{ds} = q \text{re}(\mathcal{F}\mathbf{U}) = \frac{q}{2}(\mathcal{F}\mathbf{U} + \mathbf{U}\mathcal{F}^\dagger).} \quad (9.21)$$

Hermitian extraction enforces real kinetic four-momentum and reproduces the action-derived force. The imaginary part need not vanish for an electric charge.

9.6 Acceleration and the mass shell

Recall the real four-velocity $\mathbf{U} = d\mathbf{x}/ds$, an [invertible paravector](#) with $\mathbf{U}\mathbf{U}^{-1} = 1$ and $\mathbf{U}^{-1} = \mathbf{U}^*$, real momentum $\mathbf{P} = m\mathbf{U}$, and coordinate acceleration $\dot{\mathbf{v}} = d\mathbf{v}/dt$. Scalar-part cyclicity proves tangency to the mass shell:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{sc}(\mathbf{U}^* d\mathbf{P}/ds) &= \frac{q}{2} \text{sc}(\mathbf{U}^* \mathcal{F}\mathbf{U} + \mathcal{F}^H) \\ &= \frac{q}{2} (\text{sc}(\mathcal{F}) + \text{sc}(\mathcal{F}^H)) = 0. \end{aligned}$$

This agrees with $\text{sc}(\mathbf{U}^* d\mathbf{U}/ds) = 0$ in Section 6.4. Combining (6.10) with the force components in (9.20) gives

$$\begin{aligned} m\gamma^3 \mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}} &= q\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E}, \\ m\gamma (\dot{\mathbf{v}} + \gamma^2(\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}})\mathbf{v}) &= q(\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B}). \end{aligned}$$

Eliminating $\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}}$ yields the coordinate acceleration

$$\dot{\mathbf{v}} = \frac{q}{m\gamma} (\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B} - (\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E})\mathbf{v}).$$

The magnetic term changes momentum without doing work. Taking the determinant of the real force gives

$$\begin{aligned} -\det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{P}}{ds}\right) &= -m^2 \det\left(\frac{d\mathbf{U}}{ds}\right) \\ &= q^2 \gamma^2 ((\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B})^2 - (\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E})^2). \end{aligned}$$

Dividing by m^2 gives the invariant squared proper acceleration. The factor $\gamma^2((\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{v} \times \mathbf{B})^2 - (\mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{E})^2)$ is the squared electric field in the particle's instantaneous rest frame.

9.7 Energy and momentum flux

Recall $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. Its Hermitian product is [8, Eq. (180)]

$$\frac{1}{2} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{F}^H = \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{E}^2 + \mathbf{B}^2) + (\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

Define $u = (\mathbf{E}^2 + \mathbf{B}^2)/2 \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ and the Poynting vector $\mathbf{S} = \mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. These coefficients are frame-dependent, whereas $\mathcal{F}^2$ contains the Lorentz invariants. The full stress–energy tensor is represented by the real linear map [8, Eq. (167)]

$$T(\mathcal{N}) := \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{N} \mathcal{F}^H, \tag{9.22}$$

Here $T : \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ is a real-linear map, with $\mathcal{N} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$; T denotes the stress map, not a frame factor. Its time-direction value is $T(1) = u + \mathbf{S} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. It is future causal because $u \geq 0$ and

$$\det(T(1)) = u^2 - \mathbf{S}^2 = \frac{1}{4} \|\det \mathcal{F}\|^2 \geq 0.$$

Equality holds for null fields. Reversing the order gives $\mathcal{F}^H \mathcal{F} = (\mathcal{F} \mathcal{F}^H)^*$: the same energy density and opposite flux. The transformation of the full map is derived in Section 15.

Using Maxwell's vector equations,

$$\begin{aligned}\partial_t u &= \mathbf{E} \cdot (\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{B} - \mathbf{J}) - \mathbf{B} \cdot (\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{E}) \\ &= -\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{S} - \mathbf{J} \cdot \mathbf{E},\end{aligned}$$

where $\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot (\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{B}) = \mathbf{B} \cdot (\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{E}) - \mathbf{E} \cdot (\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{B})$. Thus Poynting's energy-balance law is [7, Eq. (5.45)]

$$\partial_t u + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{S} = -\mathbf{J} \cdot \mathbf{E}. \quad (9.23)$$

Equivalently, the left side is $\frac{1}{2} \partial_t \text{sc}(\mathcal{F}\mathcal{F}^H) + \frac{1}{2} \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \text{vec}(\mathcal{F}\mathcal{F}^H)$. The term $\mathbf{J} \cdot \mathbf{E}$ is the power delivered to matter per unit volume.

10 Quantum amplitudes and differential operators

Here $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ has real coordinates $(t, \mathbf{r}) \in \mathbb{R}^4$, $m > 0$ is mass, $q \in \mathbb{R}$ is charge, and $\hbar = c = 1$. Amplitudes are complex functions of these real coordinates; their scalar or paravector type is specified below.

10.1 Spinor amplitudes and probability density

All products and norms here act on paravector values at one real event $\mathcal{X}$. They sum algebra components only; no spatial integration is implied. For $\varphi, \psi \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, their algebraic inner product is $\langle \varphi | \psi \rangle := \text{sc}(\varphi^H \psi) \in \mathbb{C}$. Two entries separated by a vertical bar denote this inner product; one entry in angle brackets denotes a normalized expectation below.

For arbitrary constant perpendicular **real unit vectors** $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{a}$, choose a constant complex paravector ψ_+ of unit norm with $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_+ = \psi_+$, and set $\psi_- = (\mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_+$. Then

$$(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_{\pm} = \pm \psi_{\pm}. \quad (10.1)$$

The pair is orthonormal: $\text{sc}(\psi_a^H \psi_b) = \delta_{ab}$ for $a, b = +, -$. A Pauli amplitude or either Dirac entry is [11, Eq. (69a)]

$$\psi(t, \mathbf{r}) = c_+(t, \mathbf{r})\psi_+ + c_-(t, \mathbf{r})\psi_-. \quad (10.2)$$

Here $c_+, c_- : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, and pointwise

$$\psi \in \text{span}_{\mathbb{C}}\{\psi_+, \psi_-\} \subset \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3.$$

This fixed two-dimensional complex subspace is a left ideal: left multiplication by any paravector preserves it. It is represented by $\mathbb{C}^2$, not the full four-complex-dimensional paravector space. Here $\psi_{\pm}$ denote constant basis elements; in the Dirac sections they denote fields taking values in this same ideal. Left multiplication by $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ or $\mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ preserves this two-component form; these generate all paravector left actions. The matrix verification is in Appendix A.5.

The local squared norm $\rho : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ is [12, Eq. (1.1a)]

$$\rho := \|\psi\|^2 = \text{sc}(\psi^H \psi) \geq 0. \quad (10.3)$$

This ρ denotes probability density, distinct from charge density in the electromagnetic sections. Orthonormality gives $\rho = \|c_+\|^2 + \|c_-\|^2$. For a Pauli wavefunction normalized to unit total probability, this is its position density; Dirac uses the sum over its two entries. Total spatial normalization is separate from the pointwise norm. This probability interpretation does not apply to an arbitrary scalar KG field.

10.2 Weighted densities and local expectations

Let $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ be real ($\mathcal{Z}^\text{H} = \mathcal{Z}$), with $c \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. It acts by multiplication, not differentiation. For $\mathbf{Z} \neq 0$, take the real unit vector $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{Z}/\|\mathbf{Z}\|$ and recall the projectors $\Pi_\pm = (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$ from Section 3.2. Their spectral decomposition gives

$$\text{sc}(\psi^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \psi) = (c + \|\mathbf{Z}\|)\|\Pi_+ \psi\|^2 + (c - \|\mathbf{Z}\|)\|\Pi_- \psi\|^2. \quad (10.4)$$

For $\mathbf{Z} = 0$, this reduces to $c\|\psi\|^2$. Thus the product is nonnegative for every ψ exactly when $c \geq \|\mathbf{Z}\|$. For such a *nonnegative weight*, define

$$\|\psi\|_{\mathcal{Z}}^2 := \text{sc}(\psi^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \psi) = \|\sqrt{\mathcal{Z}} \psi\|^2 \geq 0. \quad (10.5)$$

The square root has nonnegative eigenvalues, as in Section 3. For $\mathcal{Z} = 1$, this is ρ . It is a true squared norm when $c > \|\mathbf{Z}\|$; at equality it can vanish for nonzero ψ , so the notation then denotes a weighted density. Projectors are an important example. Reality alone is insufficient: $\mathcal{Z} = -1$ gives $\text{sc}(\psi^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \psi) = -\rho$.

Local expectations. For $\rho > 0$ and $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ acting by multiplication, define the scalar expectation $\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_\psi \in \mathbb{C}$ [13, Eq. (6.1)]

$$\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_\psi := \frac{\text{sc}(\psi^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \psi)}{\rho}. \quad (10.6)$$

For real $\mathcal{Z}$, this is real and may have either sign. Dividing (10.4) by ρ shows its meaning: it averages the two eigenvalues with their projected probabilities. For fields this mean is conditional on position; it is not a spatial average. A whole-wavefunction expectation additionally requires spatial weighting. The same formula extends linearly to complex $\mathcal{Z}$, including commutators. For a nonnegative weight, $\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_\psi = \|\psi\|_{\mathcal{Z}}^2/\rho$. For a projector, this ratio is a Born probability.

Transforming the amplitude. For a constant complex *invertible paravector* $\mathcal{T}$, set $\psi' = \mathcal{T}\psi$. For a nonnegative weight $\mathcal{Z}$, substitution gives

$$\|\psi'\|_{\mathcal{Z}}^2 = \text{sc}(\psi^\text{H} \mathcal{T}^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{T} \psi) = \|\psi\|_{\mathcal{T}^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{T}}^2. \quad (10.7)$$

This also proves that the transformed weight is nonnegative. The same substitution in (10.6) applies to any complex $\mathcal{Z}$. With $\rho' = \|\psi'\|^2 > 0$, it gives

$$\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_{\psi'} = \frac{\rho}{\rho'} \langle \mathcal{T}^\text{H} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{T} \rangle_\psi. \quad (10.8)$$

For $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real angle θ and real unit $\mathbf{u}$, unitarity preserves both $\rho' = \rho$ and $\langle \varphi' | \psi' \rangle = \langle \varphi | \psi \rangle$. For $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real rapidity θ , this one-sided law instead gives $\rho' = \|\psi\|_{\mathcal{L}^2}^2$; the norm and inner product are generally not invariant. The two Dirac entries use opposite boost factors, as derived in Section 15.

10.3 Energy and momentum as differential operators

Recall $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with real coordinates $(t, \mathbf{r}) \in \mathbb{R}^4$. Reverting to SI units for the following wave relations, retain Planck's constant $h > 0$ and $\hbar = h/(2\pi)$. For a free wave, let $\omega \in \mathbb{R}$ be angular frequency in radians per second, and let $\mathbf{k} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ be its wavenumber vector in cycles per metre. For $\mathbf{k} \neq 0$, the wavelength $\lambda > 0$ satisfies $\|\mathbf{k}\| = 1/\lambda$.

The physical input is the Planck–Einstein energy relation and de Broglie momentum relation [14, p. 248] [14, p. 249]:

$$\boxed{E = \hbar\omega}_{\text{SI}}, \quad (10.9)$$

$$\boxed{\mathbf{P} = \hbar\mathbf{k}}_{\text{SI}}. \quad (10.10)$$

Here $E \in \mathbb{R}$ is total energy in joules, including rest energy, and $\mathbf{P} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ is momentum in kg m s^{-1} . Photoelectric measurements test the energy relation [15, p. 62]; electron diffraction tests the momentum relation [14, p. 255].

For constant E and $\mathbf{P}$, with time t in seconds and position $\mathbf{r}$ in metres, the complex scalar plane wave is

$$f(t, \mathbf{r}) := \exp(-i(\omega t - 2\pi\mathbf{k} \cdot \mathbf{r})),$$

$$\boxed{f(t, \mathbf{r}) = \exp\left(-\frac{i}{\hbar}(Et - \mathbf{P} \cdot \mathbf{r})\right)}_{\text{SI}}.$$

The second line substitutes (10.9) and (10.10). Differentiating gives

$$\boxed{+i\hbar\partial_t f = Ef}_{\text{SI}},$$

$$\boxed{-i\hbar\partial_{\mathbf{r}} f = \mathbf{P}f}_{\text{SI}}.$$

These operators represent energy and momentum on each mode and extend to superpositions by linearity. Returning to natural units $\hbar = c = 1$ gives $h = 2\pi$. We use $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $\mathcal{P} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, obtaining [16, Eq. (4.104)]

$$f(\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{P}) = \exp(-i(Et - \mathbf{P} \cdot \mathbf{r})). \quad (10.11)$$

The two eigenvalue equations combine into

$$i\partial^* f = \mathcal{P}f. \quad (10.12)$$

Define the canonical energy and momentum operators by

$$\hat{E} := +i\partial_t,$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{P}} := -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}}, \quad (10.13)$$

which combine to form the canonical four-momentum operator:

$$\hat{\mathcal{P}} := i\partial^* = \hat{E} + \hat{\mathbf{P}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (10.14)$$

Here $\hat{E}$ is a scalar differential operator, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}$ is a triple of scalar differential operators, and $\hat{\mathcal{P}}$ is a paravector differential operator. These act on fields, not elements of the numerical coefficient spaces.

On a smooth scalar field ψ , the pointwise outputs satisfy $\hat{E}\psi \in \mathbb{C}$, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}\psi \in \mathbb{C}^3$, and $\hat{\mathcal{P}}\psi \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. On spinor fields, $\hat{\mathcal{P}}$ preserves the fixed ideal of (10.2). The coupled operators have the same types. In a field, recall the real potential paravector $\mathcal{A}(t, \mathbf{r}) = V(t, \mathbf{r}) + \mathbf{A}(t, \mathbf{r}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$: $V : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{A} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{A} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. Within the coupling formulas, subscript 0 labels the uncoupled operators of (10.13):

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{E}_0 &:= +i\partial_t, \\ \hat{\mathbf{P}}_0 &:= -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}}, \\ \hat{\mathcal{P}}_0 &:= i\partial^*.\end{aligned}$$

The charge is $q \in \mathbb{R}$. The particle action gives canonical energy $E + qV$ and momentum $\mathbf{P} + q\mathbf{A}$; identifying them with translation operators defines the gauge-covariant energy and kinetic momentum operators [12, Eqs. (2.11)–(2.12)]:

$$\hat{E}_q := \hat{E}_0 - qV, \quad (10.15)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q := \hat{\mathbf{P}}_0 - q\mathbf{A}, \quad (10.16)$$

which combine to form the kinetic four-momentum operator:

$$\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q := \hat{\mathcal{P}}_0 - q\mathcal{A} = \hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (10.17)$$

Here $\hat{E}_q$ includes rest energy and excludes the potential energy qV . Hats distinguish named differential operators from physical values and mode eigenvalues $E, \mathbf{P}$. The derivative symbols ∂ , $\partial_{\mathbf{r}}$, and $\square$ remain unhatted. Fields obtained by differentiating potentials are coefficient fields, not differential operators. The operators act to the right. The adjugate of $\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q$ reverses the vector part without conjugating i . Operator order matters in a field; an ordinary paravector determinant cannot replace their product. The canonical operators commute, giving

$$\hat{\mathcal{P}} \operatorname{adj}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) = \det \hat{\mathcal{P}} = \hat{E}^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}^2 = -\square. \quad (10.18)$$

Reversing the order gives the same result.

10.4 Field strength from noncommuting derivatives

Recall the real electric and magnetic fields from (9.12) and (9.13), and $S = \partial_t V + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{A}$, the real scalar in (9.11). The real potential is $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$; $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is a complex vector paravector.

Apply the operators to a differentiable complex amplitude. The product rule cancels all derivatives of the amplitude in the commutators; writing $\hat{P}_{q,j} := (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q)_j$ for Cartesian components $j, k = 1, 2, 3$,

$$\begin{aligned}[\hat{E}_q, \hat{P}_{q,j}] &= -iq(\partial_t \mathcal{A}_j + \partial_j V) = iqE_j, \\ [\hat{P}_{q,j}, \hat{P}_{q,k}] &= iq(\partial_j \mathcal{A}_k - \partial_k \mathcal{A}_j), \\ \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \times \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q &= iq\mathbf{B}.\end{aligned}$$

Sigma multiplication and the energy commutator consequently give [12, Eq. (2.13)] [12, p. 6]

$$(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (10.19)$$

$$[\hat{E}_q, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] = iq\mathbf{E} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \quad (10.20)$$

Here E_j is an electric-field component. Reversing the commutator order and combining the electric and magnetic terms also gives

$$\begin{aligned} [\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \hat{E}_q] &= -iq\mathbf{E} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + iq\mathcal{F} &= (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 - [\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \hat{E}_q]. \end{aligned}$$

Using (10.19) and (10.20) in the ordered products gives

$$\begin{aligned} (\hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= \hat{E}_q^2 - (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 - [\hat{E}_q, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] \\ &= \hat{E}_q^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - iq\mathcal{F}, \end{aligned} \quad (10.21)$$

$$\begin{aligned} (\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(\hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) &= \hat{E}_q^2 - (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 + [\hat{E}_q, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] \\ &= \hat{E}_q^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - iq\mathcal{F}^*. \end{aligned} \quad (10.22)$$

Their common scalar part gives KG; the vector terms give the Dirac spin coupling.

11 The Klein–Gordon equation

11.1 The mass shell as a wave equation

Let $\psi : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ be a scalar field of constant mass $m \in \mathbb{R}_{>0}$. The spacetime derivation in Section 6 gives the real momentum $\mathcal{P} = m\mathcal{U} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ and its mass shell $\det \mathcal{P} = E^2 - \mathbf{P}^2 = m^2$. Represent $E \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{P} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ by the translation operators $\hat{E} = i\partial_t$ and $\hat{\mathbf{P}} = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}}$ from (10.13). Imposing the mass shell on the scalar wavefunction gives

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= (\det \hat{\mathcal{P}} - m^2)\psi \\ &= (\hat{E}^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}^2 - m^2)\psi \\ &= (-\partial_t^2 + \partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2 - m^2)\psi \\ &= -(\square + m^2)\psi. \end{aligned}$$

Here the free coefficients commute, so the operator determinant is the scalar operator in (10.18). This yields the Klein–Gordon equation [16, Eq. (1.13)]:

$$\boxed{(\square + m^2)\psi = 0.} \quad (11.1)$$

11.2 Positive and negative frequency

Recall the complex scalar field $\psi(t, \mathbf{r})$ and real mass $m > 0$. Here the branch fields $\psi_{\pm} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ are scalars, not Dirac entries. Define the positive scalar operator

$$\hat{\Omega} := \sqrt{m^2 - \partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2}, \quad \hat{\Omega}^2 = \det(m + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

Since $\hat{\Omega}$ commutes with ∂_t , KG factors as

$$\square + m^2 = \partial_t^2 + \hat{\Omega}^2 = (\partial_t - i\hat{\Omega})(\partial_t + i\hat{\Omega}).$$

The reverse product is the same. Its two frequency branches obey

$$(\partial_t \pm i\hat{\Omega})\psi_{\pm} = 0, \quad \psi_{\pm}(t, \mathbf{r}) = e^{\mp i\hat{\Omega}t} \psi_{\pm}(0, \mathbf{r}).$$

Their sum gives the general solution:

$$\boxed{\psi(t, \mathbf{r}) = e^{-i\hat{\Omega}t} \psi_+(0, \mathbf{r}) + e^{i\hat{\Omega}t} \psi_-(0, \mathbf{r})}. \quad (11.2)$$

The two initial data determine its complex branch fields by

$$\psi_{\pm}(0, \mathbf{r}) = \frac{1}{2} \left(\psi(0, \mathbf{r}) \pm i\hat{\Omega}^{-1} \partial_t \psi(0, \mathbf{r}) \right).$$

11.3 Square roots from Fourier series

For spatially periodic free KG solutions, write the discrete Fourier series

$$\psi = \sum_n c_n f_n, \quad f_n(t, \mathbf{r}) = \exp(i(\omega_n t + 2\pi \mathbf{k}_n \cdot \mathbf{r})).$$

Here n labels modes, $c_n \in \mathbb{C}$ are constant coefficients, $\omega_n \in \mathbb{R}$ are signed angular phase frequencies, and $\mathbf{k}_n \in \mathbb{R}^3$ are wavenumber vectors in cycles per unit length. For $\mathbf{k}_n \neq 0$, its real wavelength $\lambda_n > 0$ satisfies $\|\mathbf{k}_n\| = 1/\lambda_n$. By (10.10), the mode momentum is $2\pi \mathbf{k}_n$ in our units. The $+\omega_n t$ convention gives energy eigenvalue $-\omega_n$. Differentiation gives

$$\begin{aligned} \square \psi &= \sum_n (4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2 - \omega_n^2) c_n f_n, \\ (\square + m^2) \psi &= \sum_n (4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2 + m^2 - \omega_n^2) c_n f_n. \end{aligned}$$

Thus each nonzero KG coefficient requires

$$\omega_n^2 = 4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2 + m^2, \quad \omega_n = \pm \sqrt{4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2 + m^2}.$$

Both signs are independent modes [16, pp. 33–34]; no common time period is assumed. A square-root operator acts on the same coefficients by

$$\sqrt{\square} \psi = \sum_n \sqrt{4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2 - \omega_n^2} c_n f_n.$$

Choose one square-root branch consistently. Squaring restores $\square$, giving

$$\square + m^2 = (m - i\sqrt{\square})(m + i\sqrt{\square}).$$

For the positive spatial root, the same series gives

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{\Omega}^2 \psi &= \sum_n (m^2 + 4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2) c_n f_n, \\ \hat{\Omega} \psi &= \sum_n \sqrt{m^2 + 4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2} c_n f_n. \end{aligned}$$

Thus $e^{\mp i\hat{\Omega}t}$ multiplies each spatial mode by $e^{\mp i\sqrt{m^2 + 4\pi^2 \mathbf{k}_n^2} t}$. Unlike $\hat{\Omega}$, $\sqrt{\square}$ has imaginary eigenvalues on KG modes; its branch does not select the frequency sign.

11.4 Electromagnetic coupling

Recall the real potentials $V, \mathbf{A}$, charge q , and coupled operators $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}$. The real potential paravector is $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with real scalar $S = \partial_t V + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{A}$. The scalar equation in a field is [17, Eq. (299)]

$$\boxed{(-\hat{E}_q^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2)\psi = 0.} \quad (11.3)$$

The mass-shell equation uses the scalar part $\hat{E}_q^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2$ of (10.21) or (10.22). The product rule gives

$$\hat{E}_q^2 = -\partial_t^2 - iq(\partial_t V) - 2iqV\partial_t + q^2 V^2, \quad (11.4)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 = -\partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2 + iq(\partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{A}) + 2iq\mathbf{A} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{r}} + q^2 \mathbf{A}^2. \quad (11.5)$$

Substituting (11.4) and (11.5) into (11.3) gives

$$\boxed{(\square + iqS - q^2 \det \mathcal{A} + m^2 + 2iq(V\partial_t + \mathbf{A} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{r}}))\psi = 0.}$$

All potential derivatives are retained.

12 The Dirac equation

12.1 Block form and free factorization

Recall $m > 0$ and real space–time coordinates $(t, \mathbf{r})$. In the Weyl representation, a Dirac field is the two-entry block

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}(t, \mathbf{r}) = \begin{Bmatrix} \psi_+(t, \mathbf{r}) \\ \psi_-(t, \mathbf{r}) \end{Bmatrix}.$$

Each entry takes values in the same fixed two-dimensional complex left ideal of $\mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ from (10.2). Each has coordinates in $\mathbb{C}^2$, so the block has coordinates in $\mathbb{C}^4$. On blocks, Hermitian conjugation also transposes entries; sigma conjugation acts entrywise. Summing the two local squared norms gives the nonnegative real density [16, Eqs. (4.97)–(4.99)]

$$\|\boldsymbol{\psi}\|^2 = \text{sc}\left(\boldsymbol{\psi}_+^H \boldsymbol{\psi}_+\right) + \text{sc}\left(\boldsymbol{\psi}_-^H \boldsymbol{\psi}_-\right). \quad (12.1)$$

For $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, define the complex-linear block map

$$\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z}) := \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z}) \\ \mathcal{Z} & 0 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (12.2)$$

In spinor coordinates, $\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})$ and $\mathbf{I}$ are matrices in $\mathbb{C}^{4 \times 4}$. For differential-operator arguments, $\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}})$, $\hat{\mathbf{D}}$, and $\hat{\mathbf{D}}_q$ are instead matrix differential operators on four-component fields. Here $\mathbf{I}$ is the two-entry block identity, represented by $\mathbf{I}_4$. Applying $\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})$ twice multiplies the first entry by $\text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})\mathcal{Z}$ and the second by $\mathcal{Z}\text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})$. Both products are the paravector determinant, so

$$\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})^2 = \det(\mathcal{Z})\mathbf{I}.$$

Sigma conjugation on each block entry gives $\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})^* = \mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z}^*)$; Hermitian conjugation also transposes the block:

$$\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})^H = \mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z}^*).$$

Thus $\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})$ is not generally Hermitian. For operator arguments, adj reverses the vector part without reordering derivatives. For the free field ($q = 0$), use the canonical operators in (10.13). The block map and Dirac operator are

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) &= \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \text{adj}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) \\ \hat{\mathcal{P}} & 0 \end{Bmatrix}, \\ \hat{D}(m) &:= \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) - m\mathbf{I}, \\ \hat{D}(-m) &= \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) + m\mathbf{I}.\end{aligned}\tag{12.3}$$

The Dirac equation is [16, Eq. (4.51)]

$$\boxed{\hat{D}(m)\psi = 0.}\tag{12.4}$$

Using $\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}})^2 = (\det \hat{\mathcal{P}})\mathbf{I} = -\square\mathbf{I}$ from (10.18), multiplication by the opposite-mass operator gives [16, Eqs. (4.53)–(4.54)]

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{D}(m)\hat{D}(-m) &= \hat{D}(-m)\hat{D}(m) \\ &= \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}})^2 - m^2\mathbf{I} = -(\square + m^2)\mathbf{I}.\end{aligned}\tag{12.5}$$

Thus every free Dirac solution satisfies the wave form of the mass shell $\det \mathcal{P} = E^2 - \mathbf{P}^2 = m^2$ in (6.8):

$$(\det \hat{\mathcal{P}} - m^2)\psi = 0 \iff (\square + m^2)\psi = 0.$$

The original first-order constraint is the coupled pair [16, Eq. (4.108)]

$$i\partial\psi_- = (\hat{E} - \hat{\mathbf{P}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_- = m\psi_+, \tag{12.6}$$

$$i\partial^*\psi_+ = (\hat{E} + \hat{\mathbf{P}} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_+ = m\psi_-. \tag{12.7}$$

On one Fourier mode, let $s \in \mathbb{C}$ satisfy $\hat{D}(m)\psi = s\psi$ for a nonzero amplitude. Here $\square$ denotes its scalar mode eigenvalue. Since $\hat{D}(m) + m\mathbf{I} = \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}})$, (12.5) gives

$$(\hat{D}(m) + m\mathbf{I})^2\psi = -\square\psi \implies ((s + m)^2 + \square)\psi = 0.$$

Thus the eigenvalues are

$$s = -m \pm i\sqrt{\square}.$$

When distinct, each allows two independent complex coefficients in ψ_+ , with $\psi_- = i\partial^*\psi_+/(s + m)$. Each root therefore occurs twice, giving the scalar characteristic equation

$$\boxed{((s + m)^2 + \square)^2 = 0.}\tag{12.8}$$

At $\square = 0$ the roots coalesce with total algebraic multiplicity four. For KG modes, $\square = -m^2$, so $s = 0, -2m$; the Dirac equation selects $s = 0$. The matrix verification is (A.14).

12.2 Reconstructing free solutions from Klein–Gordon

Let $\psi' : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ solve KG and recall the constant basis amplitude ψ_+ . For constants $a, b \in \mathbb{C}$, a two-constant construction is

$$\psi = \frac{1}{m} \begin{Bmatrix} ma + ib\partial \\ ia\partial^* + mb \end{Bmatrix} \psi' \psi_+. \quad (12.9)$$

Substituting (12.9) into (12.6) and (12.7) gives

$$\begin{aligned} i\partial\psi_- - m\psi_+ &= -\frac{a}{m}(\square + m^2)\psi' \psi_+ = 0, \\ i\partial^*\psi_+ - m\psi_- &= -\frac{b}{m}(\square + m^2)\psi' \psi_+ = 0. \end{aligned}$$

Taking $a = 1, b = 0$ gives one scalar-seeded solution. To span every Dirac field, instead let ψ have the form (10.2), with both scalar coefficients solving KG. Then

$$\boxed{\psi = \begin{Bmatrix} \psi \\ i\partial^*\psi/m \end{Bmatrix}.} \quad (12.10)$$

The second Dirac equation holds by construction; the first is KG. Conversely, every massive free solution has this form with $\psi = \psi_+$. Equation (11.2) evolves its two coefficients.

12.3 Potential and paravector components

Recall the real $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, real charge q , and $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}$. The kinetic four-momentum is $\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q = \hat{\mathcal{P}}_0 - q\mathcal{A}$ from (10.17). For the fixed potential $\mathcal{A}$ and charge q , use the interacting Dirac operator

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{D}_q(m) &:= \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) - m\mathbf{I} \\ &= \begin{Bmatrix} -m & \text{adj}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) \\ \hat{\mathcal{P}}_q & -m \end{Bmatrix}. \end{aligned} \quad (12.11)$$

Minimal coupling gives [8, Eq. (191)]

$$\boxed{\hat{D}_q(m)\psi = (\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) - m\mathbf{I})\psi = 0.} \quad (12.12)$$

Its entries are

$$(\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_- = m\psi_+, \quad (12.13)$$

$$(\hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_+ = m\psi_-. \quad (12.14)$$

Isolating the time derivative gives $i\partial_t\psi = \hat{H}\psi$, where the Hamiltonian is [17, Eq. (412)]

$$\hat{H} := qV\mathbf{I} + \mathbf{W}(1)(m\mathbf{I} - \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})). \quad (12.15)$$

For real potentials, the Dirac equation conserves total probability when the spatial boundary flux vanishes. The pointwise density (12.1) can still vary through probability flux.

To expose each coefficient, write $\psi_{\pm} = a_{\pm} + \mathbf{b}_{\pm} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with complex scalar functions $a_{\pm} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ and vector functions $\mathbf{b}_{\pm} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}^3$. Their pairs $(a_{\pm}, \mathbf{b}_{\pm})$ are restricted to the fixed spinor ideal, so their four complex coefficients per entry are not independent. Sigma multiplication gives

$$\begin{aligned}\hat{E}_q a_- - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \mathbf{b}_- &= m a_+, \\ \hat{E}_q \mathbf{b}_- - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q a_- - i \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \times \mathbf{b}_- &= m \mathbf{b}_+, \\ \hat{E}_q a_+ + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \mathbf{b}_+ &= m a_-, \\ \hat{E}_q \mathbf{b}_+ + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q a_+ + i \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \times \mathbf{b}_+ &= m \mathbf{b}_-.\end{aligned}$$

Every operator acts on the following coefficient. Each entry still has the two independent complex components of (10.2). Appendix A.7 converts the system to the conventional four-component Dirac equation.

12.4 Interacting factorization and reconstruction

Recall the real potential $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the complex field $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, and $S = \partial_t V + \partial_r \cdot \mathbf{A}$. For any field $\psi : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, the product rule gives

$$\partial^*(\mathcal{A}^*\psi) + \mathcal{A}\partial\psi = (S + \mathcal{F})\psi + 2(V\partial_t + \mathbf{A} \cdot \partial_r)\psi, \quad (12.16)$$

$$\partial(\mathcal{A}\psi) + \mathcal{A}^*\partial^*\psi = (S + \mathcal{F}^*)\psi + 2(V\partial_t + \mathbf{A} \cdot \partial_r)\psi. \quad (12.17)$$

The difference of (12.16) and (12.17) is $(\mathcal{F} - \mathcal{F}^*)\psi = 2(\mathbf{E} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi$.

Applying the block map $\mathbf{W}$ twice gives

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{W}(\partial^*)\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{A})\psi &= \left\{ \begin{array}{c} \partial(\mathcal{A}\psi_+) \\ \partial^*(\mathcal{A}^*\psi_-) \end{array} \right\}, \\ \mathbf{W}(\mathcal{A})\mathbf{W}(\partial^*)\psi &= \left\{ \begin{array}{c} \mathcal{A}^*\partial^*\psi_+ \\ \mathcal{A}\partial\psi_- \end{array} \right\}, \\ \mathbf{W}(\mathcal{A})^2 &= \det \mathcal{A} \mathbf{I}.\end{aligned}$$

Differentiating a parenthesized product includes the potential derivative. The argument $-m$ changes only the mass sign, keeping q and $\mathcal{A}$ fixed. Multiplying and using the preceding mixed-derivative identities gives

$$\hat{D}_q(-m)\hat{D}_q(m) = (\hat{E}_q^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - m^2)\mathbf{I} - iq \begin{Bmatrix} \mathcal{F}^* & 0 \\ 0 & \mathcal{F} \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (12.18)$$

The derivatives act on potentials as well as amplitudes. For every Dirac solution,

$$\hat{D}_q(-m)\hat{D}_q(m)\psi = 0.$$

At $q = 0$, this recovers (12.5) and hence the free Klein–Gordon equation. With coupling, its entries obey

$$\begin{aligned}((\partial + iq\mathcal{A}^*)(\partial^* + iq\mathcal{A}) + m^2)\psi_+ &= 0, \\ ((\partial^* + iq\mathcal{A})(\partial + iq\mathcal{A}^*) + m^2)\psi_- &= 0.\end{aligned}$$

Expanding gives the exact second-order equations [18, Eq. (6)]

$$(-\hat{E}_q^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2 + iq\mathcal{F}^*)\psi_+ = 0, \quad (12.19)$$

$$(-\hat{E}_q^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2 + iq\mathcal{F})\psi_- = 0. \quad (12.20)$$

For the spin-term components, write $\mathbf{Z} = \mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}$ and $\boldsymbol{\psi} = a + \mathbf{b} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with complex functions $a : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{b}, \mathbf{Z} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}^3$. Here $\mathbf{Z}^*$ conjugates its scalar coefficients. Sigma multiplication gives

$$\begin{aligned} iq\mathcal{F}\boldsymbol{\psi} &= iq\mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{b} + (iqa\mathbf{Z} - q\mathbf{Z} \times \mathbf{b}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \\ iq\mathcal{F}^*\boldsymbol{\psi} &= -iq\mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \mathbf{b} + (-iqa\mathbf{Z}^* + q\mathbf{Z}^* \times \mathbf{b}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned}$$

To construct solutions, take a complex paravector amplitude $\boldsymbol{\psi}$ of (10.2) satisfying (12.20) with $\boldsymbol{\psi}$ in place of $\boldsymbol{\psi}_-$. Set

$$\boxed{\boldsymbol{\psi} = \left\{ \begin{array}{c} (\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\boldsymbol{\psi}/m \\ \boldsymbol{\psi} \end{array} \right\}.} \quad (12.21)$$

The first Dirac equation holds by construction; the second is the seed equation. Every massive solution has this form with $\boldsymbol{\psi} = \boldsymbol{\psi}_-$. One must solve that seed equation for the chosen potential: a scalar KG seed lacks the spin term, and independently solved squared entries need not satisfy the first-order coupling.

12.5 Gauge phase

Recall the real scalar $\lambda : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and gauge transformation $\mathcal{A}' = \mathcal{A} + \partial^*\lambda$, or $V' = V + \partial_t\lambda$, $\mathbf{A}' = \mathbf{A} - \partial_{\mathbf{r}}\lambda$. For $\hat{E}'_q := i\partial_t - qV'$, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}'_q := -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}'$, and $\hat{\mathcal{P}}'_q := \hat{E}'_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}'_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the product rule gives

$$\begin{aligned} (\hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})(e^{iq\lambda}\boldsymbol{\psi}'_{\pm}) &= e^{iq\lambda}(\hat{E}_q - q\partial_t\lambda + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + q(\partial_{\mathbf{r}}\lambda) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\boldsymbol{\psi}'_{\pm} \\ &= e^{iq\lambda}(\hat{E}'_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}'_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\boldsymbol{\psi}'_{\pm}. \end{aligned}$$

The adjugate block follows with the vector signs reversed. Thus the new amplitude is

$$\boldsymbol{\psi}' = e^{-iq\lambda}\boldsymbol{\psi}.$$

Equivalently,

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{E}'_q\boldsymbol{\psi}' &= e^{-iq\lambda}\hat{E}_q\boldsymbol{\psi}, \\ \hat{\mathbf{P}}'_q\boldsymbol{\psi}' &= e^{-iq\lambda}\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q\boldsymbol{\psi}. \end{aligned}$$

Consequently [16, Eqs. (6.68)–(6.69)]

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}'_q) - m\mathbf{I})\boldsymbol{\psi}' & \\ = e^{-iq\lambda}(\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) - m\mathbf{I})\boldsymbol{\psi}. \end{aligned} \quad (12.22)$$

Equation (12.22) preserves the Dirac equation; the phase sign is fixed by the potential shift. The factor $e^{-iq\lambda} \in \mathbb{C}$ has modulus one and preserves the spinor ideal, so the norm is unchanged. The same product rules preserve the KG and Pauli equations.

13 Low-energy limits

Recall $m \in \mathbb{R}_{>0}$, $q \in \mathbb{R}$, and potentials $V : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{A} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$. The coupled operators are $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$ and $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}$; the fields are $\mathbf{E} = -\partial_{\mathbf{r}}V - \partial_t\mathbf{A}$ and $\mathbf{B} = \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \times \mathbf{A}$. Remove the rest oscillation and retain the leading nonrelativistic terms. This gives Schrödinger from KG and Pauli from Dirac.

13.1 Klein–Gordon to Schrödinger

The scalar Klein–Gordon equation gives Schrödinger dynamics after removing the rest oscillation. Keep the coupled operators $\hat{E}_q, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q$ defined above. For the full scalar KG field $\psi' : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, define its scalar envelope $\psi : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ by [16, Eqs. (2.103)–(2.104)]

$$\psi'(t, \mathbf{r}) = e^{-imt}\psi(t, \mathbf{r}). \quad (13.1)$$

The product rule makes the rest-energy shift explicit:

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{E}_q\psi' &= (i\partial_t - qV)(e^{-imt}\psi) \\ &= e^{-imt}(m\psi + i\partial_t\psi - qV\psi) \\ &= e^{-imt}(m + \hat{E}_q)\psi, \\ \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q\psi' &= e^{-imt}\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q\psi. \end{aligned}$$

Since m is constant, applying $\hat{E}_q$ again gives $\hat{E}_q^2\psi' = e^{-imt}(\hat{E}_q + m)^2\psi$; spatial derivatives leave the phase untouched. Substitution into (11.3) therefore gives

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= (-\hat{E}_q^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2)\psi' \\ &= e^{-imt}(-(\hat{E}_q + m)^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2)\psi \\ &= e^{-imt}(-\hat{E}_q^2 - 2m\hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2)\psi. \end{aligned}$$

On the envelope, $\hat{E}_q$ measures energy above rest, excluding qV . The rest terms cancel. Divide by the nonzero phase to obtain

$$\hat{E}_q\psi = \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - \hat{E}_q^2}{2m}\psi. \quad (13.2)$$

For weak, slowly varying fields and a slow positive-energy envelope, let $0 < v \ll 1$ be a real expansion parameter with $\hat{E}_q/m = O(v^2)$. Then $\hat{E}_q^2\psi$ is smaller than $2m\hat{E}_q\psi$ by $O(v^2)$. Dropping it at leading order gives [19, Eq. (21.3)]

$$\boxed{i\partial_t\psi = \left(\frac{(-i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A})^2}{2m} + qV \right) \psi.} \quad (13.3)$$

With $\mathbf{A} = 0$, hence $\mathbf{B} = 0$, the kinetic-energy operator is $-\partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2/(2m)$, and the conventional scalar form is

$$i\partial_t\psi = \left(-\frac{\partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2}{2m} + qV \right) \psi.$$

Schrödinger and Pauli occur at the same leading order $1/m$. The following Dirac limit retains the magnetic spin term; when $\mathbf{B} = 0$, each complex coefficient of the Pauli amplitude obeys this same scalar Schrödinger equation.

13.2 Dirac to Pauli

The fields $\psi_{\pm}, \psi'_{\pm}, \phi_{\pm}$ all take values in the same fixed two-dimensional complex left ideal of $\mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, with coordinate columns in $\mathbb{C}^2$. The phase and change of blocks below preserve this domain.

Apply the same rest-energy phase shift to define the Dirac envelopes [12, Eq. (2.1)]:

$$\psi'_{\pm} := e^{imt} \psi_{\pm}. \quad (13.4)$$

The product rule gives

$$\hat{E}_q \psi_{\pm} = e^{-imt} (m + \hat{E}_q) \psi'_{\pm}.$$

On the envelopes, $\hat{E}_q$ measures energy above rest, excluding qV . The two rows of the Dirac equation, (12.13) and (12.14), become

$$\begin{aligned} (m + \hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi'_- &= m \psi'_+, \\ (m + \hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi'_+ &= m \psi'_-. \end{aligned}$$

At free positive-energy rest, $\psi'_+ = \psi'_-$. Define the large and small components

$$\phi_+ := \frac{\psi'_+ + \psi'_-}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad (13.5)$$

$$\phi_- := \frac{\psi'_- - \psi'_+}{\sqrt{2}}. \quad (13.6)$$

Adding and subtracting gives the exact pair [12, Eqs. (2.15)–(2.16)]:

$$\hat{E}_q \phi_+ = (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \phi_-, \quad (13.7)$$

$$(2m + \hat{E}_q) \phi_- = (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \phi_+. \quad (13.8)$$

For nonrelativistic positive-energy states in weak, slowly varying fields, neglect $\hat{E}_q \phi_-$ relative to $2m \phi_-$. Substitute the small component into the first equation and use (10.19):

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_- &\simeq \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{2m} \phi_+, \\ \hat{E}_q \phi_+ &\simeq \frac{(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2}{2m} \phi_+ = \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{2m} \phi_+. \end{aligned}$$

Restoring $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$ gives Pauli's equation through order $1/m$ [12, Eq. (2.13)]:

$$\boxed{i\partial_t \phi_+ = \left(\frac{(-i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A})^2}{2m} + qV - \frac{q}{2m} \mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right) \phi_+}. \quad (13.9)$$

The change of entries preserves the density exactly:

$$\|\psi\|^2 = \|\phi_+\|^2 + \|\phi_-\|^2.$$

The leading probability density is $\|\phi_+\|^2$. Its two complex components are the Pauli amplitudes; see Appendix A.5. This is the amplitude used in the spin discussion. For a real expansion parameter $0 < v \ll 1$, the scaling $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q/m = O(v)$, $\hat{E}_q/m = O(v^2)$, $qV/m = O(v^2)$, $q\mathbf{B}/m^2 = O(v^2)$, $q\mathbf{E}/m^2 = O(v^3)$, with fields varying on spatial scales $1/(mv)$ and time scales $1/(mv^2)$ or longer, gives $\phi_- = O(v\phi_+)$ and omitted energy terms of order mv^4 .

13.3 Spin components in a uniform magnetic field

For a constant field $\mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^3 \setminus \{0\}$, define its [unit direction](#) and [spin projectors](#):

$$\mathbf{u} := \frac{\mathbf{B}}{\|\mathbf{B}\|} \in \mathbb{R}^3, \quad \Pi_{\pm} := \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3.$$

[Spectral decomposition](#) gives

$$\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = \|\mathbf{B}\|(\Pi_+ - \Pi_-), \quad \Pi_{\pm}(\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \pm \|\mathbf{B}\| \Pi_{\pm}.$$

Encode the two spin amplitudes $\phi_{++}, \phi_{+-} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ in an aligned paravector $\phi_+ : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \text{span}_{\mathbb{C}}\{1, \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}\} \subset \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ by spectral decomposition:

$$\begin{aligned} \phi_+ &= \phi_{++}\Pi_+ + \phi_{+-}\Pi_-, \\ \Pi_{\pm}\phi_+ &= \phi_+\Pi_{\pm} = \phi_{\pm\pm}\Pi_{\pm}. \end{aligned}$$

Constant $\Pi_{\pm}$ commute with $\hat{E}_q$ and $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2$, so the Pauli equation gives

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \Pi_{\pm} \left(2m\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right) \phi_+ \\ &= \left(\left(2m\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 \pm q\|\mathbf{B}\| \right) \phi_{\pm\pm} \right) \Pi_{\pm}. \end{aligned}$$

Since $\Pi_{\pm} \neq 0$, the scalar coefficients vanish. Restoring $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$ gives

$$\boxed{i\partial_t \phi_{\pm\pm} = \left(\frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 \mp q\|\mathbf{B}\|}{2m} + qV \right) \phi_{\pm\pm}.}$$

States with [spin projections](#) $\pm\frac{1}{2}$ along $\mathbf{u}$ have opposite [Zeeman shifts](#). The [kinetic momentum](#) $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}$ retains the orbital coupling.

This representation applies to uniform-field Pauli evolution; the full Dirac equation and spin measurements use the fixed spinor space.

Arrange the four complex amplitudes of the Dirac spinor, after removing the rest-energy phase, as:

$$\phi := \begin{pmatrix} \phi_{++} & \phi_{+-} \\ \phi_{-+} & \phi_{--} \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}.$$

Rows label Dirac blocks, columns spin projections; the Pauli limit governs the upper row.

In a basis diagonalizing $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the aligned paravector is $\text{diag}(\phi_{++}, \phi_{+-})$. The corresponding spinor in the fixed ideal of (10.2) is $\phi_{++}\mathbf{Z}_+ + \phi_{+-}\mathbf{Z}_-$, where constant orthonormal $\mathbf{Z}_{\pm}$ satisfy $\Pi_{\pm}\mathbf{Z}_{\pm} = \mathbf{Z}_{\pm}$ and $\Pi_{\pm}\mathbf{Z}_{\mp} = 0$. Both representations give the same scalar Pauli equations. The full Dirac coupling $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ need not preserve alignment.

For the original spinor blocks, the lower block still satisfies $\phi_- \simeq (\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\phi_+/(2m)$. For a nonzero field with varying direction, its projectors depend on $(t, \mathbf{r})$. With $\hat{H}$ the Pauli Hamiltonian in (13.9), the product rule for the original spinor gives

$$\begin{aligned} i\partial_t(\Pi_{\pm}\phi_+) &= i(\partial_t\Pi_{\pm})\phi_+ + \Pi_{\pm}\hat{H}\phi_+ \\ &= \hat{H}(\Pi_{\pm}\phi_+) + \left(i\partial_t\Pi_{\pm} + \frac{[\Pi_{\pm}, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2]}{2m} \right) \phi_+. \end{aligned}$$

Only the projector derivatives and kinetic commutator couple the sectors; the magnetic term commutes with its own projectors.

13.4 Evolution about an alternate spin axis

Let $\mathbf{u}' \in \mathbb{R}^3$ be a constant unit vector and $\theta \in [0, \pi]$. Take initial scalar wavefunctions $\phi_{++}, \phi_{+-} : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ along this axis:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbf{u}' \cdot \mathbf{u} &= \cos \theta, & \Pi'_\pm &:= \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3, \\ \phi_+(0) &= \phi_{++}\Pi'_+ + \phi_{+-}\Pi'_- \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3.\end{aligned}$$

The magnetic term has both diagonal and off-diagonal parts in these projectors:

$$\begin{aligned}\Pi'_\pm(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi'_\pm &= \pm \cos \theta \Pi'_\pm, \\ \Pi'_\mp(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi'_\pm &= ((\mathbf{u} - \cos \theta \mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi'_\pm.\end{aligned}$$

Projecting the Pauli equation gives

$$\begin{aligned}2m\hat{E}_q\Pi'_\pm\phi_+ &= \left(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 \mp q\|\mathbf{B}\|\cos\theta\right)\Pi'_\pm\phi_+ \\ &\quad - q\|\mathbf{B}\|\Pi'_\pm(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi'_\mp\phi_+.\end{aligned}$$

Initially $\Pi'_\mp\phi_+(0)\Pi'_\pm = 0$, but

$$\mathrm{i}\partial_t(\Pi'_\mp\phi_+\Pi'_\pm)\big|_{t=0} = -\frac{q\|\mathbf{B}\|}{2m}\phi_{\pm\pm}((\mathbf{u} - \cos\theta\mathbf{u}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\Pi'_\pm.$$

For $q \neq 0$ and $\sin\theta \neq 0$, evolution generates off-diagonal components: two scalar multiples of the fixed $\Pi'_\pm$ no longer suffice. At $\theta = 0$ the earlier equations return; at $\theta = \pi$ the signs exchange. For perpendicular axes, the magnetic term is entirely off-diagonal.

For time-independent $V : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{A} : \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$, the orbital operator commutes with the constant magnetic term. The full Pauli evolution of this initial paravector is

$$\begin{aligned}\phi_+(t) &= e^{-\mathrm{i}t(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2/(2m)+qV)}e^{\mathrm{i}q\|\mathbf{B}\|t\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/(2m)}\phi_+(0) \\ &= e^{-\mathrm{i}t(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2/(2m)+qV)}\left(\cos\frac{q\|\mathbf{B}\|t}{2m} + \mathrm{i}\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}\sin\frac{q\|\mathbf{B}\|t}{2m}\right)\phi_+(0).\end{aligned}$$

The exponential follows from $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = 1$. Its transverse contribution produces the off-diagonal terms above.

13.5 The next free order

For the free complex scalar envelope $\psi(t, \mathbf{r})$, set $qV = 0$ and $q\mathbf{A} = 0$, so $\hat{E}_q = \hat{E}$, $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = \hat{\mathbf{P}}$, and the operators commute. On the positive-frequency KG branch, solving (13.2) gives

$$\hat{E}\psi = \left(\sqrt{m^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}^2} - m\right)\psi.$$

The same energy acts on either normalized positive-energy Dirac spin component. Iteration starts with $\hat{E}\psi \simeq \hat{\mathbf{P}}^2\psi/(2m)$; its square supplies the next term [12, Eq. (2.19)]:

$$\hat{E}\psi = \left(\frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}^2}{2m} - \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}^4}{8m^3} + O\left(\frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}^6}{m^5}\right) \right) \psi.$$

For the charged scalar equation, the same iteration applies whenever $\hat{E}_q$ commutes with $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2$. On the positive-energy branch,

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{E}_q\psi &= \left(\sqrt{m^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2} - m \right) \psi \\ &= \left(\frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2}{2m} - \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^4}{8m^3} + O\left(\frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^6}{m^5}\right) \right) \psi. \end{aligned}$$

This expansion applies when the kinetic momenta in the state are small compared with m .

14 Spin and probability

Here ψ takes values in the fixed spinor ideal of (10.2), with coordinates in $\mathbb{C}^2$. Axes and polarizations $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{u}', \mathbf{a} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ are unit vectors; angles $\theta, \varphi \in \mathbb{R}$, projectors $\Pi_{\pm}, \Pi'_{\pm} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, and probabilities lie in $[0, 1] \subset \mathbb{R}$. The density $\rho \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ is a probability density.

Spin specifies the intrinsic rotation of an amplitude. Here we rotate the state at fixed coordinates. A scalar KG amplitude stays unchanged under this intrinsic action and has spin zero; a two-component amplitude has the one-sided law below. The wave equation alone does not fix spin: free Dirac components also satisfy KG.

14.1 Spin one-half and rotations

Recall the complex paravector amplitude $\psi(t, \mathbf{r})$ of (10.2). For a **real unit axis** $\mathbf{u}$ and real angle θ , use the unitary rotor $\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ of (4.5). The spinor law is [11, p. 4]

$$\boxed{\psi' = \mathcal{R}\psi.} \tag{14.1}$$

Writing its infinitesimal action as $\psi' = \psi - i\theta \mathcal{S}(\mathbf{u})\psi + O(\theta^2)$ defines the spin operator along $\mathbf{u}$, given by left multiplication by the real pure-vector paravector $\mathcal{S}(\mathbf{u}) \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ [13, p. 62]:

$$\mathcal{S}(\mathbf{u})\psi = \frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi. \tag{14.2}$$

Since $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = 1$, its two spin projections are $\pm 1/2$ in units $\hbar = 1$. A 2π rotation gives $\mathcal{R} = -1$, reversing the amplitude's sign; a 4π rotation restores it. Probabilities are unchanged by the overall sign, while a relative sign can be detected by interference [20, Eq. (6.18)]. Each Dirac entry obeys this same active rotation law.

For a real paravector observable $\mathcal{Z}$, the state law (14.1) gives, by (10.8),

$$\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_{\psi'} = \langle \mathcal{R}^H \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{R} \rangle_{\psi}.$$

The observable inside the original state's pairing rotates through $-\theta$. If the observable rotates with the state, $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{R}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{R}^H$, then $\langle \mathcal{Z}' \rangle_{\psi'} = \langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_{\psi}$.

14.2 Projectors and probabilities

Recall a nonzero Pauli amplitude ψ of (10.2). For a real unit measurement axis $\mathbf{u}$, the real projectors are

$$\Pi_{\pm} = \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}).$$

Their algebra in Section 3.2 gives

$$\begin{aligned} \psi &= \Pi_+ \psi + \Pi_- \psi, \\ \mathcal{S}(\mathbf{u})(\Pi_{\pm} \psi) &= \pm \frac{1}{2} \Pi_{\pm} \psi, \\ \text{sc}\left((\Pi_+ \psi)^H (\Pi_- \psi)\right) &= 0, \\ \|\Pi_{\pm} \psi\|^2 &= \text{sc}\left(\psi^H \Pi_{\pm} \psi\right) = \|\psi\|_{\Pi_{\pm}}^2. \end{aligned}$$

By (10.5), these are nonnegative weighted densities. The Born probability is this density divided by $\rho = \|\psi\|^2$. In the fixed orthonormal basis (10.1), $\psi = c_+ \psi_+ + c_- \psi_-$ with complex scalars $c_{\pm}$, so $\rho = \|c_+\|^2 + \|c_-\|^2$. When the measurement axis is that basis axis, the probabilities are $\|c_{\pm}\|^2/\rho$. The same-side and cross-side projector products are already derived in Section 3.2.

Define the real spin-polarization vector $\mathbf{u}' \in \mathbb{R}^3$ by its projection along every real unit measurement axis $\mathbf{u}$:

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}' := \frac{\text{sc}(\psi^H (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi)}{\rho}. \quad (14.3)$$

The right side is real and linear in $\mathbf{u}$, so it uniquely specifies $\mathbf{u}'$. For the arbitrary perpendicular basis axes $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{a}$ in (10.2), expanding the same pairing gives

$$\begin{aligned} \rho \mathbf{u}' &= (\|c_+\|^2 - \|c_-\|^2) \mathbf{u} \\ &\quad + 2 \text{re}(c_+^* c_-) \mathbf{a} + 2 \text{im}(c_+^* c_-) (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{a}). \end{aligned}$$

These three directions are orthonormal, hence

$$\rho^2 (\mathbf{u}')^2 = (\|c_+\|^2 - \|c_-\|^2)^2 + 4 \|c_+^* c_-\|^2 = \rho^2.$$

Thus $\mathbf{u}'$ is a real unit vector, with mean spin $\mathbf{u}'/2$. For any real unit measurement axis, inserting $\Pi_{\pm} = (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$ directly into the pairing gives

$$\|\Pi_{\pm} \psi\|^2 = \text{sc}\left(\psi^H \Pi_{\pm} \psi\right) = \frac{1}{2} \rho (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}').$$

Therefore [11, Eqs. (66)–(67)]

$$\boxed{\text{prob}(\pm | \mathbf{u}) = \frac{\|\Pi_{\pm} \psi\|^2}{\rho} = \frac{1}{2} (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}').} \quad (14.4)$$

The mean spin along $\mathbf{u}$ is $(\text{prob}(+) - \text{prob}(-))/2 = \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}'/2$. For a spatial wavefunction, (14.4) is the spin probability conditional on position, not a position density.

14.3 Measurement along a second axis

Use $\mathbf{u}'$ for the prepared spin direction and $\mathbf{u}$ for the measurement axis, both real unit vectors. Prepare a nonzero spin-up amplitude $\psi = \Pi'_+ \psi$, where $\Pi'_+ = (1 + \mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$. Let $0 \leq \theta \leq \pi$ be the angle between the axes and write

$$K' := \mathbf{u}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad K := \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad c' := \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}' = \cos \theta.$$

Here $K, K' \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ and $c' \in [-1, 1] \subset \mathbb{R}$. The Pauli product gives $(K')^2 = 1$ and $K'K + KK' = 2c'$. Multiplication by K' gives $K'KK' = 2c'K' - K$, hence

$$\begin{aligned} \Pi'_+ K \Pi'_+ &= \frac{1}{4}(1 + K')K(1 + K') \\ &= \frac{1}{4}(K + K'K + KK' + K'KK') \\ &= \frac{1}{4}(2c' + 2c'K') = c'\Pi'_+. \end{aligned}$$

The measurement projectors $\Pi_\pm = (1 \pm K)/2$ therefore satisfy

$$\Pi'_+ \Pi_\pm \Pi'_+ = \frac{1}{2}(\Pi'_+ \pm \Pi'_+ K \Pi'_+) = \frac{1 \pm c'}{2} \Pi'_+. \quad (14.5)$$

Using $\|\mathbf{z}\|^2 = \text{sc}(\mathbf{z}\mathbf{z}^H)$ for $\mathbf{z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, the denominator is

$$\|\psi\|^2 = \text{sc}(\psi\psi^H) > 0.$$

For the prepared state, the projected squared norm is

$$\begin{aligned} \|\Pi_\pm \psi\|^2 &= \text{sc}((\Pi_\pm \psi)(\Pi_\pm \psi)^H) \\ &= \text{sc}(\Pi_\pm \psi\psi^H) \\ &= \text{sc}(\Pi'_+ \Pi_\pm \Pi'_+ \psi\psi^H) \\ &= \frac{1 \pm \cos \theta}{2} \text{sc}(\psi\psi^H) = \frac{1 \pm \cos \theta}{2} \|\psi\|^2. \end{aligned}$$

The Born rule divides by the nonzero squared norm, so no prior normalization is needed:

$$\text{prob}(\pm) := \frac{\|\Pi_\pm \psi\|^2}{\|\psi\|^2} = \frac{1 \pm \cos \theta}{2}, \quad (14.6)$$

$$\text{prob}(+) = \cos^2 \frac{\theta}{2}, \quad \text{prob}(-) = \sin^2 \frac{\theta}{2}.$$

Here $+$ and $-$ label measured spin projections $+1/2$ and $-1/2$ along $\mathbf{u}$. The probabilities sum to one. Aligned axes give spin up with certainty, perpendicular axes give equal probabilities, and opposite axes give spin down with certainty. Preparing $\psi = \Pi'_- \psi$ interchanges the probabilities. For a spatial wavefunction with the same spin preparation at every position, integrating both norm densities gives the same result.

14.4 Rotating the polarization

For $\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\varphi \mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real unit rotation axis $\mathbf{a}$ and real angle φ , let $\mathbf{u}''$ denote the polarization of the rotated amplitude $\psi' = \mathcal{R}\psi$. The amplitude law (14.1) gives

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}'' = \langle \mathcal{R}^H (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \mathcal{R} \rangle_\psi.$$

This is the inverse of Rodrigues' rotation (5.5): the measurement axis rotates through $-\varphi$, so $\mathbf{u}''$ rotates through $+\varphi$ about $\mathbf{a}$. Thus the polarization rotates as a vector although its amplitude has spin one-half. Its overlap with the original polarization is

$$\mathbf{u}' \cdot \mathbf{u}'' = (\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{u}')^2 + (1 - (\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{u}')^2) \cos \varphi.$$

For $\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{u}' = 0$, the probability to retain the initial spin is $\cos^2(\varphi/2)$.

15 Lorentz covariance and electromagnetic transformations

At corresponding events, the domains are

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{X}, \mathcal{U}, \mathcal{P}, \mathcal{A}, \mathcal{J} &\in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3, & \mathcal{F} &\in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3, \\ \mathcal{T} &\in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3, \quad \det \mathcal{T} = 1, & \mathcal{R} &\in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3, \quad \mathcal{L} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3, \\ t, s, E, V, \rho, \theta, \beta, \gamma &\in \mathbb{R}, & \mathbf{r}, \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{P}, \mathbf{A}, \mathbf{E}, \mathbf{B}, \mathbf{J}, \mathbf{u} &\in \mathbb{R}^3. \end{aligned}$$

Here $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$, $|\beta| < 1$, $\gamma \geq 1$, and ρ is charge density. Transformed quantities retain their types. Scalar KG fields take values in $\mathbb{C}$; Dirac entries remain in their fixed two-dimensional complex spinor ideal.

We now apply the algebraic actions of Section 5 to the physical variables already defined. Appendix C compares alternative exponent signs and sandwich orders. Primed fields are evaluated at $\mathcal{X}'$ and unprimed fields at $\mathcal{X}$. The frame factors here are constant; varying factors are treated in Section 8.4.

15.1 Transformation laws for fields and derivatives

Let $\mathcal{T}$ be a complex invertible paravector with $\det \mathcal{T} = 1$. It may be any ordered product of $\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ and $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, with real unit vector $\mathbf{u}$ and real angle or rapidity θ . Recall the real event $\mathcal{X}$, momentum $\mathcal{P}$, potential $\mathcal{A}$, and electric current $\mathcal{J}$. Each transforms by [5, Eq. (24)]

$$\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{T}^H, \quad \mathcal{Z} = \mathcal{X}, \mathcal{P}, \mathcal{A}, \mathcal{J}. \quad (15.1)$$

Since $\det \mathcal{T} = 1$, sigma conjugation gives $\mathcal{T}^* = (\mathcal{T}^{-1})^H$. The derivative and complex field $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ use [5, Eq. (33)]

$$\partial' = \mathcal{T}^* \partial \mathcal{T}^{-1}, \quad (15.2)$$

$$\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{T} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{T}^{-1}. \quad (15.3)$$

Equation (15.2) follows from the chain rule. For a differentiable scalar $f : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ with $f'(\mathcal{X}') = f(\mathcal{X})$,

$$df = \text{sc}((\partial f) d\mathcal{X}) = \text{sc}((\mathcal{T}^* (\partial f) \mathcal{T}^{-1}) d\mathcal{X}').$$

Since this holds for every real increment $d\mathcal{X}'$, the coefficient is $\partial' f'$ [7, p. 101].

15.2 Maxwell covariance

The field law follows from the potential law. The identity (9.11), with real scalar $S = \text{sc}(\partial\mathcal{A})$, gives

$$\partial'\mathcal{A}' = \mathcal{T}^*(S + \mathcal{F}^*)\mathcal{T}^H.$$

Scalar-part cyclicity gives $S' = S$. Since $\mathcal{T}^* = (\mathcal{T}^H)^{-1}$, sigma conjugation of the vector part gives (15.3). Maxwell covariance now follows by cancellation:

$$\partial'\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{T}^*(\partial\mathcal{F})\mathcal{T}^{-1} = \mathcal{T}^*\mathcal{J}^*\mathcal{T}^{-1} = \mathcal{J}'^*.$$

Thus the transformed potentials and fields satisfy the same Maxwell equation (9.2); the scalar wave operator also obeys $\square' = \det \partial' = \det \partial = \square$.

15.3 Wave phases and spinor covariance

For real $\mathcal{P}, \mathcal{X}$, the metric pairing (5.3) is the wave phase. Adjagation of $\mathcal{P}'$ and cyclicity give

$$\text{sc}(\mathcal{P}'^* \mathcal{X}') = \text{sc}(\mathcal{T}^* \mathcal{P}^* \mathcal{X} \mathcal{T}^H) = \text{sc}(\mathcal{P}^* \mathcal{X}).$$

Consequently $E't' - \mathbf{P}' \cdot \mathbf{r}' = Et - \mathbf{P} \cdot \mathbf{r}$, and the plane wave (10.11) satisfies $f(\mathcal{X}', \mathcal{P}') = f(\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{P})$.

A scalar Klein–Gordon field uses $\psi'(\mathcal{X}') = \psi(\mathcal{X})$; the derivative and potential laws above preserve its wave equation. For the two complex paravector Dirac entries, a change of coordinates $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}^H$ uses

$$\begin{aligned}\psi'_+(\mathcal{X}') &= \mathcal{T}^* \psi_+(\mathcal{X}), \\ \psi'_-(\mathcal{X}') &= \mathcal{T} \psi_-(\mathcal{X}).\end{aligned}$$

Primed coupled operators use the primed coordinates and potentials. The first interacting equation (12.13) transforms by cancellation:

$$(\hat{E}'_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}'_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi'_- = \mathcal{T}^*(\hat{E}_q - \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_- = m\psi'_+.$$

Equation (12.14) transforms in the same way with left factor $\mathcal{T}$; $q = 0$ gives the free case. For $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, both entries transform by $\mathcal{R}$, consistently with the active rotation (14.1); the spatial argument also rotates. A passive rotation of axes uses the inverse factor $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{R}^{-1}$. For $\mathcal{T} = \mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$, the two entries instead use $\mathcal{L}^{-1}$ and $\mathcal{L}$, respectively [16, Eq. (4.31)]. The factor $\mathcal{L}$ already contains half the rapidity; no further square root is needed for either entry. Their cross-pairing $\text{sc}(\psi_+^H \psi_-)$ is invariant: the two transformation factors cancel. Their summed positive density (12.1) is observer-dependent under boosts. Use the full Dirac pair for boosts before taking the Pauli low-energy limit.

15.4 Boosted fields and energy flux

For $\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2)$ with the parameters above, (15.2) becomes $\partial' = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\partial\mathcal{L}^{-1}$. Its scalar and vector parts are

$$\begin{aligned}\partial_{t'} &= \gamma(\partial_t + \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{r}}), \\ \partial_{\mathbf{r}'} &= \partial_{\mathbf{r}} + (\gamma - 1)\mathbf{u}(\mathbf{u} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{r}}) + \gamma\beta\mathbf{u}\partial_t.\end{aligned}$$

These inverse signs express the chain rule. The real potential $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and current $\mathcal{J} = \rho + \mathbf{J} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ follow the same component formulas as (7.10)–(7.11), with $(E, \mathbf{P})$ replaced by $(V, \mathbf{A})$ or $(\rho, \mathbf{J})$.

At corresponding events, (15.3) reduces to

$$\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{F}\mathcal{L}^{-1}. \quad (15.4)$$

The similarity preserves the field's zero scalar part, while its imaginary vector coefficients represent the magnetic field. As shown algebraically in (5.14), a real vector can acquire an imaginary part under this action. In contrast, a nonzero boost congruence would give a scalar part to a nonzero field parallel to $\mathbf{u}$. Thus the field uses similarity, whereas events and the real four-potential use congruence. Both the field coefficients and their spacetime arguments transform:

$$\mathcal{F}'(\mathcal{X}') = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{F}(\mathcal{L}^{-1}\mathcal{X}'\mathcal{L}^{-1})\mathcal{L}^{-1}. \quad (15.5)$$

Here $\mathcal{X} = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\mathcal{X}'\mathcal{L}^{-1}$. To expand (15.4), apply (5.14) to $\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}$ and separate its real and imaginary parts [7, Eqs. (5.17)–(5.18)]:

$$\mathbf{E}' = \mathbf{E}_{\parallel} + \gamma(\mathbf{E}_{\perp} + \beta\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{B}), \quad (15.6)$$

$$\mathbf{B}' = \mathbf{B}_{\parallel} + \gamma(\mathbf{B}_{\perp} - \beta\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{E}). \quad (15.7)$$

Parallel components are unchanged. These are the usual boosted fields along any real unit axis. The inverse field law is obtained by reversing β .

Similarity preserves $\mathcal{F}'^2 = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{F}^2\mathcal{L}^{-1} = \mathcal{F}^2$, since $\mathcal{F}^2$ is scalar. Consequently (9.15) gives

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{E}'^2 - \mathbf{B}'^2 &= \mathbf{E}^2 - \mathbf{B}^2, \\ \mathbf{E}' \cdot \mathbf{B}' &= \mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B}. \end{aligned}$$

In contrast, $\|\mathcal{F}\|^2 = \mathbf{E}^2 + \mathbf{B}^2$ is twice the observer-dependent energy density. For example, if $\mathbf{B} = 0$ and $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{E} = 0$, (15.6) and (15.7) give $\|\mathcal{F}'\|^2 = \gamma^2(1 + \beta^2)\mathbf{E}^2$, while $\mathbf{E}'^2 - \mathbf{B}'^2 = \mathbf{E}^2$.

Recall the stress map $T(\mathcal{N}) = \mathcal{F}\mathcal{N}\mathcal{F}^H/2$ from (9.22), with real paravector input $\mathcal{N}$; here T denotes this map. Since $\mathcal{N}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{N}\mathcal{L}$,

$$T'(\mathcal{N}') = \frac{1}{2}\mathcal{F}'\mathcal{N}'\mathcal{F}'^H = \mathcal{L}T(\mathcal{N})\mathcal{L}.$$

Here T' is the map formed from $\mathcal{F}'$. To measure the primed energy density and Poynting vector, use $\mathcal{N}' = 1$, hence $\mathcal{N} = \mathcal{L}^{-2}$:

$$T'(1) = \mathcal{L}T(\mathcal{L}^{-2})\mathcal{L} = \frac{1}{2}\mathcal{F}'\mathcal{F}'^H.$$

The full map transforms covariantly; its value at 1 depends on the observer's time direction.

Finally, recall the real four-velocity $\mathbf{u} = d\mathcal{X}/ds$, an invertible paravector with $\mathbf{u}\mathbf{u}^{-1} = 1$, and real momentum $\mathcal{P} = m\mathbf{u}$, with real charge q and constant mass $m > 0$. With $\mathbf{u}' = \mathcal{L}\mathbf{u}\mathcal{L}$ and $\mathcal{P}' = \mathcal{L}\mathcal{P}\mathcal{L}$, the force law (9.21) transforms as

$$\frac{d\mathcal{P}'}{ds} = \mathcal{L}\frac{q}{2}(\mathcal{F}\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{u}\mathcal{F}^H)\mathcal{L} = \frac{q}{2}(\mathcal{F}'\mathbf{u}' + \mathbf{u}'\mathcal{F}'^H).$$

Thus the electric and magnetic components above reproduce the same real four-force in the moving frame; the Hermitian extraction is preserved.

A Pauli-matrix representation

This appendix verifies the paravector formulas in matrix form. Let $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c \in \mathbb{C}$ and $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{C}^3$. The representation is an algebra isomorphism $\text{mat} : \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$. Write $\mathbf{M} = \text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}) \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$. Real paravectors map to Hermitian matrices, not necessarily real matrices. The identity matrices are $\mathbf{I}_2$ and $\mathbf{I}_4$ in their stated dimensions.

A.1 Generators and products

The Pauli images of the generators are [6, p. 11]

$$\text{mat}(\sigma_1) = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{Bmatrix}, \quad \text{mat}(\sigma_2) = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & -i \\ i & 0 \end{Bmatrix}, \quad \text{mat}(\sigma_3) = \begin{Bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{Bmatrix}.$$

Consequently,

$$\text{mat}(c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) = \begin{Bmatrix} c + Z_3 & Z_1 - iZ_2 \\ Z_1 + iZ_2 & c - Z_3 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.1})$$

The generator images obey the sigma product rule and are linearly independent over $\mathbb{C}$ together with $\mathbf{I}_2$. Thus every complex 2×2 matrix corresponds to exactly one paravector. The map preserves addition, sends 1 to $\mathbf{I}_2$, and satisfies

$$\text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}'\mathcal{Z}) = \text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}')\text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}).$$

Here $\mathcal{Z}'$ is any second complex paravector. Thus algebra multiplication is ordinary matrix multiplication.

A.2 Conjugations and product order

For $\mathbf{M}, \mathbf{N} \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$, transpose T exchanges row and column indices; entrywise complex conjugation C sends each $a + ib$ to $a - ib$ for real a, b . Their composition is $\mathbf{M}^H = (\mathbf{M}^C)^T$. Introduce the fixed matrix $\mathbf{S} \in \mathbb{R}^{2 \times 2}$:

$$\mathbf{S} = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{Bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{S}^{-1} = -\mathbf{S}.$$

The paravector sigma conjugation has the matrix image

$$\text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}^*) = \mathbf{S}^{-1} \mathbf{M}^C \mathbf{S} =: \mathbf{M}^*. \quad (\text{A.2})$$

Substituting the basis in (A.2) gives

Algebra basis	1	i	σ_k	$i\sigma_k$
Hermitian image	$\mathbf{I}_2$	$-i\mathbf{I}_2$	$\text{mat}(\sigma_k)$	$-i \text{mat}(\sigma_k)$
Sigma-conjugate image	$\mathbf{I}_2$	$-i\mathbf{I}_2$	$-\text{mat}(\sigma_k)$	$i \text{mat}(\sigma_k)$

Here $k = 1, 2, 3$. These are exactly the operations of Section 1.3, so $\text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}^H) = \mathbf{M}^H$. Their product-order rules are

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathbf{MN})^T &= \mathbf{N}^T \mathbf{M}^T, \\ (\mathbf{MN})^C &= \mathbf{M}^C \mathbf{N}^C, \\ (\mathbf{MN})^H &= \mathbf{N}^H \mathbf{M}^H. \end{aligned}$$

For sigma conjugation the middle factors cancel:

$$(MN)^* = S^{-1} M^C S S^{-1} N^C S.$$

Thus sigma conjugation preserves product order:

$$(MN)^* = M^* N^*.$$

This verifies (1.5) in matrices. Hermitian and sigma conjugation commute, and applying either twice restores the original matrix. The matrix-only operations can be recovered as

$$\begin{aligned} M^C &= S M^* S^{-1}, \\ M^T &= S (M^*)^H S^{-1}. \end{aligned}$$

A.3 Scalar part, determinant, and norm

For $M = (m_{jk}) \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$, with $m_{jk} \in \mathbb{C}$, its trace is $m_{11} + m_{22}$ and its determinant is $m_{11}m_{22} - m_{12}m_{21}$. Substituting (A.1) gives

$$\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}) = \frac{1}{2} \text{tr} M = c, \tag{A.3}$$

$$\begin{aligned} (\text{vec}(\mathcal{Z}))_k &= \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(\text{mat}(\sigma_k) M) = Z_k, \\ \det \mathcal{Z} &= \det M = c^2 - \mathcal{Z}^2. \end{aligned} \tag{A.4}$$

By (A.3), matrix-trace cyclicity is precisely the scalar-part cyclicity used in the main text. For $M' = \text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}')$,

$$\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}' \mathcal{Z}) = \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(M' M) = \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z} \mathcal{Z}').$$

The remaining extraction and norm formulas are

$$\begin{aligned} \text{mat}(\text{vec}(\mathcal{Z}) \cdot \sigma) &= M - \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}) I_2, \\ \text{mat}(\text{re}(\mathcal{Z})) &= \frac{1}{2} (M + M^H), \end{aligned} \tag{A.5}$$

$$\text{mat}(\text{im}(\mathcal{Z})) = (M - M^H)/(2i), \tag{A.6}$$

$$\|\mathcal{Z}\|^2 = \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(M^H M) = \|c\|^2 + \|\mathcal{Z}\|^2. \tag{A.7}$$

Equations (A.5)–(A.6) extract Hermitian matrices, so a real paravector has a Hermitian image. The squared norm in (A.7) is half the sum of the squared magnitudes of the matrix entries. The determinant in (A.4) may be complex.

The matrix adjugate is

$$\text{adj}(M) = (\text{tr} M) I_2 - M = \text{mat}(\text{adj}(\mathcal{Z})) = (M^*)^H.$$

It satisfies

$$\text{mat}(\text{adj}(\mathcal{Z}) \mathcal{Z}) = \det(M) I_2.$$

Consequently $M^{-1} = \text{adj}(M) / \det M$ when the determinant is nonzero. The determinant product and adjugate order rules are the same in both representations. The quadratic identity (3.1) is precisely Cayley–Hamilton for a 2×2 matrix.

A.4 Boost and rotation matrices

Recall the real unit axis $\mathbf{u} = \{u_1, u_2, u_3\}$ and real rapidity θ . The matrix image of (4.6) is

$$\text{mat}(\mathcal{L}) = \cosh(\theta/2)\mathbf{I}_2 - \sinh(\theta/2) \begin{Bmatrix} u_3 & u_1 - \mathrm{i}u_2 \\ u_1 + \mathrm{i}u_2 & -u_3 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.8})$$

The displayed axis matrix is Hermitian, has square $\mathbf{I}_2$, and has eigenvalues ± 1 . Thus (A.8) has eigenvalues $e^{\mp\theta/2}$, determinant one, and squared norm $\frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(\text{mat}(\mathcal{L})^H \text{mat}(\mathcal{L})) = \cosh \theta$. For a real rotation angle θ , replacing the hyperbolic coefficients by $\cos(\theta/2)$ and $\mathrm{i} \sin(\theta/2)$ gives $\text{mat}(\mathcal{R})$, which is unitary.

Multiplication preserves the distinct spacetime and field laws:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{mat}(\mathcal{X}') &= \text{mat}(\mathcal{L}) \text{mat}(\mathcal{X}) \text{mat}(\mathcal{L}), \\ \text{mat}(\mathcal{F}') &= \text{mat}(\mathcal{L}) \text{mat}(\mathcal{F}) \text{mat}(\mathcal{L})^{-1}. \end{aligned}$$

Here $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is real and $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + \mathrm{i}\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is complex, with $t \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{r}, \mathbf{E}, \mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^3$. Extracting scalar and vector coefficients by (A.3) and the preceding component rule gives (7.1)–(7.2) and (15.6)–(15.7) for the same arbitrary axis. The first matrix stays Hermitian; the second stays traceless.

A.5 Matrix amplitudes and column spinors

Let $\psi \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ have matrix image $\mathbf{M}_\psi \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$ at one event $\mathcal{X} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. For a nonnegative weight $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, the local densities (10.3) and (10.5) become

$$\begin{aligned} \|\psi\|^2 &= \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(\mathbf{M}_\psi^H \mathbf{M}_\psi), \\ \|\psi\|_{\mathcal{Z}}^2 &= \frac{1}{2} \text{tr}(\mathbf{M}_\psi^H \text{mat}(\mathcal{Z}) \mathbf{M}_\psi). \end{aligned}$$

The first is one half the sum of the squared magnitudes of the matrix entries: the squared Frobenius norm with the factor $1/2$ fixed by $\text{sc} = \text{tr}/2$. The second is its weighted form. Both are pointwise; neither contains a spatial integral. Matrix multiplication gives exactly the congruence identity (10.7).

An arbitrary spin basis. Recall the arbitrary constant perpendicular **real unit vectors** $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{a} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ of (10.1). Set $\Pi_+ = (1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$ and choose a constant complex paravector ψ' with $\Pi_+ \psi' \neq 0$. Then

$$\begin{Bmatrix} \psi_+ \\ \psi_- \end{Bmatrix} := \frac{1}{\|\Pi_+ \psi'\|} \begin{Bmatrix} \Pi_+ \psi' \\ (\mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \Pi_+ \psi' \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.9})$$

This constructs (10.1) with $(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})\psi_\pm = \pm \psi_\pm$ and $\text{sc}(\psi_s^H \psi_{s'}) = \delta_{ss'}$ for $s, s' = +, -$. The two complex scalar components give

$$\psi = c_+ \psi_+ + c_- \psi_- = (c_+ + c_- \mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi_+. \quad (\text{A.10})$$

For fields, $c_\pm : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$, and (10.3) is $\rho = \|c_+\|^2 + \|c_-\|^2$.

The two-component column. Every column of $\mathbf{M}_{\psi_+}$ has eigenvalue $+1$ under $\text{mat}(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})$, whose $+1$ eigenspace is one-dimensional. Since $\|\psi_+\| = 1$, its matrix therefore factors as $\mathbf{M}_{\psi_+} = \sqrt{2} \psi_+ \mathbf{v}^H$ for constant columns $\psi_+, \mathbf{v} \in \mathbb{C}^2$ satisfying $\psi_+^H \psi_+ = \mathbf{v}^H \mathbf{v} = 1$.

Left multiplication gives $\mathbf{M}_{\psi_-} = \sqrt{2} \psi_- \mathbf{v}^H$, where $\psi_- = \text{mat}(\mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi_+$. The columns ψ_+, ψ_- are orthonormal. Thus every amplitude in (A.10) has the conventional Pauli column

$$\psi := \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \mathbf{M}_{\psi} \mathbf{v} = c_+ \psi_+ + c_- \psi_- \in \mathbb{C}^2.$$

Conversely, $\mathbf{M}_{\psi} = \sqrt{2} \psi \mathbf{v}^H$, so this correspondence is one-to-one. For two amplitudes in this fixed basis and any complex multiplying paravector $\mathbf{Z}$, substitution gives

$$\begin{aligned} \text{sc}(\psi'^H \psi) &= \psi'^H \psi, \\ \text{sc}(\psi^H \mathbf{Z} \psi) &= \psi^H \text{mat}(\mathbf{Z}) \psi. \end{aligned}$$

For nonnegative $\mathbf{Z}$, the second line is $\|\psi\|_{\mathbf{Z}}^2$. Dividing by $\rho = \psi^H \psi > 0$ gives $\langle \mathbf{Z} \rangle_{\psi}$, the ordinary finite-component expectation. Left action $\mathcal{T} \psi$ maps to $\text{mat}(\mathcal{T}) \psi$ for any complex paravector $\mathcal{T}$.

Let $\mathbf{C} \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$ be the matrix with columns ψ_+, ψ_- . Then $\mathbf{C}^H \mathbf{C} = \mathbf{I}_2$ and $\psi = \mathbf{C} \{c_+, c_-\}^T$. For a complex paravector $\mathbf{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, its matrix in this basis is

$$\text{mat}'(\mathbf{Z}) := \mathbf{C}^H \text{mat}(\mathbf{Z}) \mathbf{C} = \begin{Bmatrix} c + \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z} & (\mathbf{a} - i \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{a}) \cdot \mathbf{Z} \\ (\mathbf{a} + i \mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{a}) \cdot \mathbf{Z} & c - \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{Z} \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.11})$$

Here the prime denotes only this change of matrix basis. For nonzero squared norm $\rho = \psi^H \psi$, the polarization (14.3) and probabilities for $\Pi_{\pm} = (1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})/2$ become

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}' = \psi^H \text{mat}(\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi / \rho, \quad (\text{A.12})$$

$$\text{prob}(\pm | \mathbf{u}) = \psi^H \text{mat}(\Pi_{\pm}) \psi / \rho. \quad (\text{A.13})$$

Equations (A.12) and (A.13) are the ordinary spin expectation and Born rule.

A.6 Dirac columns

For a Dirac block $\psi = \{\psi_+, \psi_-\}^T$, let $\mathbf{c}_+, \mathbf{c}_- \in \mathbb{C}^2$ be the corresponding columns. Then

$$\mathbf{W}(\mathbf{Z}) \psi \longleftrightarrow \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \text{mat}(\text{adj}(\mathbf{Z})) \\ \text{mat}(\mathbf{Z}) & 0 \end{Bmatrix} \begin{Bmatrix} \mathbf{c}_+ \\ \mathbf{c}_- \end{Bmatrix}.$$

The block squared norm in (12.1) becomes the squared norm of a four-component column:

$$\rho = \mathbf{c}_+^H \mathbf{c}_+ + \mathbf{c}_-^H \mathbf{c}_-.$$

Characteristic polynomial. On one Fourier mode, $s \in \mathbb{C}$ is the spectral parameter and $\square$ denotes the scalar eigenvalue of the wave operator. The two off-diagonal blocks multiply to $-\square \mathbf{I}_2$, so block elimination gives the ordinary matrix determinant

$$\begin{aligned} \det \begin{Bmatrix} -(s+m) \mathbf{I}_2 & \text{mat}(i\boldsymbol{\partial}) \\ \text{mat}(i\boldsymbol{\partial}^*) & -(s+m) \mathbf{I}_2 \end{Bmatrix} &= \det(((s+m)^2 + \square) \mathbf{I}_2) \\ &= ((s+m)^2 + \square)^2. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{A.14})$$

This verifies (12.8), including multiplicities. The polynomial identity also holds at $s = -m$.

A.7 Four components and the standard Dirac basis

Denote the fixed basis elements of (A.9) by $\eta_{\pm} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Both entries lie in their complex span. Write $\psi_+ = a\eta_+ + b\eta_-$ and $\psi_- = c'\eta_+ + d\eta_-$, where $a, b, c', d : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ are the four scalar components, forming a column in $\mathbb{C}^4$ at each event. Their columns are $\mathbf{c}'_+ = \{a, b\}^T$ and $\mathbf{c}'_- = \{c', d\}^T$; the primes on the columns denote the basis change $\mathbf{c}'_{\pm} = \mathbf{C}^H \mathbf{c}_{\pm}$. Recall real mass $m > 0$, real charge q , and real potentials $V : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ and $\mathbf{A} : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$. The gauge-covariant energy and kinetic momentum operators are $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$ and $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}$. Their momentum components in this frame are

$$\hat{P}_{q,1} = \mathbf{a} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q, \quad \hat{P}_{q,2} = (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{a}) \cdot \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q, \quad \hat{P}_{q,3} = \mathbf{u} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q.$$

Using (A.11), the coupled paravector equations give

$$(\hat{E}_q - \hat{P}_{q,3})c' - (\hat{P}_{q,1} - i\hat{P}_{q,2})d = ma, \quad (\text{A.15})$$

$$-(\hat{P}_{q,1} + i\hat{P}_{q,2})c' + (\hat{E}_q + \hat{P}_{q,3})d = mb, \quad (\text{A.16})$$

$$(\hat{E}_q + \hat{P}_{q,3})a + (\hat{P}_{q,1} - i\hat{P}_{q,2})b = mc', \quad (\text{A.17})$$

$$(\hat{P}_{q,1} + i\hat{P}_{q,2})a + (\hat{E}_q - \hat{P}_{q,3})b = md. \quad (\text{A.18})$$

Operators in (A.15)–(A.18) act on the scalar immediately to their right. Their Hamiltonian on $\{a, b, c', d\}^T$ is

$$\hat{H} = \begin{Bmatrix} qV - \hat{P}_{q,3} & -\hat{P}_{q,1} + i\hat{P}_{q,2} & m & 0 \\ -\hat{P}_{q,1} - i\hat{P}_{q,2} & qV + \hat{P}_{q,3} & 0 & m \\ m & 0 & qV + \hat{P}_{q,3} & \hat{P}_{q,1} - i\hat{P}_{q,2} \\ 0 & m & \hat{P}_{q,1} + i\hat{P}_{q,2} & qV - \hat{P}_{q,3} \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.19})$$

This is the component image of (12.15).

To identify conventional gamma matrices, put $\sigma_k = \text{mat}(\sigma_k)$ for $k = 1, 2, 3$. Here $\sigma_k \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$ and the gamma matrices below lie in $\mathbb{C}^{4 \times 4}$. The σ_k are also the images under mat' of $\mathbf{a} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, $(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{a}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, and $\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, respectively. Their numerical entries apply to every choice of $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{a}$. Define [16, Eqs. (4.16)–(4.17)]

$$\gamma^0 = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \mathbf{I}_2 \\ \mathbf{I}_2 & 0 \end{Bmatrix}, \quad (\text{A.20})$$

$$\gamma^k = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \sigma_k \\ -\sigma_k & 0 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.21})$$

Equations (A.20)–(A.21) obey $(\gamma^0)^2 = \mathbf{I}_4$, $(\gamma^k)^2 = -\mathbf{I}_4$, and $\gamma^j \gamma^k + \gamma^k \gamma^j = 0$ for distinct $j, k = 0, 1, 2, 3$. The standard chiral Dirac operator in this basis, with signature $(+, -, -, -)$, is

$$\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) \longleftrightarrow \gamma^0 \hat{E}_q - \sum_{k=1}^3 \gamma^k \hat{P}_{q,k}.$$

Here $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ is the real potential paravector.

The unitary change to the standard Dirac basis commutes with the scalar rest-phase factor explained in (13.4). Together they define the envelope columns

$$\begin{Bmatrix} \phi_+ \\ \phi_- \end{Bmatrix} = \frac{e^{imt}}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{Bmatrix} \mathbf{I}_2 & \mathbf{I}_2 \\ -\mathbf{I}_2 & \mathbf{I}_2 \end{Bmatrix} \begin{Bmatrix} \mathbf{c}'_+ \\ \mathbf{c}'_- \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.22})$$

Here $\phi_+, \phi_- \in \mathbb{C}^2$ are the coefficient columns in the same spin basis of the paravector fields $\phi_+ = e^{imt}(\psi_+ + \psi_-)/\sqrt{2}$ and $\phi_- = e^{imt}(\psi_- - \psi_+)/\sqrt{2}$. Before removing the rest phase, the basis change in (A.22) sends (A.19) to

$$\hat{H}' = \begin{Bmatrix} (qV + m)\mathbf{I}_2 & \sum_k \hat{P}_{q,k} \boldsymbol{\sigma}_k \\ \sum_k \hat{P}_{q,k} \boldsymbol{\sigma}_k & (qV - m)\mathbf{I}_2 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.23})$$

Multiplying the full column by e^{imt} subtracts m from its Hamiltonian: $i\partial_t(e^{imt}\psi) = e^{imt}(i\partial_t - m)\psi$. Thus (A.23) becomes $\hat{H}' - m\mathbf{I}_4$: its diagonal entries are qV and $qV - 2m$. Moving qV into $\hat{E}_q = i\partial_t - qV$ gives the exact envelope equations

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{E}_q \phi_+ &= \sum_k \hat{P}_{q,k} \boldsymbol{\sigma}_k \phi_-, \\ (\hat{E}_q + 2m) \phi_- &= \sum_k \hat{P}_{q,k} \boldsymbol{\sigma}_k \phi_+. \end{aligned}$$

These identify the large and small amplitudes used in the Pauli limit.

For real electric and magnetic components E_k, B_k in the same frame, the squared Dirac field coupling has the explicit image

$$\begin{aligned} \text{mat}'(iq\mathcal{F}) &= q \begin{Bmatrix} iE_3 - B_3 & iE_1 + E_2 - B_1 + iB_2 \\ iE_1 - E_2 - B_1 - iB_2 & -iE_3 + B_3 \end{Bmatrix}, \\ \text{mat}'(iq\mathcal{F}^*) &= \text{mat}'(iq\mathcal{F})^H. \end{aligned}$$

The indexed E_k are field components; whereas $\hat{E}_q$ is the gauge-covariant energy operator. The two couplings are $-q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \pm iq\mathbf{E} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$.

A.8 Quaternion matrix image

For the quaternion $\mathcal{Q} = a + \mathbf{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = a - i\mathbf{Q} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ of Section 5.4, with $a \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{Q} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{Q} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$, the explicit matrix image is [6, p. 10]

$$\text{mat}(\mathcal{Q}) = \begin{Bmatrix} a - iQ_3 & -Q_2 - iQ_1 \\ Q_2 - iQ_1 & a + iQ_3 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.24})$$

Here $\text{mat}(\nu_k) = -i\text{mat}(\sigma_k)$. The conjugation and norm identities become

$$\begin{aligned} \text{mat}(\mathcal{Q}^H) &= \text{mat}(\mathcal{Q})^H, \\ \text{mat}(\mathcal{Q})^H \text{mat}(\mathcal{Q}) &= (a^2 + \mathbf{Q}^2)\mathbf{I}_2, \\ \det(\text{mat}(\mathcal{Q})) &= a^2 + \mathbf{Q}^2. \end{aligned}$$

For a unit quaternion, $a^2 + \mathbf{Q}^2 = 1$, these identities give a unitary matrix of determinant one.

B Equation reference

Each displayed formula repeats a numbered result; its right-hand number links to the definition or derivation. Natural units are $\hbar = c = 1$. The linked text supplies domains, component expansions, and approximation conditions.

Algebra. Recall complex paravectors $\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $\mathcal{Z}' = c' + \mathbf{Z}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $c, c' \in \mathbb{C}$, $\mathbf{Z}, \mathbf{Z}' \in \mathbb{C}^3$, and $\mathcal{Z}, \mathcal{Z}' \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. The prime here labels a second element. Their product is

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Z}' &= (cc' + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \mathbf{Z}') \\ &\quad + (c\mathbf{Z}' + c'\mathbf{Z} + i\mathbf{Z} \times \mathbf{Z}') \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}. \end{aligned} \quad (2.9)$$

The basic operations are

$$\mathcal{Z}^H = c^* + \mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (1.7)$$

$$\mathcal{Z}^* = c^* - \mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (1.6)$$

$$\text{adj } \mathcal{Z} = \mathcal{Z}^{*H} = c - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (1.8)$$

$$\text{tr } \mathcal{Z} = 2 \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}), \quad (1.9)$$

$$\text{re}(\mathcal{Z}) = \frac{1}{2}(\mathcal{Z} + \mathcal{Z}^H), \quad (1.14)$$

$$\text{im}(\mathcal{Z}) = (\mathcal{Z} - \mathcal{Z}^H)/(2i), \quad (1.15)$$

$$\det \mathcal{Z} = \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z}) \mathcal{Z} = c^2 - \mathbf{Z}^2, \quad (1.10)$$

$$\mathcal{Z}^{-1} = \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z}) / \det \mathcal{Z} \quad (\det \mathcal{Z} \neq 0), \quad (1.12)$$

$$\|\mathcal{Z}\|^2 = \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}^H \mathcal{Z}). \quad (2.14)$$

The coefficient form is (2.1); product-order and cyclicity rules are (1.4), (1.5), and (1.13). Projectors and the spectral rule are (3.2) and (3.3). The quaternion component map is (5.6); matrix images are (A.1) and (A.24).

Rotations and boosts. Here $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ is a [unit axis](#), $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$ an angle or rapidity, $\mathcal{R} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{L} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$; $\beta = \tanh \theta$ and $\gamma = \cosh \theta$ in the boost formulas. The factors and their actions are

$$\mathcal{R} = \exp(-i\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2) = \cos(\theta/2) - i \sin(\theta/2) \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (4.5)$$

$$\mathcal{L} = \exp(-\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2) = \cosh(\theta/2) - \sinh(\theta/2) \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (4.6)$$

$$\mathcal{L} = \sqrt{\frac{\gamma+1}{2}} \left(1 - \frac{\gamma\beta}{\gamma+1} \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \right), \quad (4.15)$$

$$\mathcal{L}^2 = \gamma(1 - \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \quad (4.16)$$

$$\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{R} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{R}^H, \quad (5.4)$$

$$\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{L} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{L}, \quad (5.10)$$

$$\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{L} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{L}^{-1}. \quad (15.4)$$

Both $\mathcal{Z}$ transformations use $\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{T} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{T}^H$, with $\mathcal{R}^H = \mathcal{R}^{-1}$ and $\mathcal{L}^H = \mathcal{L}$. The $\mathcal{Z}$ boost acts on a real four-vector; the complex electromagnetic field $\mathcal{F}$ uses similarity. Both refer to the same frame. Rodrigues' rotation is (5.5); boost components are (5.11)–(5.12). The general determinant-one congruence is (5.2); interval preservation is (7.4). Physical field components are derived in Section 15, with matrix verification in Appendix A.4.

Spacetime and particles. Recall $\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{U}, \mathcal{P} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, $s, t, E \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{r}, \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{P} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and constant $m \in \mathbb{R}_{>0}$. The real four-velocity $\mathcal{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds$ is an **invertible paravector** with $\mathcal{U}\mathcal{U}^{-1} = 1$. The real kinetic four-momentum $\mathcal{P}$ has particle energy E (including rest energy, excluding potential energy) and spatial kinetic momentum $\mathbf{P}$. The kinematic identities are

$$\partial = \partial_t + \boldsymbol{\sigma} \cdot \partial_{\mathbf{r}}, \quad (8.1)$$

$$\square = \partial^* \partial = \partial_t^2 - \partial_{\mathbf{r}}^2, \quad (8.2)$$

$$ds^2 = \det(d\mathcal{X}) = dt^2 - d\mathbf{r}^2, \quad (6.1)$$

$$\mathcal{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds = \gamma(1 + \mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \quad (6.5)$$

$$\mathcal{U}^* \mathcal{U} = 1, \quad (6.6)$$

$$\mathcal{P} = m\mathcal{U} = E + \mathbf{P} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (6.7)$$

$$E^2 - \mathbf{P}^2 = m^2. \quad (6.8)$$

Here $\gamma = dt/ds = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-v^2}}$. Four-velocity is real, with **determinant one**; Hermitian unitarity is the separate condition (2.4). For real proper times $s_0 < s_1$ and coordinate times $t_0 < t$,

$$\mathcal{X}(s_1) - \mathcal{X}(s_0) = \int_{s_0}^{s_1} \mathcal{U}(s) ds, \quad (6.21)$$

$$s(t) - s(t_0) = \int_{t_0}^t \frac{dt'}{\gamma(t')} = \int_{t_0}^t \sqrt{1 - \mathbf{v}(t')^2} dt'. \quad (6.22)$$

Clock comparison is (6.23); constant proper acceleration gives (6.28); the future cone is (6.2). Proper acceleration, inertia, and particle action are (6.10), (6.11), and (7.12). Moving-frame velocity and its causal bound are (7.6)–(7.7); clock dilation and measured contraction are (7.8) and (7.9); energy and momentum transform by (7.10)–(7.11).

Electromagnetism. Recall the real four-velocity $\mathcal{U} = d\mathcal{X}/ds$, an **invertible paravector** with $\mathcal{U}\mathcal{U}^{-1} = 1$. Recall $V, \rho, S, q \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{A}, \mathbf{E}, \mathbf{B}, \mathbf{J} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, $\mathcal{A}, \mathcal{J} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{F} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. The coefficient fields depend on real spacetime; q is constant charge. Their boosted arguments and components are (15.5) and (15.6)–(15.7). The field and particle equations are

$$\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (9.1)$$

$$\partial \mathcal{F} = \mathcal{J}^*, \quad (9.2)$$

$$\square \mathcal{F}^* = \partial \mathcal{J}, \quad \square \mathcal{F} = \partial^* \mathcal{J}^*, \quad (9.7)$$

$$\mathcal{F}^* = \partial \mathcal{A} - S, \quad (9.11)$$

$$\mathcal{F}^2 = \mathbf{E}^2 - \mathbf{B}^2 + 2i\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{B}, \quad (9.15)$$

$$\frac{d\mathcal{P}}{ds} = q \operatorname{re}(\mathcal{F}\mathcal{U}), \quad (9.21)$$

$$T(\mathcal{N}) = \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{N} \mathcal{F}^H, \quad (9.22)$$

$$\partial_t u + \partial_{\mathbf{r}} \cdot \mathbf{S} = -\mathbf{J} \cdot \mathbf{E}. \quad (9.23)$$

Here $T : \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ is the stress map, $\mathcal{N} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ its argument, $u \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}$ field energy density, and $\mathbf{S} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ energy flux. Potential components are (9.12)–(9.13); force components are (9.17) and (9.19). The action derivation uses (9.14) and (9.16).

Relativistic waves. Recall $m \in \mathbb{R}_{>0}$, $q, V \in \mathbb{R}$, $\mathbf{A} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{A} = V + \mathbf{A} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$. Here $\hat{E}_q$ is a scalar differential operator and $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q$ a triple of them; $\psi : \mathbb{R}^4 \rightarrow \mathbb{C}$ is a KG field. The Dirac field ψ has two entries in the same fixed spinor ideal, hence four complex coordinates. Here, subscript 0 labels the uncoupled operators of (10.13). The operators and wave equations are

$$\hat{E}_q = \hat{E}_0 - qV = i\partial_t - qV, \quad (10.15)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q = \hat{\mathbf{P}}_0 - q\mathbf{A} = -i\partial_{\mathbf{r}} - q\mathbf{A}, \quad (10.16)$$

$$\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q = \hat{\mathcal{P}}_0 - q\mathcal{A} = \hat{E}_q + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (10.17)$$

$$(\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma})^2 = \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (10.19)$$

$$[\hat{E}_q, \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}] = iq\mathbf{E} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad (10.20)$$

$$(-\hat{E}_q^2 + \hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 + m^2)\psi = 0, \quad (11.3)$$

$$\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z}) = \begin{Bmatrix} 0 & \text{adj}(\mathcal{Z}) \\ \mathcal{Z} & 0 \end{Bmatrix}. \quad (12.2)$$

Here $\mathcal{Z} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$; $\mathbf{W}(\mathcal{Z})$ and $\mathbf{I}$ are represented by matrices in $\mathbb{C}^{4 \times 4}$, whereas $\hat{\mathbf{D}}$ and $\hat{\mathbf{D}}_q$ are matrix differential operators. For the free field ($q = 0$),

$$\hat{\mathcal{P}} \text{ adj}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) = \det \hat{\mathcal{P}} = \hat{E}^2 - \hat{\mathbf{P}}^2 = -\square, \quad (10.18)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{D}}(m) = \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}) - m\mathbf{I}, \quad (12.3)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{D}}(m)\psi = 0, \quad (12.4)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{D}}(-m)\hat{\mathbf{D}}(m) = -(\square + m^2)\mathbf{I}. \quad (12.5)$$

For fixed q and $\mathcal{A}$, the interacting definition and equation are

$$\hat{\mathbf{D}}_q(m) = \mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) - m\mathbf{I}, \quad (12.11)$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{D}}_q(m)\psi = (\mathbf{W}(\hat{\mathcal{P}}_q) - m\mathbf{I})\psi = 0. \quad (12.12)$$

Both $\hat{\mathbf{D}}(-m)$ and $\hat{\mathbf{D}}_q(-m)$ change only the sign of the mass term. The free equations are (11.1) and (12.4); the two-branch solution is (11.2). Massive Dirac reconstruction is given by (12.10) and (12.21); the squared interacting entries are (12.19) and (12.20).

Low-energy limits. After removing rest energy by (13.4) and (13.1), the complex scalar envelope ψ obeys Schrödinger's equation to leading order:

$$i\partial_t\psi = \left(qV + \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2}{2m} \right) \psi. \quad (13.3)$$

The envelope ϕ_+ in the fixed two-dimensional complex spinor ideal of $\mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ obeys Pauli's equation:

$$i\partial_t\phi_+ = \left(qV + \frac{\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q^2 - q\mathbf{B} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}}{2m} \right) \phi_+. \quad (13.9)$$

The derivations and approximation conditions are in Section 13; these are the same leading order for scalar and spinor amplitudes respectively.

Spin and probabilities. Recall a nonzero ψ in the fixed spinor ideal, $\rho \in \mathbb{R}_{>0}$, and polarization and measurement axes $\mathbf{u}', \mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ of unit norm. The real observable $\mathbf{Z} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ acts from the left. A rotation uses

$$\psi' = \mathcal{R}\psi. \quad (14.1)$$

It preserves the norm and inner product; the expectation transforms as $\langle \mathbf{Z} \rangle_{\psi'} = \langle \mathcal{R}^H \mathbf{Z} \mathcal{R} \rangle_{\psi}$ by (10.8). All formulas are pointwise. For a nonnegative real weight $\mathbf{Z}$ from (10.5), the densities and measurements are

$$\rho = \|\psi\|^2 = \text{sc}(\psi^H \psi), \quad (10.3)$$

$$\|\psi\|_{\mathbf{Z}}^2 = \text{sc}(\psi^H \mathbf{Z} \psi), \quad (10.5)$$

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}' = \text{sc}(\psi^H (\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}) \psi) / \rho, \quad (14.3)$$

$$\text{prob}(\pm \mid \mathbf{u}) = \frac{1}{2}(1 \pm \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}'), \quad (14.4)$$

$$\langle \mathbf{Z} \rangle_{\psi} = \text{sc}(\psi^H \mathbf{Z} \psi) / \rho. \quad (10.6)$$

The expectation formula also applies to signed real observables. The matrix verification is (A.12)–(A.13).

C Conventions

Unadorned source symbols below retain each source's meaning. In our coefficient notation, $\mathcal{Z}, \mathcal{G} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$, $\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}, \mathcal{A}, \mathcal{P}, \mathcal{J} \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, and $\mathcal{F} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$. Physical factors $\mathcal{G}$ have determinant one; spinor amplitudes lie in the fixed ideal of (10.2).

Mapping to the literature. Our algebra is the algebra of physical space (APS), $\text{Cl}_{3,0}$, with the conventions of Baylis and Sobczyk [1, pp. 4–6]. The table translates the notation of the [Paravector article](#); A denotes a general element and x a real paravector.

Object or operation	This paper	APS notation
Spatial basis	σ_k	$\mathbf{e}_k$
Central imaginary unit	$\mathbf{i} = \sigma_1 \sigma_2 \sigma_3$	$i = \mathbf{e}_{123}$
Real paravector	$\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$	$x = x^0 + \mathbf{x}$
General algebra element	$\mathcal{Z} = c + \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$	A (complex paravector)
Reversion	$\mathcal{Z}^{\text{H}}$	$A^\dagger$
Clifford conjugation	$\text{adj } \mathcal{Z}$	$\bar{A}$
Grade involution	$\mathcal{Z}^*$	$\bar{A}^\dagger$
Complex scalar part	$\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z})$	$\langle A \rangle_S$
Complex vector part	$(\text{vec}(\mathcal{Z})) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$	$\langle A \rangle_V$
Real part	$\text{re}(\mathcal{Z})$	$\langle A \rangle_R$
Imaginary part	$\mathbf{i} \text{im}(\mathcal{Z})$	$\langle A \rangle_I$
Spacetime quadratic form	$\det \mathcal{X} = t^2 - \mathbf{r}^2$	$x\bar{x}$
Projectors	Π_+, Π_-	$P_{\mathbf{u}}, \bar{P}_{\mathbf{u}}$

Real paravectors have four real components; complex $\mathcal{Z}$ packages all eight APS components. Here $\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z})$ includes the pseudoscalar, and $\text{im}(\mathcal{Z})$ removes the imaginary part's factor $\mathbf{i}$.

In particular, the bar is our adjugate, not our star:

$$\bar{A} \longleftrightarrow c - \mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad \bar{A}^\dagger \longleftrightarrow c^* - \mathbf{Z}^* \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

They coincide only for real paravectors. Our star conjugates complex coefficients but is grade involution on the full algebra. Wikipedia's [paragradient](#) maps to our starred derivative:

$$\partial_{\text{article}} = \partial_t - \nabla \longleftrightarrow \boldsymbol{\partial}^*, \quad \bar{\partial}_{\text{article}} \longleftrightarrow \boldsymbol{\partial}, \quad \square = \boldsymbol{\partial} \boldsymbol{\partial}^*.$$

Baylis's rotor action $x' = GxG^\dagger$ is our $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{G}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{G}^{\text{H}}$; his field $\mathbf{E} + i\mathbf{B}$ and law $F' = GF\bar{G}$ become our $\mathcal{F} = (\mathbf{E} + \mathbf{iB}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and $\mathcal{F}' = \mathcal{G}\mathcal{F}\mathcal{G}^{-1}$ for $\det \mathcal{G} = 1$ ($c = 1$) [5, Eq. (23)] [5, Eq. (24)] [5, Eq. (33)]. His positively oriented spatial-plane generator is $\mathbf{e}_2 \mathbf{e}_1 = -i\mathbf{e}_3$, giving our $\mathcal{R} = e^{-i\theta\sigma_3/2}$ about $+\sigma_3$ [5, Eqs. (17)–(19)]. His positive-rapidity boost factor, denoted here by $\mathcal{B}$, satisfies

$$\mathcal{B} = e^{+\theta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}/2} = \mathcal{L}^{-1}, \quad \mathcal{B}^2 = \gamma(1 + \beta \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}), \quad \mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{B}^{-1} \mathcal{X} (\mathcal{B}^{-1})^{\text{H}} = \mathcal{L} \mathcal{X} \mathcal{L}^{\text{H}}.$$

Thus our passive boost uses the inverse of his positive active boost [5, p. 23]; the active/passive distinction is explicit in [1, Eq. (38)]. The algebra is standard; exponent signs must be read with the transformation direction and sandwich order.

To translate to Hestenes's four-dimensional STA, choose an observer axis γ_0 , with $\gamma_0^2 = 1$ and $\gamma_k^2 = -1$. The identification with its even subalgebra is [1, Eq. (40)] [1, Eq. (41)]

$$\sigma_k \longleftrightarrow \gamma_k \gamma_0, \quad \text{adj } \mathcal{Z} \longleftrightarrow \tilde{Z}_{\text{STA}}, \quad \mathcal{Z}^{\text{H}} \longleftrightarrow \gamma_0 \tilde{Z}_{\text{STA}} \gamma_0.$$

Here $\gamma_\mu \in \text{Cl}_{1,3}$ are spacetime basis vectors, not the numerical gamma matrices of Appendix A.7. The image Z_{STA} lies in the even subalgebra $\text{Cl}_{1,3}^+$, and the tilde reverses STA products: reversion in APS and reversion in STA are different operations.

Source comparisons for the cited equations. Body citations point to matching definitions or physical component results. The source locators below identify those comparisons; intervening algebra and our block-map packaging are derived in this paper.

Result here	Direct source comparison
Sigma product, conjugations, and extractions (1.1)–(1.15)	[1, pp. 4–6]; [2, Eq. (3)].
Squared norm (2.14); inverse (1.12)	[2, Eqs. (46)–(47)].
Quaternions (5.6); projectors (3.2)	[3, p. 92]; [3, p. 121].
Spectral rule (3.3); coalescence (3.5)	[4, pp. 3–4].
Interval and four-velocity (6.1)–(6.5)	[5, Eqs. (7)–(8)].
Momentum, acceleration, and world lines (6.7), (6.10), (6.28)	[9, Eq. (7.24)]; [9, p. 141]; [9, Eq. (7.33), p. 143].
Maxwell, stress map, and energy flux (9.2), (9.22)	[8, Eq. (177)]; [8, Eq. (167)]; [8, Eq. (180)].
Potential, gauge, and field action (9.12)–(9.13), (9.14)	[7, p. 105]; [7, Eq. (5.42)]; [7, Eq. (5.43)]; [7, Eqs. (6.1)–(6.3)]; [7, Eq. (6.4)].
Lorentz force (9.21); components (9.17), (9.19)	[10, Eq. (2)]; [7, Eqs. (5.32)–(5.33)].
Boosted components (7.2), (15.7)	[7, Eq. (5.1)]; [7, Eqs. (5.17)–(5.18)].
KG and minimally coupled Dirac (11.1), (11.3), (12.12)	[16, Eq. (1.13)]; [17, Eq. (299)]; [8, Eqs. (190)–(191)].
Chiral squared Dirac (12.19)	[18, Eq. (6)].
Kinetic operators, small amplitude, and Pauli (10.16), (13.8), (13.9)	[12, Eqs. (2.11)–(2.16)].
KG to Schrödinger (13.3)	[19, Eq. (21.3)]; [16, Eqs. (2.103)–(2.104)]; [16, Eq. (2.105)].
Spin amplitudes and probabilities (10.2), (14.4)	[11, Eqs. (66)–(67)]; [11, Eq. (69a)]; [13, Eq. (6.1)]; [13, p. 62].

Translating the physical comparisons. Tong’s component electrodynamics uses SI units; our formulas set $c = \epsilon_0 = \mu_0 = 1$. His gauge parameter in Eq. (5.13) is $\chi = -\lambda$, whereas Eq. (6.2) uses our plus-sign convention [7, Eq. (5.13)] [7, Eq. (6.2)]. His positive-exponent spatial rotation is a passive axis rotation; his negative-exponent boost agrees with our passive boost [9, Eq. (7.38)] [9, Eq. (7.39)].

Chappell et al.’s scalar Z is our c , and their vector–bivector F is our $\mathbf{Z} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with $|F|^2 = -\mathbf{Z}^2$. Thus their trigonometric exponential is our hyperbolic form [2, Eq. (52)].

For the quaternion basis, Baylis identifies the Hamilton units with $\mathbf{e}_{32}, \mathbf{e}_{13}, \mathbf{e}_{21}$, respectively [3, p. 92]. With $\mathbf{e}_k \leftrightarrow \sigma_k$, these are exactly our $-\mathrm{i}\sigma_1, -\mathrm{i}\sigma_2, -\mathrm{i}\sigma_3$. Higham’s spectral and repeated-root formulas apply through the faithful matrix image in Appendix A; no change of the intrinsic product is required [4, pp. 3–4].

Lenz’s scalar potentials ϕ, Φ are our V ; set $\hbar = c = 1$ and $e = q$. His Dirac Hamiltonian is the matrix form (A.23) [17, Eq. (412)].

For Hestenes’s Maxwell equation, write ∇_{STA} for his spacetime derivative and J_{STA} for his current. Using the STA embedding above,

$$\nabla_{\text{STA}} = \gamma_0 \partial, \quad J_{\text{STA}} = \mathcal{J} \gamma_0 = \gamma_0 \mathcal{J}^*, \quad \partial \mathcal{F} = \mathcal{J}^* \iff \nabla_{\text{STA}} \mathcal{F} = J_{\text{STA}}.$$

His explicit spacetime split is already our component equation [8, Eqs. (175)–(177)]. For a real spacetime vector $n \in \mathbb{R}^{1,3}$, put $\mathcal{N} = n\gamma_0 \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$ in the observer’s paravector identification. His stress map $T_{\text{STA}}(n) = \frac{1}{2} F n F$, with $F^{\text{H}} = \gamma_0 \tilde{F} \gamma_0$, gives

$$T_{\text{STA}}(n)\gamma_0 = \frac{1}{2} \mathcal{F} \mathcal{N} \mathcal{F}^{\text{H}} = T(\mathcal{N}),$$

including the energy and flux components in his Eq. (180) [8, Eq. (167)] [8, Eq. (180)].

For Dirac and Pauli, Hestenes and Gurtler–Hestenes represent the complex unit by right multiplication by the spatial bivector $\mathrm{i}\sigma_3$ on their real spinor; it acts as ordinary i in the corresponding column spinor [8, Eqs. (187)–(188)] [8, Eqs. (192)–(193)]. Set $e = q$ and $\hbar = c = 1$. Gurtler–Hestenes’s V is potential energy (our qV); after removal of rest energy, their operators K and p correspond to our $\hat{E}_q$ and $\hat{\mathbf{P}}_q \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$. Their large/small equations and Pauli limit then have the same components [12, Eqs. (2.11)–(2.19)].

Feynman–Gell-Mann absorb charge into the potential. Restoring it, their Eq. (6) is our first squared Dirac block because

$$-\mathrm{i}q\mathcal{F}^* = q(\mathbf{B} + \mathrm{i}\mathbf{E}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}, \quad -\mathrm{i}q\mathcal{F} = q(\mathbf{B} - \mathrm{i}\mathbf{E}) \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}.$$

The two blocks therefore have the same magnetic sign and opposite electric signs [18, Eq. (6)].

Baylis et al.’s RP_3 is a two-component minimal-ideal spinor; its rotations agree with our left amplitude action. Their density-operator formula gives the same $(1 + \mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{u}')/2$ probability after basis normalization, extending to mixed states with $\|\mathbf{u}'\| \leq 1$ [11, Eqs. (66)–(67)]. Feynman’s spin chapter uses passive basis rotations; its 2π sign and probability statements agree, while an active rotor uses the inverse rotation [20, Eq. (6.19)].

Fix the right-handed sigma product and write $\mathcal{N} = \mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} \in \{0\} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, with $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^3$, $\mathbf{u}^2 = 1$, and $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$. The alternatives below change notation or transformation direction, not the underlying physics. The main text uses $\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{R}_-$ and $\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}_-$, with

$$\mathcal{R}_\pm = e^{\pm i\theta\mathcal{N}/2}, \quad \mathcal{L}_\pm = e^{\pm\theta\mathcal{N}/2}, \quad \mathcal{R}_\pm^H = \mathcal{R}_\pm^{-1} = \mathcal{R}_\mp, \quad \mathcal{L}_\pm^H = \mathcal{L}_\pm, \quad \mathcal{L}_\pm^{-1} = \mathcal{L}_\mp.$$

Here $\mathcal{R}_\pm \in \mathbb{R} \oplus i\mathbb{R}^3$, $\mathcal{L}_\pm \in \mathbb{R} \oplus \mathbb{R}^3$, and θ is a rotation angle or rapidity respectively.

Exponent sign and sandwich order. For $\mathcal{X} = t + \mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, the four choices for each kind of factor are summarized by the two action columns:

Factor $\mathcal{T}$	$\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}^H$	$\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T}^H\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}$
$\mathcal{R}_-$	Active rotation $+\theta$	Active rotation $-\theta$
$\mathcal{R}_+$	Active rotation $-\theta$	Active rotation $+\theta$
$\mathcal{L}_-$	Frame velocity $+\beta\mathbf{u}$	Frame velocity $+\beta\mathbf{u}$
$\mathcal{L}_+$	Frame velocity $-\beta\mathbf{u}$	Frame velocity $-\beta\mathbf{u}$

For rotations $t' = t$. Both $+\theta$ entries give

$$\mathbf{r}' = \mathbf{r} \cos \theta + (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{r}) \sin \theta + (1 - \cos \theta)(\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathbf{u}.$$

This is the active right-handed Rodrigues formula (5.5); a passive rotation of axes uses the inverse map.

For boosts, $\beta = \tanh \theta$ and $\gamma = \cosh \theta$. Writing $\mathbf{r}_\parallel = (\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r})\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{r}_\perp = \mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\parallel$, both sandwiches with $\mathcal{L}_\pm$ give

$$t' = \gamma(t \pm \beta\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{r}), \quad \mathbf{r}' = \mathbf{r}_\perp + \gamma(\mathbf{r}_\parallel \pm \beta t\mathbf{u}).$$

The minus choice sends $\mathbf{r} = \beta t\mathbf{u}$ to $\mathbf{r}' = 0$, fixing its frame velocity. Moving the adjoint reverses a rotation but has no effect on a boost; reversing the boost exponent gives the inverse frame transformation. The same $\mathcal{L}_+$ map can instead describe an active boost to velocity $+\beta\mathbf{u}$ in fixed coordinates.

Hamilton quaternions fix the basis orientation. With the sigma orientation held fixed, the two uniform sign choices obey

$$\begin{aligned} \nu_k &= -i\sigma_k : & \nu_j\nu_k &= -\delta_{jk} + \epsilon_{jkl}\nu_l, \\ \tilde{\nu}_k &= +i\sigma_k : & \tilde{\nu}_j\tilde{\nu}_k &= -\delta_{jk} - \epsilon_{jkl}\tilde{\nu}_l. \end{aligned}$$

Repeated l is summed. Thus $\nu_1\nu_2 = \nu_3$ is Hamilton's convention, whereas $\tilde{\nu}_1\tilde{\nu}_2 = -\tilde{\nu}_3$ has opposite orientation. For the Hamilton basis, Section 5.4 gives

$$\mathcal{Q} = e^{\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu}/2} = \mathcal{R}_-, \quad \mathcal{Q}^H = \mathcal{Q}^{-1}, \quad \mathbf{r}' \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = \mathcal{Q}(\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu})\mathcal{Q}^H.$$

Since $\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = -i\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$ and i commutes with $\mathcal{Q}$, the same sandwich rotates $\mathbf{r} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma}$, with no extra sign. For example, $\mathcal{Q} = (1 - i\sigma_3)/\sqrt{2}$ sends σ_1 to σ_2 .

Using $\tilde{\nu}_k$ with $\tilde{\mathcal{Q}} = e^{\theta\mathbf{u} \cdot \tilde{\boldsymbol{\nu}}/2} = \mathcal{R}_+$ and the right-adjoint sandwich instead gives $-\theta$. Recover $+\theta$ by reversing either the exponent or the sandwich. Reflecting the basis also restores Hamilton multiplication, but changes its identification with the physical axes. Replacing a factor by its negative leaves both sandwiches unchanged; the spinor acquires an overall minus sign. Consequently rotations are 2π -periodic on vectors and 4π -periodic on amplitudes.

Rotating a state versus changing the measured observable. With the Hamilton basis, the two consistent descriptions of the same active $+\theta$ rotation are

Choice	Quaternion relation	Rotated observable	Rotated amplitude
$\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{R}_-$	$\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{Q}$	$\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{R}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{R}^H$	$\psi' = \mathcal{R}\psi$
$\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{R}_+$	$\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{Q}^H$	$\mathcal{Z}' = \mathcal{R}^H\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{R}$	$\psi' = \mathcal{R}^H\psi$

Both have physical amplitude factor $e^{-i\theta\mathcal{N}/2}$ and spin generator $\mathcal{N}/2$. Changing only the vector sandwich would reverse its rotation relative to the spin polarization.

For $\mathcal{G} \in \mathbb{C} \oplus \mathbb{C}^3$ with $\det \mathcal{G} \neq 0$ acting as $\psi' = \mathcal{G}\psi$, the definitions (10.3) and (10.6) give

$$\begin{aligned}\rho &= \|\psi\|^2, & \rho' &= \rho \langle \mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{G} \rangle_\psi, \\ \langle \varphi' | \psi' \rangle &= \text{sc}(\varphi^H \mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{G} \psi), \\ \langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_{\psi'} &= \frac{\langle \mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{G} \rangle_\psi}{\langle \mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{G} \rangle_\psi}.\end{aligned}$$

Here $\varphi' = \mathcal{G}\varphi$, and $\rho > 0$. For a rotation $\mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{G} = 1$:

$$\boxed{\langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_{\psi'} = \langle \mathcal{G}^H \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{G} \rangle_\psi, \quad \langle \mathcal{G} \mathcal{Z} \mathcal{G}^H \rangle_{\psi'} = \langle \mathcal{Z} \rangle_\psi.} \quad (\text{C.1})$$

The first identity measures fixed $\mathcal{Z}$ in the rotated state; the second rotates the observable with the state. Thus the opposite sandwich orders in (C.1) are required, not competing conventions. For $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{L}_\pm$, the denominator is $\langle \mathcal{L}_\pm^2 \rangle_\psi$: boosts generally change the local positive density and inner product.

Fields and wave amplitudes under either notation. Let $\mathcal{G}$ be the constant physical factor of determinant one, so $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{G}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{G}^H$. For notation $\mathcal{T}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}^H$ take $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{T}$; for $\mathcal{T}^H\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}$ take $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{T}^H$. At corresponding events the laws are

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{Z}' &= \mathcal{G}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{G}^H, & \mathcal{Z} &= \mathcal{X}, \mathcal{P}, \mathcal{A}, \mathcal{J}, \\ \mathcal{F}' &= \mathcal{G}\mathcal{F}\mathcal{G}^{-1}, & \partial' &= \mathcal{G}^* \partial \mathcal{G}^{-1}, \\ \psi'_+ &= \mathcal{G}^* \psi_+, & \psi'_- &= \mathcal{G} \psi_-, \\ \psi'_{\text{KG}}(\mathcal{X}') &= \psi_{\text{KG}}(\mathcal{X}).\end{aligned} \quad (\text{C.2})$$

These are the covariance laws of Section 15; $\mathcal{G}^* = (\mathcal{G}^{-1})^H$. The field $\mathcal{F}$ uses similarity, not the four-vector sandwich. Equation (C.2) preserves the Maxwell, Klein–Gordon, and Dirac equations.

For either rotation description, both Dirac entries use $\mathcal{R}_-$. For $\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{L}_\pm$, they use $\mathcal{L}_\pm^{-1}$ and $\mathcal{L}_\pm$, respectively; the factor already contains half the rapidity. With $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{T}^H\mathcal{X}\mathcal{T}$, the same laws read $\psi'_+ = \mathcal{T}^{-1}\psi_+$ and $\psi'_- = \mathcal{T}^H\psi_-$. The scalar paired quantity $\text{sc}(\psi_+^H \psi_-)$ is invariant; the sum of the two positive densities generally changes under boosts. The conserved Dirac current transforms as a four-vector; its time component alone is not invariant. For products, the physical factors compose as $\mathcal{G}_2\mathcal{G}_1$. Hence the right-adjoint parameters compose as $\mathcal{T}_2\mathcal{T}_1$, but the left-adjoint parameters compose as $\mathcal{T}_1\mathcal{T}_2$.

Preserved quantities. The sign of the angle or rapidity changes the direction, not these invariance statements. Here $\mathcal{Z}$ is a complex paravector and $\|\mathcal{Z}\|^2 = \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}^H \mathcal{Z})$; “no” means not generally preserved.

Action	$\det \mathcal{Z}$	$\text{tr } \mathcal{Z}, \text{sc}(\mathcal{Z})$	$\ \mathcal{Z}\ ^2$
Rotation $\mathcal{R}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{R}^H$	Yes	Yes	Yes
Boost $\mathcal{L}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{L}^H$	Yes	No	No
Field similarity $\mathcal{G}\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{G}^{-1}$	Yes	Yes	If $\mathcal{G}$ is unitary

For real four-vectors transformed together, both rotations and boosts preserve

$$\text{sc}(\mathcal{X}'^* \mathcal{Y}') = \text{sc}(\mathcal{X}^* \mathcal{Y}).$$

Similarity also preserves $\text{sc}(\mathcal{Z}\mathcal{Y})$ when both factors transform by similarity. The positive amplitude inner product is rotation invariant; boost invariance instead applies to the spacetime metric and the paired Dirac quantity above. Normalized expectations remain equal for a state and observable rotated together, not for an arbitrary fixed observable.

The main convention $\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{Q} = \mathcal{R}_-$, $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{R}\mathcal{X}\mathcal{R}^H$, $\psi' = \mathcal{R}\psi$ uses the Hamilton quaternion directly. The alternative $\mathcal{R} = \mathcal{Q}^H = \mathcal{R}_+$, $\mathcal{X}' = \mathcal{R}^H \mathcal{X} \mathcal{R}$, $\psi' = \mathcal{R}^H \psi$ is equally consistent. Either can use $\mathcal{L}^H \mathcal{X} \mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L} \mathcal{X} \mathcal{L}^H$ with the boost sign fixed by the chosen frame velocity.

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